



RKDF UNIVERSITY, BHOPAL

Open Distance Learning Program

Bachelor of Arts (B.A.)

Fourth Semester

Course – B.A. History

Course	Category	Subject	Subject Code
B.A.	Major	History of India (1740AD to 1857AD)	BA HS -401
Total Credit: 6		Max.Marks:100 (Internal:40+External:60)	

Units	Topic	Duration (In Hours)	Marks
I	Establishment of East India Company I. Sources of Modern Indian History II. Advent of Europeans in India III. Karnataka Wars- Causes, events & consequences. IV. Third Battle of Panipat. V. Battle of Plassey and Buxer. VI. Dual Government in Bengal.	18	20
II	Expansion of British Empire In India I. Reforms of Warren Hastings, Cornwallis & Subsidiary Alliance of Wellesely. II. Maharaja Ranjit Singh and his achievements III. Lord Hastings and British Paramountcy, Lord Dalhousie's Doctrine of Lapse IV. Lord William Bentick and his reforms.	18	20
III	Maratha Rule Mughal – Maratha Relations Peshwai. Sikh Rule	18	20
IV	The background of the Indian National Movement. Regional movement prior of 1857.	18	20
V	Resistance to British Rule and Indian Renaissance I. First war of Indian independence: 1857- Nature, causes, events, results and impact. Failure of the struggle. II. Role of women in the the struggle Laxmi Bai, Avanti Bai and Baija Bai./ III. Indian Renaissance-Nature, causes and consequences. Socio-Religious movements- Raja Ram Mohan Rai, Ishwar Chand Vidhya Sagar, Dayanand Saraswati .	18	20

Part- C Learning Resource

Text Books, Reference Books, Other Resources

Suggested Readings:

1. Majumdar, R.C. The History and Culture of Indian People Vol. 1. Vedic Age, Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
2. Majumdar, R.C.. The History and Culture of Indian People Vol. II. The Age of Imperial Unity, Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
3. Majumdar, R.C. The History and Culture of Indian People, Vol III. The Classical Age. Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954 \
4. Majumdar R.C. The History of Indian People, Vol IV, The Age Imperial Kanauj. Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
5. Majumdar R.C. The History of Indian People, vol. V. The Struggle for Empire, Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
6. Jayaswal, Vidula: Bhartiya Itihas Ke Adi Chara ki Rooprekha, Delhi, 1987
7. Pandey, Rajbali: Prachin Bharat, Vishwavidyalaya Prakashan, Varanasi, 2010.
8. Raychaudhary, H.C. Political History of Ancient India) 1996. Also, in Hindi.
9. Sankalia, HD. Prehistory and Prohistory of India and Pakistan, Poona 1974
10. Sastri, K.A Nilakanta: A History of South India, from Prehistoric Times to the fall of Vijayanagar, Oxford University Press, 1955; Also, in Hindi.
11. Singh, Kripa Shankar: Rigveda, Harrappa Sabhiyata and Sanskrit Nirantana, Kitab Ghar publication, New Delhi, 2007.
12. Singh, Upinder: A history of Ancient and Early Medieval India, 2008, Pearson India, New Delhi, Hindi
13. Thapar, Romila: Early India from the Beginnings to 1300, London, 2002.
14. Tripathi R. S.: History of Ancient India, Motilal Banarasidas, Delhi. Also in Hindi

Suggestive digital platforms web links:

1. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/History_of_India
2. <https://knowindia.gov.in/culture-and-heritage/ancient-history.php>
3. <https://www.history.com/tag/india>
4. <https://byjus.com/free-ias-prep/ncert-ancient-history-notes/>
5. <https://www.clearias.com/indian-history-chronology/>
6. <https://www.jagranjosh.com/general-knowledge/history-of-ancient-india-a-complete-study-material-1464928278-1>
7. <https://sourcebooks.fordham.edu/india/indiasbook.asp>
8. <https://www.worldhistory.org/india/>
9. <https://asiasociety.org/india-historical-overview>

Bibliography

Ahmad, Manazir. *Sultan Firoz Shah Tughlaq, 1351-1388 A.D.* Chugh Publications, 1978

Ashrafi, Anjum. *The Khilji and Tughlaq dynasties.* Shree Publishers, New Delhi, 2022

Husain, Agha M. . *Tughlaq dynasty.* Spink, Calcutta, 1963

Khan, Ahmad N. *Islamic architecture in South Asia: Pakistan, India, Bangladesh.* Oxford University Press, Karachi, 2003

Majumdar, R. C., ed. . *The Delhi Sultanate (1300-1526 AD).* vol 6. . Bharatiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1989

Mishra, Patit P. . " *Delhi Sultanate* ." *Berkshire Encyclopedia of World History.* vol. 2. , edited by William H. McNeill, ed. Berkshire Publishing Group, Great Barrington, Massachusetts, 2005, 506-7.

[Ramprakash Mathur. *Medieval Indian History.* Murari Lal & Sons, 1970.](#)

Rani, Abha. *Tughlaq Architecture of Delhi.* Bharati Prakashan, Varanasi, 1991

[Ray, Aniruddha. *The Sultanate of Delhi .* Routledge, 2019.](#)

Unit 1-

Establishment of East India Company

I. Sources of Modern Indian History

II. Advent of Europeans in India

III. Karnataka Wars- Causes, events & consequences.

IV. Third Battle of Panipat. V. Battle of Plassey and Buxer.

VI. Dual Government in Bengal.

Modern Indian history is a vast and complex subject that encompasses the period from the mid-18th century to the present day. To study this period comprehensively, one must consult a variety of sources that include primary documents, secondary analyses, academic works, historical narratives, government records, and multimedia resources. Here are some key sources and references for studying modern Indian history:

Primary Sources:

1. **Official Records:** Archives such as the National Archives of India (NAI) contain a wealth of official documents, correspondence, and administrative records from the British colonial period and post-independence era.
2. **Diaries and Memoirs:** Personal accounts, diaries, and memoirs of historical figures provide valuable insights into the events, personalities, and perspectives of the time.
3. **Newspapers and Journals:** Contemporary newspapers and journals offer firsthand reports, editorials, and opinions on significant events, movements, and social issues of the period.
4. **Speeches and Letters:** Speeches, letters, and public addresses by political leaders, activists, and intellectuals provide valuable historical context and ideological insights.

Secondary Sources:

1. **Books and Monographs:** Academic books, scholarly monographs, and research papers offer in-depth analyses and interpretations of various aspects of modern Indian history, covering topics such as colonialism, nationalism, partition, independence, and post-independence developments.
2. **Historical Surveys:** General histories and surveys of modern India provide broad overviews of major events, trends, and transformations, offering a framework for understanding the historical narrative.
3. **Biographies and Biographical Sketches:** Biographies of key historical figures offer nuanced perspectives on their lives, contributions, and legacies, illuminating their roles in shaping modern Indian history.
4. **Thematic Studies:** Studies focusing on specific themes such as economic history, social movements, cultural changes, religious reform movements, and political ideologies provide deeper insights into the complexities of modern Indian society.

Digital and Multimedia Sources:

1. **Online Archives:** Digital repositories and online archives provide access to digitized documents, photographs, maps, and audiovisual materials related to modern Indian history.
2. **Documentaries and Films:** Documentaries, films, and video recordings offer visual and audio representations of historical events, personalities, and cultural phenomena, complementing textual sources.
3. **Podcasts and Lectures:** Educational podcasts, lectures, and audio recordings by historians, scholars, and experts provide accessible and engaging discussions on various aspects of modern Indian history.
4. **Websites and Online Resources:** Websites of academic institutions, research centers, museums, and cultural organizations offer curated resources, bibliographies, timelines, and interactive exhibits on modern Indian history.

By consulting a diverse range of sources, researchers, students, and enthusiasts can gain a comprehensive understanding of modern Indian history, exploring its complexities, contradictions, and continuities over time.

SOURCES OF MODERN INDIAN HISTORY

A variety of source materials is available for studying modern Indian history. These include British administrative records, survey records, records of government orders, acts, letters, diaries of officials and other eyewitness accounts, letters written by Indian nationalist leaders to each other and records of court proceedings, etc. Historians use these sources according to their need.

ADMINISTRATIVE RECORDS

Official Records of the British administration are some important sources of modern Indian History. The British maintained strict control over the administration and ensured that all administrative actions were well documented. This practice created an administrative culture of memos, noting and reports.

SURVEYING

The British believed that to rule any country effectively, it is required to know that country properly. Therefore, detailed maps of the entire country were prepared during the early 19th century. Revenue surveys were conducted in the villages to know about the topography, soil, quality, flora, fauna, local history and the cropping pattern.

MONUMENTS AND TOWNS

The Britishers constructed forts, residential, official and public buildings, and quarters. The Victoria Memorial in Kolkata and Rashtrapati Bhavan are some of the important buildings constructed in this period. Besides, the British also founded towns, such as Shimla, the summer capital of British Raj.

These also provide valuable information for writing history. Books, Newspapers and Photographs Maulana Abul Kalam Azad and Dr. BR Ambedkar are extremely important. These books present the Indian perspective. Many newspapers were also published in India during this period, these helped in understanding the views and opinions of the Indians. They were published in English as well as in vernacular languages like Tamil, Urdu, Bengali, Gujarati, Marathi and Hindi. Raja Ram Mohan Roy started Mirat-ul-Akhbar, the first newspaper in Persian language. Bal Gangadhar Tilak published Kesari in Marathi and Mahratta in English. All these newspapers, through news, cartoons, letters and editorials, created awareness about the intentions of the British. Besides literary sources, maps,

photographs, and paintings also constitute an important part of the sources.

Advent of Europeans

The advent of Europeans in India marked a significant turning point in the country's history, leading to profound political, economic, social, and cultural changes. European exploration and colonization of India began in the late 15th century and intensified in the 16th century, ultimately culminating in the establishment of colonial rule by various European powers. Here's an overview of the advent of Europeans in India:

Portuguese Arrival:

1. **Vasco da Gama:** The Portuguese navigator Vasco da Gama reached the port of Calicut (present-day Kozhikode) on the southwestern coast of India in 1498, establishing the first direct sea route from Europe to India.
2. **Establishment of Trading Posts:** The Portuguese established trading posts and fortified settlements along the western coast of India, including Goa, Diu, and Daman. They aimed to control the lucrative spice trade and expand their influence in the Indian Ocean region.
3. **Conflict with Indigenous Powers:** Portuguese presence in India led to conflicts with local rulers and other European powers, including the Dutch, English, and French.

Dutch and English East India Companies:

1. **Formation of Trading Companies:** The Dutch East India Company (VOC) and the English East India Company (EIC) were established in the early 17th century with the aim of monopolizing trade with Asia, including India.
2. **Expansion and Fortification:** The Dutch and English established trading posts, forts, and settlements along the Indian coastline, competing with each other and with indigenous powers for control of key ports and trading routes.
3. **Economic Exploitation:** The Dutch and English East India Companies engaged in trade, commerce, and manufacturing activities in India, exporting goods such as textiles, spices, indigo, and opium to Europe while importing bullion and other commodities.
4. **Establishment of Presidencies:** The English East India Company established three presidencies in India—Calcutta (Bengal), Madras (Tamil Nadu), and Bombay (Mumbai)—each with its own administrative and commercial functions.

French Expansion:

1. **Establishment of French Settlements:** The French East India Company (Compagnie française des Indes orientales) established settlements and trading posts in India, including Pondicherry, Chandernagore, and Mahe.
2. **Alliance with Indigenous Powers:** The French formed alliances with local rulers, such as the Nawab of Bengal and the Sultan of Mysore, to expand their territorial and commercial interests in India.

3. **Competition with British:** The French and British East India Companies engaged in rivalry and conflict over control of trade routes, strategic ports, and influence in the Indian subcontinent.

Impact:

1. **Colonial Domination:** The advent of Europeans laid the groundwork for colonial domination and the eventual establishment of British colonial rule in India.
2. **Economic Exploitation:** European colonial powers exploited India's resources, wealth, and labor, leading to economic exploitation, deindustrialization, and impoverishment of the local population.
3. **Cultural Exchange:** European contact with India led to cultural exchange, religious conversion, and the spread of Western ideas, technologies, and institutions in Indian society.
4. **Resistance and Revolt:** Indigenous powers, such as the Marathas, Mysore, and Sikhs, as well as popular movements like the Sepoy Rebellion of 1857, resisted European colonial rule and exploitation.

The advent of Europeans in India marked the beginning of a new era characterized by colonialism, imperialism, and globalization, shaping the course of Indian history for centuries to come.

Advent of Europeans in India

- Advent of Europeans in India - The Portuguese, The Dutch, The English, The French and The Danes
- The Advent of Europeans in India
- The Advent of Portuguese
- The Advent of the Dutch
- The Advent of English
- The Advent of French
- The Advent of Danes
- Reasons for English success against other Europeans

Advent of Europeans in India - The Portuguese, The Dutch, The English, The French and The Danes

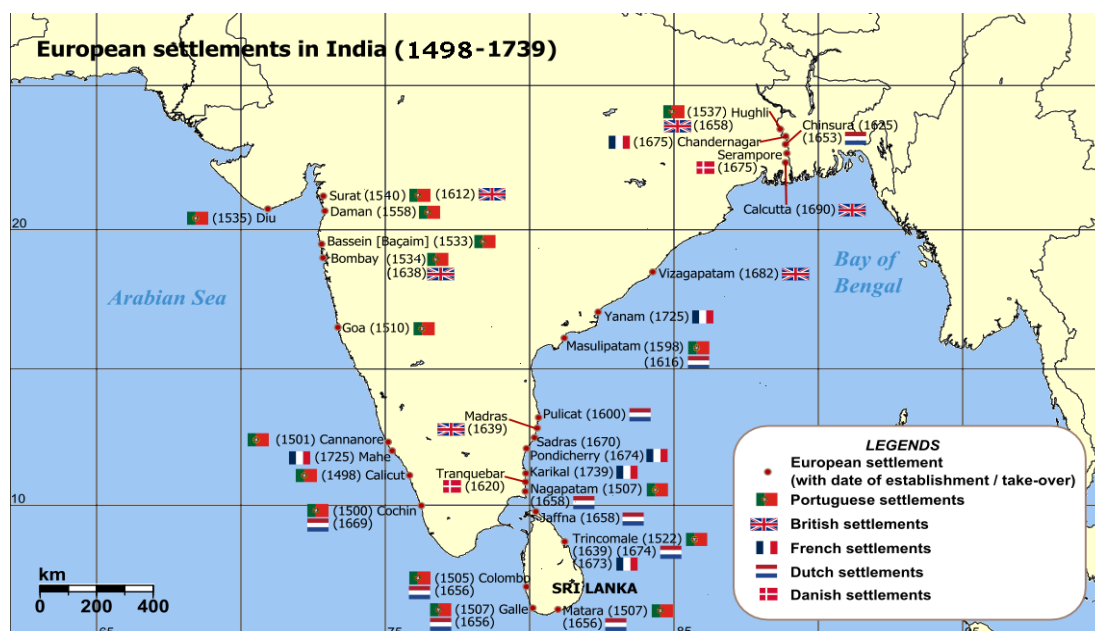
In the late fifteenth century, Portuguese explorer **Vasco da Gama** reached the shores of the Indian subcontinent, establishing maritime connections that marked the onset of European influence. Subsequent expeditions by other European powers, including the Dutch, English, and French, intensified this engagement, leading to competition for **trade dominance** and **territorial control**.

The establishment of trading posts and colonies paved the way for a new chapter in India's history, shaped by global interactions and the eventual ascendancy of British colonial rule. The arrival of Europeans would indelibly shape India's destiny and leave a lasting imprint on its social, economic, and political landscapes.

The Advent of Europeans in India

The advent of Europeans in India marked a significant turning point in the history of India.

- **The arrival of Vasco da Gama:** It began with the arrival of **Portuguese explorer Vasco da Gama in 1498**, establishing a **direct sea route** between Europe and India. This pivotal moment opened doors to **European colonialism** and trade domination in the sub-continent.
- **Other Europeans:** The Portuguese, followed by other European powers, sought to control the lucrative **spice trade**, leading to the establishment of trading posts and fortifications along the Indian coastline.
- **Impact:** Their arrival brought about cultural exchanges, conflicts with local rulers, and the reshaping of Indian society. This period laid the foundation for centuries of European influence and **colonial rule** in India.



The Advent of The Portuguese

The Portuguese arrival in India marked the beginning of European colonialism in the subcontinent.

Factors behind the Portuguese Voyage to India

After the decline of the Roman Empire and **the fall of Constantinople** in 1453, the Arabs established dominance in **Egypt and Persia**, controlling the trade routes to India. The Europeans lost direct contact with India and the easy accessibility to Indian commodities.

- **Spirit of the voyage:** In the 15th century, there was a growing eagerness in Europe for **adventurous sea voyages** to reach the **East**, driven by the spirit of the Renaissance and advancements in shipbuilding and navigation.
- **Division of non-Christian world:** The **Treaty of Tordesillas(1494)** divided the non-Christian world between **Portugal and Spain**, granting Portugal the eastern territories and Spain the western territories. This set the stage for Portuguese incursions into the waters around India.

The Portuguese Governors

- **Vasco da Gama:**
 - The arrival of Vasco da Gama in **Calicut (now Kozhikode)** in 1498 had a significant impact on Indian history. The Hindu ruler of Calicut, the **Zamorin**, welcomed him as the prosperity of his kingdom relied on trade.
 - However, the **Arab traders**, who had a strong presence on the Malabar coast, were concerned about the Portuguese gaining influence in the region.
 - The Portuguese aimed to **monopolise** the profitable eastern trade and exclude their competitors, especially the Arabs.
 - Vasco da Gama **returned to India in 1501** but faced resistance from the Zamorin when he sought to exclude Arab merchants in favour of the Portuguese.
- **Francisco de Almeida (1505-1509):**
 - In 1505, Francisco de Almeida was appointed as the Governor of India, with the **mission to consolidate** Portuguese influence and destroy Muslim trade.
 - Almeida faced opposition from the Zamorin and a threat from the **Mamluk Sultan of Egypt**.
 - In 1507, the Portuguese squadron was initially defeated in a naval battle off Diu but avenged the defeat the following year.
 - Almeida aimed to make the Portuguese the masters of the Indian Ocean through his **Blue Water Policy**.
 - **Blue Water Policy (Cartaze system):** It was a **naval trade licence** or pass issued by the Portuguese empire in the Indian Ocean during the sixteenth century. Its name derives from the Portuguese term '**cartas**', meaning letters.
- **Alfonso de Albuquerque (1509-1515)**
 - Alfonso de Albuquerque succeeded Almeida and established Portuguese bases strategically overlooking the entrances to the Indian Ocean.
 - Albuquerque introduced a **permit system** for other ships and exercised control over major shipbuilding centres.
 - **Goa** was acquired from the **Sultan of Bijapur** in 1510, becoming the first Indian territory under European control since Alexander the Great's time.
 - Albuquerque's rule also saw Portuguese men settling in India, establishing themselves as **landlords, artisans, craftsmen, and traders**.
 - An interesting feature of his rule was the **abolition of sati**.

- **Nino da Cunha (1529-1538)**
 - He moved the headquarters from **Cochin to Goa**.
 - The Portuguese secured the **island of Bassein** and its dependencies from Bahadur Shah of Gujarat in 1534, but their relations soured after Humayun withdrew from Gujarat, leading to a confrontation in which **Bahadur Shah** was killed by the Portuguese in 1537.
 - Additionally, da Cunha attempted to increase Portuguese influence in Bengal by settling many Portuguese nationals there with Hooghly as their headquarters.

Decline of the Portuguese

By the 18th century, the Portuguese in India experienced a decline in their commercial influence.

- The Portuguese lost their **local advantages** as powerful dynasties emerged in Egypt, Persia, and North India, and the Marathas became their immediate neighbours.
- The Marathas captured **Salsette and Bassein** from the Portuguese in 1739.
- The religious policies of the Portuguese, including the activities of the **Jesuits**, caused political concerns.
- Their conversion efforts to **Christianity**, coupled with antagonism towards **Muslims**, led to resentment among Hindus.

Significance of the Portuguese

- **The emergence of naval power:** The arrival of the Portuguese in India marked the emergence of naval power and initiated what is often referred to as the **European era**.
- **Own systems:** The Portuguese disregarded existing rules and sought to establish their dominance over **Indian trade** and the Indian Ocean trading system.
- **Military innovations:** In the sixteenth century Malabar, the Portuguese demonstrated military innovation with their use of body armour, matchlock men, and guns landing from their ships.
- **Maritime techniques:** The Portuguese excelled in maritime techniques, with their heavily constructed **multi-decked ships** designed to withstand Atlantic gales, allowing for heavier armament.
- **Organisational skills:** Their organisational skills, the establishment of royal arsenals and dockyards, and the maintenance of a regular system of pilots and mapping were notable contributions.
- **Religious Policy:** The Portuguese arrived in the East with a zeal to **promote Christianity** and persecute Muslims. They were initially tolerant towards Hindus but became increasingly intolerant over time, especially after the **introduction of the Inquisition** in Goa.

The Advent of The Dutch

The Dutch Commercial enterprise led them to undertake voyages to the East.

- **Trading company:** In 1602, the States-General of the Netherlands merged various trading companies to form the **East India Company of the Netherlands**.
 - This company was granted the authority to conduct wars, negotiate treaties, acquire territories, and establish fortresses.
- **Trading centre:** The Dutch established their control over **Masulipatnam** in 1605 and they established their settlement at **Pulicat** in 1610.

The Advent of The English

In 1599, a group of English merchants known as the '**Merchant Adventurers**' formed a company to pursue Eastern trade and share in the high profits enjoyed by the Portuguese.

- **Queen's charter:** **Queen Elizabeth I** issued a charter on December 31, 1600, granting **exclusive trading rights** to the newly formed 'Governor and Company of Merchants of London trading into the East Indies.'
 - Initially granted a **monopoly of fifteen years**, it was later extended indefinitely.

Foothold in West and South

- **Arrival at Jahangir's court:** In 1609, **Captain Hawkins** arrived at the court of Jahangir in an attempt to establish a factory at Surat, but it was unsuccessful due to Portuguese opposition.
- **Beginning of trade:** However, the English began trading at **Masulipatnam** in 1611 and established a factory there in 1616.
- **Battle with Portuguese:** In 1612, Captain Thomas Best defeated the Portuguese in a sea **battle of Surat**, leading to Jahangir granting permission for an English factory in Surat in 1613.
 - Peace was established with the Portuguese, and an Anglo-Dutch compromise allowed the English to trade without interference.
- **Gift of Bombay:** Bombay was gifted to King Charles II in 1662 and later given to the East India Company in 1668, becoming their headquarters in 1687.
- **Madras:** The English also obtained trading privileges from the **Sultan of Golconda** and built a fortified factory at Madras in 1639, which became the **headquarters** of English settlements in South India.

Foothold in Bengal

Bengal, a prosperous and significant province of the Mughal Empire, attracted English merchants due to its trade and commercial opportunities.

- **Permission to trade:** In 1651, **Shah Shuja**, the subahdar of Bengal, granted the English permission to trade in Bengal in exchange for an annual payment.
- **Request for a fortified settlement:** Seeking a fortified settlement, **William Hedges**, the first agent and governor of the Company in Bengal, appealed to **Shaista Khan**, the Mughal governor, but hostilities ensued.
- **Settlement at Sutanuti:** In 1686, Hooghly was sacked by the Mughals, leading to English retaliation. After negotiations, **Job Charnock** signed a treaty with the Mughals in 1690, allowing the English to establish a factory at Sutanuti.
- **Fort William:** The English obtained permission to buy the **zamindari of Sutanuti, Gobindapur, and Kalikata** in 1698, and the fortified settlement was named Fort William in 1700, becoming the seat of the eastern presidency (Calcutta).

The Advent of The French

The French, although harbouring a desire for East Asian commerce since the early 16th century, arrived on the Indian coasts relatively late.

- **Trading company:** In 1664, during the reign of **Louis XIV**, Minister Colbert established the Compagnie des Indes Orientales (**French East India Company**), which received a **50-year monopoly** on French trade in the Indian and Pacific Oceans.
- The company was reorganised as the '**Perpetual Company of the Indies in 1720** and strengthened under the governance of Lenoir and Dumas.
- **Rivalry with the Dutch:** The French company faced setbacks during wars with the Dutch and the outbreak of the War of Spanish Succession, leading to the abandonment of factories in Surat, Masulipatnam, and Bantam.
- **Pondicherry:** It was founded in 1674 and became the nerve centre of French power in India.

The Advent of The Danes

The Danish East India Company, also known as the Danish Asiatic Company, was established in 1616 and 1620; they founded a factory at **Tranquebar near Tanjore**, on the eastern coast of India.

- Their principal settlement was at **Serampore** near Calcutta.
- The Danish factories, which were not important at any time, were **sold to the British** government in 1845.
- The Danes are better known for their **missionary activities** than for commerce.

Reasons for English success against other Europeans

The success of England over other European powers in India can be attributed to several key factors:

- **Structure and nature of trading companies:** The English East India Company, unlike its counterparts, was controlled by a **board of directors** elected annually, with shareholders exercising considerable influence.
- **Naval superiority:** The Royal Navy of Britain was the largest and most advanced in Europe, having achieved notable victories such as the defeat of the **Spanish Armada and the French at Trafalgar**.
- **Industrial Revolution:** England was at the forefront of the Industrial Revolution, benefiting from **inventions and advancements** in textiles, metallurgy, steam power, and agriculture.
- **Military skill and discipline:** British soldiers were **highly disciplined** and well-trained. **British commanders** demonstrated strategic prowess and implemented innovative tactics, which, combined with technological advancements, allowed smaller groups of British fighters to defeat larger armies.
- **Stable Government:** Compared to other European nations experiencing periods of **political upheaval**, Britain enjoyed relatively stable governance with efficient monarchs. France, in particular, faced the turbulent period of the **French Revolution** and the **Napoleonic Wars**, weakening its position and forcing it to align with Britain.
- **Lesser zeal for religion:** Unlike Spain, Portugal, and the Dutch, Britain displayed less zealousness in spreading Christianity. This more **tolerant approach** made British rule more acceptable to the local population in India.
- **Use of debt market:** Britain successfully utilised the debt markets to fund its wars, particularly through the establishment of the **Bank of England**.

Establishment of East India Company

East India Company

The English ***East India Company*** (EIC or EEIC), later to become the British East India Company, was founded in 1600 as a trading company. With a massive private army and the backing of the British government, the EIC looted the Indian subcontinent from 1757 until anarchy necessitated that government step in and take over EIC possessions in 1858.

The EIC was the means by which **Britain** conducted its imperialistic policies in Asia, and it made millions through its global **trade** in spices, tea, textiles, and opium. It was criticised for its monopolies, harsh trading terms, corruption, and the damage it did to the wool trade. Finally but by no means least, the EIC swept away rulers that stood in its path, relentlessly siphoned off resources, and repressed the cultural practices of the peoples living within its vast territories. In short, the EIC was the "sharp end of the British imperial stick" (Faught, 6). The EIC's directors and its shareholders gained immense riches. India, in contrast, became ever-poorer. Much more than a trading company, the EIC ultimately became a state within a state, even an **empire** within an empire, and one accountable to no one except its shareholders.

Foundation

A royal charter created the English East India Company on 31 December 1600 as a limited joint stock company (people invested capital and received part of the profits) managed by a group of 215 merchants and investors headed by the Earl of Cumberland. Awarded by **Elizabeth I of England** (r.1558-1603), the charter granted the EIC the exclusive right to trade with India, in fact, it granted a monopoly on all trade east of the Cape of Good Hope. To conduct this trade, the EIC was permitted to 'wage **war**'. Although the EIC did not hold sovereignty in its areas of operation, it was permitted to exercise sovereignty in the name of the English Crown and government.

The envoy of **James I of England** (r. 1603-1625) to the court of Jahangir, emperor of the Mughal Empire (1526-1858), was Sir Thomas Roe (1581-1644), and he built upon the first contacts made by the trader William Hawkins in 1609. Between 1612 and 1619, Roe secured permission for the EIC to set up a 'factory' or trading post at Surat on the west coast of India. The British took over the port completely in 1759, but it was replaced as the EIC's main trading centre after the English Crown acquired Bombay (Mumbai) from the Portuguese in 1661. Rulers elsewhere were induced to allow the EIC to set up more trading posts, and so the company's reach and power steadily grew. Notable new posts included Masulipatam (Machilipatnam) and Madras in 1639-40, and then Hughli in 1658. Calcutta (Kolkata) was another important EIC base from 1690.

The addition of Bombay (formally handed over to the EIC in 1668) came about because **Charles II of England** (r. 1660-1685) received it as a wedding gift when he married Catherine of Braganza (1638-1705) who was the daughter of John IV of Portugal (r. 1640-1656). Charles, eager to create a powerful rival to Dutch interests in Asia represented by the **Dutch East India Company** (VOC), gave the EIC autonomy to conduct its affairs as it saw fit. The VOC had been founded two years after the EIC, but a much greater investment in it meant it boasted a powerful naval fleet that had enabled it to take many valuable possessions of the **Portuguese Empire**. The VOC cornered the lucrative spice trade in Asia and its sources in Indonesia. Such was the VOC's dominance, the EIC turned its covetous gaze to India instead.

Trade

The EIC was heavily involved in what become known as the 'triangular trade', which involved exchanging precious metals for products made in India (notably fine textiles) and then selling these on in the East Indies in exchange for spices. The spices (above all **pepper**) were then shipped to London, where they commanded prices high enough to make a profit on the original metals investment. Later in its history, the EIC gained enormous profits from its control of the salt trade, tea trade, and sale of opium to **China**. The EIC imported so much tea to Britain that it switched from being an expensive commodity to a drink cheaper than locally-made **beer**. Helped by cheap sugar imports from slave plantations in the Caribbean, the British became a nation of tea drinkers. The trend spread to the colonies in North America, so much so that when they had to pay tax on EIC tea imports it caused the **Boston Tea Party** which escalated into a revolution.

To obtain tea, then only grown in China, the EIC traded opium from India. Opium was banned by the Chinese government, but the EIC smuggled it in anyway – a situation that eventually led to war between China and Britain in 1839 (The First Opium War). Other notable goods traded by the EIC included porcelain, silk, saltpetre (for gunpowder), indigo, coffee, silver, and wool. The company's ships which carried these goods across the globe were well-armed; a typical East Indiaman (the general name for an EIC ship) carried a formidable 30-36 cannons. Fortunately for the EIC, the Royal Navy was able to control much of the Indian Ocean. EIC ships were identified by their flag, first with red and white horizontal stripes and a St. George cross in the corner and then with a Union Jack after the Act of Union in 1707 that joined England with Scotland.

Such was the company's power, there were voices of protest in Britain that the EIC was drawing away too much silver from the home country's economy and its massive imports of Indian textiles were damaging to the traditional English wool trade. A response was to raise duties for cotton imports and pass laws favouring wool, such as the ruling in the last quarter of the 17th century that prohibited people in England being buried in anything other than wool clothing. Laws soon went further and banned completely imports to Britain of finished cotton cloth, but by the second half of the 18th century the material was so popular it led to the rise of a manufacturing industry. The EIC did well trading textiles around the world, but now Britain was producing its own in huge textile mills concentrated in densely populated areas such as the cities of Lancashire. In this sense, the EIC was partly responsible for this sector of the Industrial Revolution in Britain.

There was much criticism, too, that the EIC's trade monopoly was unfair and hardly in the interests of the British nation as a whole. The EIC was taken to the British courts many times by independent traders who wanted a slice of the trade with India, but the EIC cleverly argued that, strictly speaking, it had no monopoly since it had itself created the trade and not taken it over from another party. The EIC did help expand what today have become global metropolises like Mumbai, Singapore, and Guangzhou (Canton), and it created new export markets for goods manufactured in Britain and elsewhere, but the terms of the contracts the EIC imposed were never particularly advantageous to anyone but itself.

Another vast source of income came from the EIC's policy of charging rents within its territories and using without hesitation threats and violence on those who did not comply. In short, the EIC was a trading giant and, just like today's global behemoth businesses, it had friends and it had enemies, but almost always more of the latter than the former.

A State within a State

The Mughal Empire did receive some other benefits to these trade arrangements. Often British warships performed services and helped protect the interests of the emperors at sea. The British-Mughal relationship was affected by the Marathas who challenged and conquered Mughal territories in the southern and western areas of India in the 18th century. In addition, as the shape of the Indian political map shifted, from 1757, the EIC controlled its own territory and effectively became a state within a state.

The EIC invested heavily in professional military forces and paid to use regiments of British army regulars. In 1763, the EIC had 6,680 troops in Bengal alone, a figure which rocketed to 129,473 by 1823. Initially, EIC army troops and officers came from anywhere, but reforms in

1785 resulted in only Britishers holding officer rank. The majority of troops were recruited from the Indian peasantry. This vast army dwarfed the EIC's civilian employees, who numbered around 3,500 in 1830.

he EIC built fortresses, had a navy (the Bombay Marine), minted **coinage**, had a vast archive of documents (now in the British Library), ran its own courts, and maintained its prisons for those who offended against it. The company even sponsored major survey expeditions. The EIC Court of Directors chose its staff from within, and entry was through examinations, a process copied by other British institutions thereafter. Indians were excluded from the EIC. By the 18th century, the investors in the EIC (Court of Proprietors) came from all walks of life and included men, **women** (especially widows), nobles, politicians, military men, merchants, administrators, financiers, professionals, and small investors (including foreigners). Everybody trusted the EIC and looked forward to dividends based on its continued success.

THE LEVEL OF COORDINATION BETWEEN THE VARIOUS EIC CENTRES SET IT APART FROM ITS RIVALS.

The John Company, as it was commonly called at the time, did suffer periods of decline, especially when wars drained its resources or commerce was particularly hit by trade restrictions, corruption, smuggling, and **piracy**. The EIC certainly did not have everything its own way in Asia since other European powers were also keen to exploit India's trade and resources. The French East India Company (founded in 1664) boasted a well-trained army, and with the support of rival Indian rulers, it was able to challenge the EIC. Madras, for example, switched from British to French control twice. There was even rivalry from closer to home. In 1698, a second English East India Company was founded, but it merged into the older one in 1709. The new bigger company was officially called The United Company of Merchants of England trading to the East Indies, but everyone just called it the East India Company as before except in official correspondence when it was referred to as the Honourable East India Company.

Government Regulation

In 1764-5, after the **Battle of Buxar**, the Mughal emperor Shah Alam II awarded the EIC the right to collect land revenue (*dewani*) in Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa. This was a major step and ensured the company had vast resources to expand and protect its traders, bases, armies, and ships. The EIC had now become the official imperial tool of the British Empire in India, and it was the level of coordination between the various EIC centres that set it apart from both its Indian and European rivals. Men like **Robert Clive** (1725-1774) carved out an empire in the EIC's name. Clive of India, as he was popularly known, rose from clerk to Governor of Bengal, and his military skills, shown in such victories as the June 1757 **Battle of Plassey** against forces of the Nawab of Bengal, were matched by his administrative ones. Clive reduced corruption and increased regulation so that what had hitherto been private trade resembled more and more official British government control. Even so, there were still accusations that EIC officials were enriching themselves at the expense of the interests of the British state – even Clive came under suspicion. The EIC officials who retired to England and an extravagant retirement with their riches were known disparagingly as 'Nabobs', a corruption of the Mughal title for a high-ranking official, *nawab*.

Another, not unrelated criticism, was that the EIC was not doing enough to promote the spread of **Christianity** by funding churches and aiding missionaries. This was true since the company banned all missionaries until 1813. The directors were wary of making the mistakes the Portuguese Empire had made in spreading Catholicism, which alienated potential allies of other faiths. This was one of the few areas which reminded the EIC was a trading body and not a sovereign state.

Apart from **religion**, the interests of the EIC and the British government were becoming as one. The 1773 Regulating Act and 1774 India Act gave the British government military, financial, and political control over the territories administered in its name by the EIC. Officials of the EIC could no longer conduct private trade, and there was far more transparency over accounts and general company correspondence. The greater interest the British government began to take in India was likely a direct result of the loss of its colonies in North America in 1783.

There was now no question that the EIC was a branch of the British government, but the relationship was not one-directional. In the early 19th century, around 100 Members of Parliament in Westminster were also employees of the EIC, and so the tentacles of this trading giant reached to the very heart of political power in Britain. **Warren Hastings** (1732-1818) was a key figure in EIC history. Made its first Governor-General in 1774, his tenure saw the company make many treaty arrangements with independent Indian princes and replace a strategy based on **conquest** with one that returned to the company's roots as a trading body where administration was left to the locals. This policy was short-lived, in fact, but Hastings's tenure saw the EIC grow enormously. Hastings was considered a despot back in England, and he was put on trial for corruption but then acquitted; empire building was clearly seen as a dirty but necessary business if Britain was to compete with its European rivals.

The British-controlled territory in India kept on expanding. The Four **Anglo-Mysore Wars** (1767-1799) resulted in yet more territories being gobbled up by the EIC. The 1793 Bengal Permanent Settlement made tax collectors (*zamindars*) also landowners who now collected revenues from their tenants, which were passed on to the EIC. The idea was to make the EIC's land tax revenue more stable, but it caused a damaging upheaval in the traditional agricultural way of life and sent tens of thousands into permanent debt. This was the EIC's great conundrum: how to extract as much wealth as possible from India without causing civil unrest. It was a problem the British Empire would also struggle with when it took over, a shift that was now drawing ever closer as the EIC's days became numbered.



Copper Coin of the East India Company
Billjones94 (CC BY-SA)

The Charter Act of 1813 proclaimed British sovereignty over newly-captured territory and formally ended the EIC's monopoly on trade with India. In 1819, a base was established at Singapore, which, from 1826, was administered along with Malacca and Penang on the Malay peninsula as the Straits Settlements. These acquisitions in some way masked the financial problems the EIC was experiencing after the 1825 global crash and which necessitated huge loans from the British government, loans which would lead to regulation.

Another key figure in the EIC's history now appears: Lord William Bentinck (1774-1839). Made Governor-General in 1828, Bentinck returned to the policies of the Hastings years and focussed on expansion through treaties rather than expensive military campaigns. Bentinck was also known for his social reforms and most notoriously for his abolition of *sati* (aka *suttee*) in 1829. *Sati* was the custom for a **Hindu** widow to sacrifice herself on the funeral pyre of their late husband. Other reforms included the selection of English as the company's official language (it had been Persian), but although these may have been well considered in London, in India they were rightly seen as part of an Anglicisation and Christianisation process of the subcontinent.

The 1833 and 1853 Charter Acts further reduced the EIC's powers. In 1833, the EIC lost its monopoly on trade with China. In 1853, the first railway and telegraph lines in India were put in operation. The tenure of the Marquess of Dalhousie (1812-1860), EIC Governor-General from 1848, witnessed an aggressive expansion based on military conquest of princely states where vast areas – notably the Punjab and lower Burma – were added to the EIC's property portfolio following the two Anglo-Sikh Wars (1845-1849). This hyperaggressive policy may have been successful in the short term but it backfired spectacularly.

Government Takeover

1857-58 saw the collapse of the Mughal Empire and the formal closure of the EIC as the British Crown repressed the **Sepoy Mutiny** (aka The Uprising or First Indian War of Independence) which rebelled against British rule. The causes of the rebellion were many and

ranged from discrimination against Indian cultural practices to Indian princes not being allowed to pass on their territories to an adopted son, but the initial spark came from the sepoys. Sepoys were the Indian soldiers employed by the EIC, and they protested against (amongst other things) their much lower pay compared to British EIC soldiers. At this point, the EIC employed around 45,000 British soldiers and over 230,000 sepoys. Although the sepoys took over important centres like Delhi, their lack of overall command and coordination and the superior resources of the EIC and British government led to their downfall. After the mutiny was quashed in 1858, the British Crown took full possession of EIC territories in India and so began what is popularly termed the British Raj (rule). On 1 June 1874, Parliament formally dissolved the EIC. In 1877, **Queen Victoria** was proclaimed Empress of India, and British rule continued to squeeze what resources it could from India until independence was gained in 1947.

Karnataka Wars

The Karnataka Wars, also known as the Mysore Wars, were a series of conflicts fought between the Kingdom of Mysore, under its ruler Tipu Sultan, and the British East India Company, along with their allies, primarily the Marathas and the Nizam of Hyderabad. These wars took place in the latter half of the 18th century and early 19th century, with significant consequences for the political landscape of South India and the eventual expansion of British rule. Here's an overview of the causes, events, and consequences of the Karnataka Wars:

Causes:

Expansionist Policies: Tipu Sultan pursued an aggressive expansionist policy, seeking to extend the territorial boundaries of the Kingdom of Mysore at the expense of neighboring states and powers.

British Ambitions: The British East India Company viewed Mysore as a potential threat to their interests in South India and sought to curb Tipu Sultan's power and influence in the region.

Alliances and Rivalries: Tipu Sultan's alliances with the French, along with his conflicts with the Marathas and the Nizam of Hyderabad, contributed to the escalation of tensions and conflicts in the region.

Events:

First Mysore War (1767-1769): The First Mysore War was fought between Mysore and the British East India Company. It ended inconclusively with the Treaty of Madras, which restored the status quo ante bellum.

Second Mysore War (1780-1784): The Second Mysore War began with Tipu Sultan's attack on British positions in South India. The conflict saw numerous battles, including the famous Siege of Seringapatam. It ended with the Treaty of Mangalore, which restored territorial boundaries but failed to resolve underlying tensions.

Third Mysore War (1789-1792): The Third Mysore War was sparked by Tipu Sultan's refusal to abide by the terms of the Treaty of Mangalore and his continued hostility towards the British. The conflict culminated in the decisive Battle of Seringapatam, where Tipu Sultan was defeated and killed, leading to the signing of the Treaty of Seringapatam.

Fourth Mysore War (1799): The Fourth Mysore War was triggered by the death of Tipu Sultan and the subsequent power vacuum in Mysore. The British, along with their allies, launched a military campaign to capture and annex Mysore. The war ended with the fall of

Seringapatam and the annexation of Mysore by the British East India Company.

Consequences:

Annexation of Mysore: The defeat of Tipu Sultan and the annexation of Mysore by the British East India Company resulted in the end of independent rule in Mysore and the extension of British colonial control over the region.

Expansion of British Rule: The Karnataka Wars contributed to the expansion of British rule in South India, consolidating British hegemony over the region and paving the way for further conquests and annexations.

Dismantling of Tipu Sultan's Legacy: The defeat of Tipu Sultan led to the dismantling of his military and administrative structures, as well as the redistribution of his territories among various princely states and allies of the British.

Impact on Regional Politics: The Karnataka Wars had a significant impact on the political landscape of South India, weakening indigenous powers and paving the way for British domination and control over the region.

Overall, the Karnataka Wars were a series of conflicts that shaped the course of South Indian history, leading to the consolidation of British colonial rule and the end of independent rule in Mysore.

Carnatic War History, First, Second and Third Carnatic Wars

The Carnatic Wars began in the 18th century at the base of the Indian Coastal. Read all about First, Second & Third Carnatic Wars & their significance.

Carnatic War

The Carnatic Wars began in the eighteenth century at the base of the Indian Coastal. The Indian Military Services generally portrayed the Carnatic Wars as one of the wars they cherished most throughout their history. The significant Carnatic Wars are held in Hyderabad, a state in India. Despite coming to India with the goal of doing business, the British and the French eventually got embroiled in Indian politics.

Both had ideas for strengthening state control over the region. The main cause of the Carnatic wars was France and England's naval and commercial rivalry. The three main phases of the Carnatic War began between 1746 and 1763. The Carnatic War was primarily a military conflict when it first started.

The Anglo-French rivalry in India reflected the ongoing rivalry between England and France throughout their respective histories. The struggle, which took the form of three Carnatic wars, especially in India, determined for sure that the English, not the French, were the superior candidates to impose their authority throughout India. According to the commercial administration, trade was the primary driving force behind the historical Carnatic War. One chapter of contemporary Indian history is the UPSC topic on the Carnatic Wars.

First Carnatic War

Anglo-French rivalry in Europe and a desire for control in India led to the First Carnatic War (1746–1763). In 1740, the Austrian War of Succession broke out in Europe, sparking the Anglo-French conflict in India. French dominance in the eighteenth century sparked a rivalry between France and England in trade and the sea, notably in India. The rivalry between the French and British emerged in India during succession disputes among rajas, nawabs, and chieftains in south India.

The Coromandel coastline and its environs were given the name “Carnatic” by Europeans. The First Carnatic War saw the expansion of the Anglo-French War, which the Austrian War of Succession had begun, to Europe. The First Carnatic War's turning point is recognised as

the Battle of St. Thome (in Madras), which took place between French forces and the forces of Anwar-ud-din, the Maharaja of Carnatic, to whom the English asked assistance.

The English force led by Barnet seized some French ships in an effort to irritate France, despite the fact that France did not want hostilities to continue in India due to its poor position there. Due to this Anglo-French rivalry, their commercial businesses fought for supremacy in India. The French governor of Pondicherry, Dupleix, organised an army of Indian sepoys under the direction of French commanders.

France's ambitions for India became imperialist after the nationalisation of the French East India Company in 1720. In 1745, a British naval raid on a French navy put even Pondicherry in peril. Dupleix and additional French forces from Mauritius defeated the attack and captured the English-held city of Madras. Another English attack on Pondicherry was launched, but this time they were soundly routed. The English requested aid from Anwaruddin Khan, the Nawab of Carnatic (Arcot).

The Nawab asked the French to return Madras to the British. Dupleix tried in vain to convince the Nawab that Madras would be eventually delivered to him. After that, the Nawab sent a huge army to fight the French troops. This army was defeated by comparatively minor French troops in Mylapore (modern-day Chennai) in 1746. In contrast to the well-trained forces of the European powers, this showed how inadequate the Indian monarchs' military was. The conflict was resolved in 1748 by the Treaty of Aix-la-Chapelle, commonly known as the Treaty of Aachen.

First Carnatic War Significance

Even though the First Carnatic War had nothing to do with Indian political issues, India was still impacted by it. Throughout this struggle, India's legislative and military gap was brought to the attention of the European nations. The Carnatic Nawab was unable to stop a firm from engaging in combat. Despite such, a small group of French forces defeated Nawab's army.

European nations moved forward with their engagement with Indian governmental concerns as a result of Nawab's inadequacy. The significance of this debate is emphasised by Prof. Dr. Jewell, who claims that "it prepared the basis for Dupleix's trial and error and Clive's works." European countries were currently looking for political incomparability rather than just business. They essentially moved from the accommodating location to one of the masters, writes Mallison.

Under the leadership of Governor Duple of Pondicherry, the French won this struggle of progress. In addition, they received control of the Northern Government, which the French official Bussi had long dominated, rather than elevating their petitioners to lofty positions.

This was proved when a small French army defeated a large number of Carnatic Nawab. By protecting the French provinces in India from the English, the superior French Navy demonstrated the importance of naval force in the Anglo-French Rivalry.

Second Carnatic War

After the First Carnatic War was over, the British and French maintained their proxy conflict in India. Dupleix gained confidence after winning the first war against the Indian Nawab and believed he could now increase his power in South India. When Nizam of Hyderabad Asaf Jah I passed away in 1748 and a conflict for his succession started, he sensed a chance. Arcot

experienced a problem as well.

Dupleix promised to support Chanda Sahib for Arcot and Nizam's grandson Muzaffar Zang for Hyderabad. As a result, a triangular agreement between the French, Muzaffar Zang, and Chanda Sahib emerged. On the other hand, the British promised to back Muhammad Ali for Arcot and Nasir Zang for Hyderabad.

Nawab Anwaruddin of Arcot was initially assassinated by a faction commanded by the French, and his son Mohammad Ali fled to Trichinopoly. Nasir Zang was also attacked by the French-led force, and he was killed. Thus, it seemed as though Dupleix's goal was about to come true after both of his British protégés were defeated.

Muzaffar Zang, a protégé of France, was assassinated shortly after. French swiftly installed his choice Salabat Zang as king and remained influential in Hyderabad for a number of years. The Nizam of Hyderabad provided them with the four wealthy Coromandel Coast districts known as the Northern Sircar in exchange for their military support.

The British had come to understand that they were in grave jeopardy. The only thing that gave them any hope was that Mohammad Ali, their protegee, still controlled Trichinopoly. At this point, Robert Clive, the Company's Clerk at the time, suggests attacking Arcot. Arcot was occupied after this proposal was approved. Chanda Sahib was taken prisoner and killed. Mohammad Ali received the title of Nawab of Arcot/Carnatic. Dupleix's dreams were shattered with this.

More significant than the Battle of Plassey, the Siege of Arcot (1751) was a gallant accomplishment. Clive had become an English national hero as a result of the Siege of Arcot. The senior Prime Minister Pitt referred to him as a "heaven-born general."

Second Carnatic War Significance

In terms of outcomes, the second Carnatic war took precedence over the first. Sunderlal claims that this is the stone that destroyed Dupleix's and the French people's imaginations inside the nation. The British are in a stronger position now than they were earlier. Interestingly, this struggle revealed the local rulers' political vacuum to outsiders, allowing them to openly participate in Indian legislative matters.

But given that British strength under the direction of Robert Clive changed the terms of the fight in 1751 AD, the French victory was remarkably brief. French-backed petitioners for advancement were crushed by English authority under the leadership of Robert Clive within a year. In the meantime, the French and British needed to colonise Pondicherry.

Third Carnatic War 1757-63

In Europe, the battle between France and England erupted once more in 1756 as the Seven Years' War, which coincided with the Third Carnatic War. A smaller-scale replica of the Seven Year's War in Europe was the Third Carnatic War. The French attempts to establish a colonial empire in India were unsuccessful because of the Third Carnatic War. In 1757, the British Forces were successful in taking control of the French settlements at Chandranagar. Comte De Lally was in charge of the French soldiers in the south.

In 1760, Sir Eyre Coote's British forces beat the French at the Battle of Wandiwash and then besieged Pondicherry. Following Wandiwash, the British captured Pondicherry, the French

capital, in 1761. when the 1763 Treaty of Paris, which put an end to the Seven Years' War, was signed.

Chandranagar and Pondicherry were returned to France in accordance with certain provisions of this treaty. The French were now permitted to operate commercial posts in India, but it was forbidden for French traders to run them. The French government likewise consented to assist the client regimes of the British. The French aspirations of an Indian Empire were effectively ended by this. British were now India's main power.

Third Carnatic War Significance

The Third Carnatic War was unquestionably successful. The third conflict was put an end to by the Treaty of Paris (1763), which also allowed Pondicherry and Chandannagar to be ceded to France, but only for trade. Despite the fact that the agreement restored France's manufacturing presence in India, following the war, French political influence in that country waned.

Following that, the French in India confined themselves to small territories and trade, just like their Portuguese and Dutch counterparts. The English became the dominating European force on the Indian subcontinent.

For instance, In the Third Carnatic War, the rivalry between the two European powers resurfaced. The French dictator Count de Lally's invasion of Madras marked the beginning of this conflict. Sir Iroctut, a British official, crushed Lali. The British captured Pondicherry in 1761 and forced Lali to hand over Jinji and Karaikal. As a result, the French had to sign the Treaty of Paris with Britain after losing the Third Carnatic War battles in Wandiwash (1760 AD).

Carnatic Wars Important Facts

In India's history, there have been a total of three Carnatic wars. The Carnatic Wars are discussed in the essential facts that are listed below. Due to the overwhelming effects of the Australian succession, the first Carnatic war began in 1744. The Carnatic Wars occurred between the years 1744 and 1748. The Anglo-French war took place in the Deccan region during the time.

The current French and Dutch states were originally descended from the civilian authority of the European region, hence the British government was first hesitant to accept this significant historical event. The decisive fight between the French and the powerful British rule was initially recognised as one of the historically significant conflicts in Indian history. The French and British administrations engaged in this specific conflict in the 17th century.

The third Carnatic war lasted from 1757 to 1763. The Australian nation aspired to recapture the nation of Silesia in 1758, which led to the start of the third Carnatic War, which lasted seven years. Initially, the governments of both France and Great Britain were eager to control the ancient Indian trades. The European region's monarch was primarily to blame for the poor military and political performance. The French and English governments at first competed commercially.

Carnatic Wars Significance

The governments of France and India both experience frequent interference from the British government in their internal and private matters. The persistent intervention in procedural

matters has caused disputes between the administration and the British parliament historically. Here is an illustration of the importance of the Carnatic Wars. This could also be what's causing the current civil unrest.

The death of "Nizam-ul-Mulk," the creator of the independent kingdom known as Hyderabad, was the real reason for the second Carnatic war. The French and English governments interfered with the native ruler's attempts to advance their political position, which ultimately led to the outbreak of this battle. The second Carnatic war was fought between the two native rulers, who first fought one another to assist the foreign force.

The Indian War helped the Europeans realise that an Indian army that was much larger could be easily defeated by a much smaller, well-trained force. Furthermore, this battle successfully demonstrated the importance of naval might in the Deccan Anglo-French conflict.

The Third Battle of Panipat, fought on January 14, 1761, was one of the largest and bloodiest battles in Indian history. It took place near the town of Panipat in present-day Haryana, India, and pitted the forces of the Maratha Empire against the invading army of Ahmad Shah Durrani, also known as Ahmad Shah Abdali, the ruler of Afghanistan.

Background:

1. **Maratha Expansion:** The Marathas, under the leadership of their Peshwa, Balaji Baji Rao, had established themselves as a dominant power in India, extending their control over large parts of the Indian subcontinent.
2. **Ahmad Shah Durrani's Invasion:** Ahmad Shah Durrani, who had previously invaded India in 1748 and 1757, launched another invasion with the aim of asserting his authority over the Punjab region and checking Maratha expansion.
3. **Alliances:** Ahmad Shah Durrani formed alliances with various Indian rulers, including the Rohillas, Shuja-ud-Daula of Awadh, and Najib ad-Dawlah, the commander of the Mughal Empire's forces.

Events:

1. **March to Panipat:** The Maratha army, led by Sadashivrao Bhau, marched northwards to confront Ahmad Shah Durrani's forces, which were advancing towards Delhi.
2. **Strategic Positioning:** The Marathas occupied a strong defensive position near Panipat, with their camp fortified and protected by artillery.
3. **Battle Commences:** The battle began with skirmishes and artillery duels between the two armies. The Marathas initially had the upper hand, inflicting heavy casualties on the Afghan forces.

4. **Cavalry Charges:** Ahmad Shah Durrani's cavalry, renowned for its speed and ferocity, launched repeated charges against the Maratha lines, causing chaos and confusion.
5. **Critical Mistakes:** The Marathas made several critical mistakes during the battle, including the premature deployment of their artillery and the breakdown of their communication and coordination.
6. **Maratha Defeat:** Despite valiant resistance, the Maratha forces were overwhelmed by the relentless attacks of Ahmad Shah Durrani's army. The battle ended in a decisive victory for the Afghans.

Consequences:

1. **Heavy Casualties:** The Third Battle of Panipat resulted in immense casualties on both sides, with estimates of the death toll ranging from tens of thousands to over a hundred thousand.
2. **Maratha Decline:** The defeat at Panipat dealt a severe blow to Maratha power and ambitions. It shattered the myth of Maratha invincibility and weakened their hold over northern India.
3. **Ahmad Shah Durrani's Influence:** Ahmad Shah Durrani's victory enhanced his reputation as a formidable military leader and reinforced his influence over the Punjab region.
4. **Regional Instability:** The aftermath of the battle led to a period of political instability and conflict in northern India, with various factions vying for power and control.

The Third Battle of Panipat is remembered as a pivotal event in Indian history, marking the decline of the Maratha Empire and the resurgence of Afghan power in the region. It had far-reaching consequences for the political landscape of India in the decades to come.

The Third Battle of Panipat was one of the noteworthy battles of the Eighteenth century. The Third Battle of Panipat took place on January 14, 1761 at Panipat between the Maratha empire and the Afghan army under Ahmad Shah Abdali.

- Panipat which is located in the present day Haryana on the banks of River Yamuna and between the fertile plains of the rivers Ganga and Indus, have witnessed several battles which brought crucial changes in Indian history.
- Babur established the Mughal empire by winning the war against Ibrahim Lodi in Panipat and it is considered as the first battle of Panipat. On the same land, his grandson, Akbar defeated Hemu in what is regarded as the second battle of Panipat.
- The Third Battle of Panipat was significant in Indian history because it destroyed the ambitions of both powers, the Marathas and the Mughals. After defeating numerous Maratha flanks, the troops headed by Ahmad Shah Durrani emerged victorious.
- The battle resulted in giving a serious blow to the power of Marathas and minimizing the size of the Mughal Empire. The defeat of Marathas in Third Battle of Panipat led to the decline of Marathas in North thereby helping the rise of British in India. Also, check the NCERT notes on Battle of Plassey here. In the following article NCERT notes on the Third Battle of Panipat, the background, causes, course of war and the results of the third battle of Panipat are discussed in detail. This is a significant topic under Modern History for the UPSC Exams. Panipat and Its Battles
- Panipat, a place on the banks of the Yamuna River and between the rich plains of the rivers Ganga and Indus in modern-day Haryana, has seen major wars in Indian history.
- Panipat was a prominent battle field due to the following reasons o Its strategic location

supported the war. o Its proximity to Delhi, made it easier to transport war related equipments
o It was easy for the cavalry to fight, as the area was flat around the Panipat region. o The period of Monsoon rainfall in Panipat is short compared to other areas

- Other battles: o First Battle of Panipat: It was fought between Babur and Ibrahim Lodi in 1526 which laid the foundation for the Mughal empire in India. o Second Battle of Panipat: It was fought between Akbar and Hemu in 1566 Study the NCERT notes on the first and second Anglo-Mysore wars here. Page - 3 Download Testbook App Background Of Third Battle Of Panipat The Marathas and Ahmad Shah Abdali fought the third battle of Panipat in 1761. However the causes for the battle lay in the decades preceding the battle. Invasions By Ahmad Shah Abdali

- After the death of Nadir Shah in 1747, Ahmad Shah Abdali succeeded him as the emperor of Afghanistan.

- In 1739, Ahmad Shah Abdali accompanied Nadir Shah during the invasion of India and thus he was aware of the weakness of the Mughal emperors and the empire.

- Moreover the later Mughals completely neglected the roads and passes in the borders. No intelligence was employed to guard the border.

- He made use of these advantageous situations. He led a number of expeditions against India and invaded several regions in India.

- However with the outbreak of cholera, the Afghan army and Ahmad Shah Abdali decided to retreat.

- Before his departure in 1757, he made Najib Khan Rohilla as Mir Bakshi and was retained in Delhi as his agent. He also made his son Timur Shah to look after the regions (Kashmir, Lahore, Sirhind and Multan) ceded to them by the Mughal Emperor. Expansion Of Maratha Empire

- After the death of the Mughal emperor Aurangzeb, the Mughal empire began to weaken and thus created a power vacuum in North India.

- The Maratha empire was rising in power and they soon reclaimed the lost territories from the later Mughals.

- In 1737, the Mughals were finally defeated by the Maratha ruler Baji Rao in the outskirts of Delhi and brought several regions under the Maratha empire. Also, check the NCERT notes on the first Carnatic war here. Immediate Cause The immediate cause for the third battle of Panipat was

- After the departure of Ahmad Shah Abdali in 1757, Najib Khan (Mir Bakshi appointed by Ahmad Shah Abdali) was forced to leave Delhi along with his men.

- In 1758, Raghunath Rao (Maratha leader) crossed into Punjab and drove Ahmad Shah Abdali's son Timur Shah and his men out of Punjab.

- Thus Punjab was conquered from the Afghan rule and this brought the Marathas into direct confrontation with the Afghan ruler Ahmad Shah Abdali. Page - 4 Download Testbook App Course Of Third Battle Of Panipat

- By the end of 1759, Ahmad Shah Abdali along with his army which was raised from Afghan and Baloch tribes and his Rohilla ally Najib Khan, reached Lahore as well as Delhi and defeated the enemy's garrisons.

- Shuja-ud-Daula, the Nawab of Awadh also joined Ahmad Shah Abdali in the third battle of Panipat.

- Under the command of Sadashivrao Bhau, the Marathas won the battle at Kunjpura against the Afghan garrison.

- This further triggered Ahmad Shah Abdali. He crossed the river Yamuna and led a two month long siege against the Marathas. The Marathas were cut off from all the food supplies and it is said that they eventually ran out of food.

- Finally under these circumstances, the Marathas marched towards the Afghan army and thus the third battle of Panipat was fought on January 14, 1761. Also, study the NCERT notes on the second Anglo-Maratha war here. Result Of Third Battle Of Panipat
- Despite the efforts, the Marathas lost in the third battle of Panipat. The Afghan force led by Ahmad shah Abdali won the battle.
- Maratha leaders Vishwas Rao (son of Peshwa) and Sadashiv Rao Bhau were shot in the battle field.
- It was estimated that nearly 60,000 to 70,000 soldiers were killed in the battle, thus incurring a heavy loss on both the sides.
- With the third battle of Panipat, the advancement of Marathas to the Northern region of the country was halted. Reasons For Marathas Defeat:
- Based on the records, it is said that the Marathas army was outnumbered by the Afghan force led by Ahmad Shah Durrani which had about 60,000 soldiers while the Marathas army did not exceed 45,000
- Marathas had no single ally to support them in North India. Shuja-ud-Daula and Najib Khan sided with Ahmad Shah Abdali in the third Battle of Panipat.
- Moreover Ahmad Shah Abdali was the best general of his times. He had knowledge of superior tactics and strategies to win the war. After the third battle of Panipat, Shah Alam II was made the emperor of Delhi by Ahmad Shah Abdali. The third battle of Panipat lowered the prestige of the Marathas in Indian political world and halted their aim to expand the Maratha empire. However after ten years, the Maratha army under Peshwa Madhavrao re-established the Maratha empire in the North.

The Battle of Plassey and the Battle of Buxar were two significant military engagements that played pivotal roles in the establishment of British colonial rule in India. Both battles took place in the eastern region of Bengal (present-day Bangladesh and parts of West Bengal, India) during the 18th century. Here's an overview of each battle:

Battle of Plassey (1757):

Background:

1. **Political Context:** The Battle of Plassey was fought during the period of the Mughal Empire's decline and the rise of regional powers, including the British East India Company and the Nawabs of Bengal.
2. **Siraj-ud-Daulah:** Siraj-ud-Daulah, the Nawab of Bengal, was opposed to the growing influence of the British East India Company and sought to assert his authority over the company's trading activities in Bengal.

Events:

1. **British Intrigues:** Robert Clive, a British military officer and administrator, orchestrated a conspiracy to overthrow Siraj-ud-Daulah and install a more compliant ruler who would be favorable to British interests.
2. **Alliance with Mir Jafar:** Clive formed an alliance with Mir Jafar, a discontented noble in the Nawab's court, promising him the position of Nawab in exchange for his support.

3. **Battle of Plassey:** On June 23, 1757, the Battle of Plassey was fought between the forces of Siraj-ud-Daulah and the British East India Company, supported by Mir Jafar's forces. The battle ended in a decisive victory for the British, despite their smaller numbers, due to treachery and betrayal within Siraj-ud-Daulah's ranks.

Consequences:

1. **British Control:** The victory at Plassey established British control over Bengal, paving the way for the gradual expansion of British rule throughout the Indian subcontinent.
2. **Economic Exploitation:** The British East India Company gained control over Bengal's lucrative trade and revenue resources, leading to economic exploitation and impoverishment of the region.
3. **Political Subjugation:** The defeat of Siraj-ud-Daulah weakened the authority of the Mughal Empire in Bengal and facilitated British political domination over the region.

Battle of Buxar (1764):

Background:

1. **Continued Conflict:** Following the Battle of Plassey, the British East India Company continued its expansionist policies, leading to further conflicts with regional powers in India.
2. **Shuja-ud-Daulah:** The Nawab of Oudh, Shuja-ud-Daulah, allied with the Mughal Emperor Shah Alam II and the Mughal governor of Bengal, Mir Qasim, to challenge British dominance in the region.

Events:

1. **Alliance Against the British:** Shuja-ud-Daulah, Shah Alam II, and Mir Qasim formed a coalition against the British East India Company, seeking to expel them from Bengal and other parts of India.
2. **Battle of Buxar:** On October 22, 1764, the Battle of Buxar was fought between the British East India Company and the coalition forces led by Shuja-ud-Daulah, Shah Alam II, and Mir Qasim. The battle resulted in a decisive victory for the British, who employed superior military tactics and weaponry.

Consequences:

1. **Territorial Gains:** The victory at Buxar consolidated British control over Bengal, Bihar, and parts of Oudh, further expanding their territorial holdings in India.
2. **Treaty of Allahabad:** Following the battle, the Treaty of Allahabad was signed in 1765, under which the Mughal Emperor Shah Alam II granted the Diwani (revenue-collecting rights) of Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa to the British East India Company, formalizing British political dominance in the region.
3. **British Ascendancy:** The Battle of Buxar cemented British ascendancy in India, marking a significant milestone in the establishment of British colonial rule over the Indian subcontinent.

In summary, the Battle of Plassey and the Battle of Buxar were instrumental in the expansion of British colonial power in India, leading to far-reaching political, economic, and social consequences for the Indian subcontinent.

The Battle of Plassey 23 JUNE 1757)

Prelude to the Battle

The officials of the Company made rampant misuse of its trade privileges that adversely affected the nawab's finances. The English fortified Calcutta without the nawab Siraj-ud-din-daulah permission. The Company further tried to mislead him, and compounded their sin by giving asylum to a political fugitive, Krishna Das, son of Raj Ballabh who had fled with immense treasures against the nawab's will.

'Black Hole Tragedy'. Siraj-ud-daula is believed to have imprisoned 146 English persons who were lodged in a very tiny room due to which 123 of them died of suffocation. However, historians either do not believe this story, or say that the number of victims must have been much smaller.

The Battle

The arrival of a strong force under the command of Robert Clive at Calcutta from Madras strengthened the English position in Bengal. Clive forged a secret alliance with the traitors of the nawab—Mir Jafar, , Jagat Seth (an influential banker of Bengal) Under the deal, Mir Jafar was to be made the nawab who in turn would reward the Company for its services. The secret alliance of the Company with the conspirators further strengthened the English position. So the English victory in the Battle of Plassey (June 23, 1757) was decided before the battle was even fought.

Due to the conspiracy of the nawab's officials, the 50,000-strong force of Siraj was defeated by a handful of Clive's forces. Siraj-ud-daula was captured and murdered by the order of Mir Jafar's son, Miran. The Battle of Plassey placed at the disposal of the English vast resources of Bengal. After Plassey, the English virtually monopolised the trade and commerce of Bengal.

Significance of Battle of Plassey

As a result of this victory, Mir Jafar became the Nawab of Bengal. He gave large sums of money plus the zamindari of 24 parganas (DISTRICT) to the English. The Battle of Plassey had political significance for it laid the foundation of the British empire in India; it has been rightly regarded as the starting point of British rule in India. The battle established the military supremacy of the English in Bengal. But there was no apparent change in the form of government, though the supreme control of affairs passed to Clive, on whose support the new nawab, Mir Jafar, was entirely dependent for maintaining his newly acquired position.

Mir Kasim and the Treaty of 1760

Mir Jafar was increasingly irritated by the interference of Clive. He entered into a conspiracy with the Dutch at Chinsurah. But the Dutch were defeated. The treachery of Mir Jafar and his failure to make the payments due to the Company, annoyed the English. Meanwhile, Miran, the son of Jafar died and there started a fight for the nawabship of Bengal between Mir Kasim, the son-in-law of Mir Jafar, and Miran's son. Vansittart, the new Governor of Calcutta, agreed to support Mir Kasim's claim after a treaty between Mir Kasim and the Company was signed in 1760.

Important features of the treaty were as follows:

Mir Kasim agreed to cede to the Company the districts of Burdwan, Midnapur and Chittagong (cities in west bengal & bangladesh) The Company would get half of the share in chunam (chuna) trade of Sylhet (city in bangladesh) Mir Kasim agreed to pay off the outstanding dues to the Company. Mir Kasim promised to pay a sum of rupees five lakh towards financing the Company's war efforts in southern India. It was agreed that Mir Kasim's enemies were the

Company's enemies, and his friends, the Company's friends. (vi) It was agreed that tenants of the nawab's territory would not be allowed to settle in the lands of the Company, and vice-versa.

Under the pressure of the Company, Mir Jafar decided to resign in favour of Mir Kasim. A pension of Rs 1,500 per annum was fixed for Mir Jafar.

The Battle of Buxar October 22, 1764)

Prelude to Battle

The Company had thought that Mir Kasim would prove to be an ideal puppet for them. However, Mir Kasim belied the expectations of the Company. Ram Narayan, the deputy- governor of Bihar, was not responding to repeated requests by the nawab to submit the accounts of the revenues of Bihar. Mir Kasim could not tolerate this open defiance of his authority. But Ram Narayan was supported by the English Officials of Patna. The misuse of the Company's dastak or trade permit (a permit which exempted the goods specified from payment of duties) by Company officials also resulted in tensions between the nawab and the English. The misuse of the dastak meant the loss of tax revenue to the nawab.

It also made the local merchants face unequal competition with the Company merchants. By an imperial farman, the English company had obtained the right to trade in Bengal without paying transit dues or tolls. However, the servants of the Company also claimed the same privileges for their private trade. The Company's servants also sold dastak to Indian merchants for a commission. Besides, they used coercive methods to get goods at cheaper rates, which was against the spirit of the duty-free trade. The duty-free trade simply meant buying cheap in an otherwise competitive market. Mir Kasim decided to abolish the duties altogether, but the British

protested against this and insisted upon having preferential treatment as against other traders. The Nawab-Company tussle over transit duty led to the outbreak of wars between the English and Mir Kasim in 1763. Mir Kasim fled to Awadh (or Oudh) and

formed a confederacy with the Nawab of Awadh, Shuja-ud-daulah, and the Mughal Emperor, Shah Alam II, with a view to recover Bengal from the English.

The Battle

The combined armies of Mir Kasim, the Nawab of Awadh and Shah Alam II were defeated by the English forces under Major Hector Munro at Buxar on October 22, 1764 in a closely contested battle. The English campaign against Mir Kasim was short but decisive. The victory made the English a great power in northern India and contenders for supremacy over the whole country. After the battle, Mir Jafar, who was made Nawab in 1763 when relations between Mir Kasim and the Company became strained, agreed to hand over the districts of Midnapore, Burdwan and Chittagong to the English for the maintenance of their army. The English were also permitted duty-free trade in Bengal, except for a duty of two per cent on salt. After the death of Mir Jafar, his minor son, Najim-ud-daula, was appointed nawab, but the real power of administration lay in the hands of the naib-subahdar, who could be appointed or dismissed by the English.

Dual Government in Bengal 1765-72)

After the battle of Buxar, the East India Company became the real masters of Bengal. Robert Clive introduced the dual system of government, i.e., the rule of the two—the Company and the Nawab—in Bengal in which both the Diwani REVENUE COLLECTION), i.e., collecting revenues, and Nizamat courts)

police and judicial functions, came under the control of the Company. The Company exercised diwani rights as the diwan and then izamat rights through its right to nominate the deputy subdar.

The concept of "Dual Government" in Bengal refers to a unique administrative arrangement implemented by the British East India Company after the Battle of Plassey in 1757. This system was established following the defeat of Siraj-ud-Daulah, the Nawab of Bengal, by the British forces led by Robert Clive. Here's an overview of the Dual Government system:

Background:

1. **British Control of Bengal:** The Battle of Plassey resulted in the establishment of British control over Bengal, one of the wealthiest and most populous regions of India.
2. **Establishment of the Dual Government:** In the aftermath of the battle, the British East India Company sought to maintain indirect control over Bengal while appearing to respect the authority of the Mughal Emperor in Delhi.

Features of the Dual Government:

1. **Nawab as Puppet Ruler:** The Nawab of Bengal was retained as the nominal ruler of the region, but his powers were severely curtailed. He became a puppet ruler under the control and influence of the British.
2. **Company Diwani:** The British East India Company obtained the Diwani rights, which granted them the authority to collect revenue from Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa.

This allowed the Company to control the economic and financial administration of these regions.

3. **Nizamat Authority:** While the British controlled the revenue administration (Diwani), they allowed the Nawab to retain authority over certain aspects of governance, known as the Nizamat. This included the administration of justice, maintenance of law and order, and the upkeep of administrative functions.
4. **Division of Responsibilities:** The Dual Government system effectively divided administrative responsibilities between the British-controlled Diwani and the Nawab's Nizamat, creating a semblance of cooperation while ensuring British dominance in economic and financial matters.

Consequences:

1. **British Economic Exploitation:** The Dual Government system facilitated British economic exploitation of Bengal by granting the Company control over revenue collection. This led to heavy taxation, agricultural exploitation, and economic hardship for the local population.
2. **Weakening of Nawab's Authority:** The Dual Government marginalized the authority of the Nawab, reducing him to a figurehead with limited powers. The Nawab's dependence on the British for financial and military support further weakened his position.
3. **Growing British Influence:** The establishment of the Dual Government system solidified British influence and control over Bengal, laying the groundwork for further expansion and consolidation of British colonial rule in India.
4. **Resistance and Unrest:** The economic exploitation and political manipulation under the Dual Government system fueled resentment and discontent among the local population, leading to occasional uprisings and rebellions against British rule.

Overall, the Dual Government system in Bengal exemplified the subtle methods employed by the British East India Company to consolidate and expand its control over Indian territories, ultimately laying the foundation for British colonial dominance in the subcontinent.

India Before 1857: Coexistence and the Emergence of Dual System

Before 1857, India was primarily under the control of the British East India Company, which gradually expanded its influence over various regions. The administration of the British East India Company coexisted with the existing socio-political systems in place in different parts of India. However, it's important to note that the term "dual system" is not commonly used to describe the situation in India before 1857.

Buxar's Impact: British Rule and the Dual System in Bengal

- **The aftermath of the Battle of Buxar:** The British became the supreme power in Bengal and tried to establish administration according to their requirements.
- **Main objectives:** to enhance the profitability of its Indian possessions to Britain and to maintain and strengthen the British hold over India.

Dual System in Bengal: Clive's Governance and Its Impact

- **Robert Clive founded the infamous dual system of governing Bengal after the Treaty of Allahabad (1765).**
- The Company obtained the “Diwani” (revenue) and “Nizamat” (civil administration) powers of Bengal from two distinct sources under the “dual” government system:
 - **Diwani** from the Mughal emperor.
 - **Nizamat** from the Nawab of Bengal.
- **‘Diwan’ of Bengal:** authorized to collect revenues from the province, and nominate the deputy subahdar to control the Nizamat or the police and judicial powers. Without the approval of the Company, the deputy subahdar could not be removed.
- Instead of receiving a fixed payment from the Company, **the Nawab continued to manage the real administration of the criminal, civil, and police systems.**
- **While the British possessed power, the native administrators maintained accountability.**
- **Dual Government in Bengal:** destroyed the trade, industry, and agriculture of Bengal and also affected the Company's income both from revenue and trade.

The downside of Dual Government

Maladministration: The British held power and money, while the Nawab had no power or money. With a small annual grant of rupees 50 lakh, the Nawab struggled to manage the administration effectively.

Due to a lack of funds and lack of law enforcement, lawlessness prevailed in Bengal, leading to increased theft and robbery cases. Common people suffered greatly due to a lack of justice, leading to their departure from their homes.

Economy: The Dual Government of Clive deteriorated agriculture in Bengal, allowing the company to collect revenue and provide irrigation. This led to a great famine in 1770, resulting in decreased revenue collection and apathy towards agriculture.

Poor administration led to increased private trade, with East India Company servants profiting from illegal trade, while merchants suffered due to tax burdens. This resulted in a severe blow to local trade and commerce.

Conclusion

Although the Dual Government recognized the nominal authority of the Nawab, the British East India Company effectively controlled both the Diwani and the Nizamat administrations. Over time, the Company's control expanded, and the Nawab's role diminished, leading to the eventual assumption of direct British rule in 1858 after the Indian Rebellion of 1857.

Robert Clive set up the infamous dual system of government administration in Bengal after the Treaty of Allahabad (1765).

- Under the 'dual' or double government system, the Company got both the Diwani (revenue) and Nizamat (civil administration) functions of Bengal from two different sources- Diwani from the Mughal emperor and Nizamat from the Nawab of Bengal.
- The Company was authorized to collect revenues of the province as the diwan, while through the right to nominate the deputy subahdar it was in a position to control the Nizamat or the police and judicial powers. The deputy subahdar could not be removed without the consent of the Company.
- Under this system, the Nawab continued to handle the actual work of criminal, civil and police administration instead of a fixed payment by the Company.
- This was a government system in which the native administrators held responsibility while the British enjoyed the authority or in other words, authority was completely divorced from responsibility. Bengal now had two masters the Nawab and the Company. The Nawab was responsible for general administration, maintenance of law and order, and justice (i.e., criminal cases). The Company had military power and the right to collect and use the revenue of Bengal. This arrangement was known as the Dual Government.
- The company had no responsibilities and enjoyed power. On the other hand, the Nawab was burdened with the responsibility of administration without the resources necessary for running it efficiently i.e. responsibility without power. Indian officials were appointed by the company to collect the revenue. The greed, corruption and oppression of these officials left the peasants in conditions of utter misery. The company was indifferent to the people's welfare.

> rampant corruption among servants of the Company who made full use of private trading to enrich themselves;

> excessive revenue collection and oppression of peasantry;

> The company went into loss, while the servants were flourishing.

- The Dual Government in Bengal failed miserably. It destroyed the trade, industry, and agriculture of Bengal.
- The Company also did not remain unaffected by the evils of its administration. Its income both from revenue and trade suffered. The practice of private trade by servants which remained the primary concern of the company also proved disastrous to the fortunes of the Company.

Later When Bengal was hit by a terrible famine, the conditions of the people worsened, and one-third of the population perished. Neither the company nor the Nawab, who in any case had neither the authority nor the resources to do so, took steps to help the people. The Company, through its power to nominate the deputy Nawab, only interfered in the general administration without taking on any responsibility. The evils of the Dual Government began to manifest themselves. The administration and economy collapsed.

Unit 2-

Expansion of British Empire In India

I. Reforms of Warren Hastings, Cornwallis & Subsidiary Alliance of Wellesely.

II. Maharaja Ranjit Singh and his achievements .

III. Lord Hanstings and British Paramountcy, Lord Dalhousie"s Doctrine of Lapse.

IV. Lord William Bentick and his reforms.

The expansion of the British Empire in India was a gradual process that occurred over several centuries, beginning with the establishment of trading posts by the British East India Company in the early 17th century and culminating in the formal annexation of Indian territories by the British Crown in the mid-19th century. Here's an overview of the key phases and factors contributing to the expansion of the British Empire in India:

Early Trading Posts and Settlements:

1. **Establishment of Trading Posts:** The British East India Company established trading posts, such as Surat, Madras, and Calcutta, along the Indian coastline in the early 17th century to facilitate trade with Indian merchants and compete with other European powers.
2. **Development of Settlements:** Over time, these trading posts evolved into permanent settlements and fortified enclaves, providing the British with footholds for further expansion and influence in India.

Acquisition of Territorial Control:

1. **Wars and Conflicts:** The British East India Company engaged in numerous wars and conflicts with regional powers, Indian princes, and rival European powers to expand its territorial control and consolidate its influence in India.
2. **Treaties and Alliances:** The British entered into treaties and alliances with Indian rulers and princes, often exploiting internal rivalries and divisions to gain territorial concessions and political advantages.
3. **Subsidiary Alliances:** The British employed the strategy of "subsidiary alliances" to establish indirect control over Indian princely states, whereby the Indian rulers retained nominal sovereignty but were required to accept British military protection and allow British residents at their courts.
4. **Doctrine of Lapse:** The British introduced the Doctrine of Lapse, a policy whereby Indian princely states without a male heir could be annexed by the British East India Company, further expanding British territorial control.

Administration and Governance:

1. **Centralization of Authority:** The British East India Company gradually centralized administrative authority and governance in India under its control, establishing administrative structures, courts, and revenue systems.
2. **Establishment of Presidencies:** The British East India Company established three presidencies—Bengal, Madras, and Bombay—each with its own administrative and commercial functions, serving as centers of British colonial rule in India.
3. **Regulation and Legislation:** The British introduced various regulations, laws, and reforms to govern Indian society, economy, and administration, often imposing British legal and political systems on Indian territories.
4. **Civil Services:** The British recruited and trained a bureaucracy of British and Indian officials to administer the British Empire in India, establishing institutions such as the Indian Civil Service (ICS) to govern the country.

Social and Cultural Impact:

1. **Educational and Social Reforms:** The British introduced educational reforms and social initiatives, including the promotion of Western education, the abolition of social practices such as sati and child marriage, and the establishment of modern institutions such as universities, hospitals, and railways.
2. **Cultural Hegemony:** British colonial rule exerted a profound influence on Indian culture, society, and identity, leading to the spread of English language, literature, customs, and values, as well as the emergence of new social and cultural identities.

Consequences:

1. **Territorial Expansion:** The expansion of the British Empire in India led to the annexation and consolidation of vast territories, extending British colonial rule over much of the Indian subcontinent.
2. **Economic Exploitation:** British colonial rule facilitated the exploitation of India's resources, labor, and markets for the benefit of British interests, leading to economic hardship, poverty, and underdevelopment in many parts of India.
3. **Political Transformation:** British colonial rule transformed Indian political institutions, society, and governance, leading to the centralization of authority, the erosion of indigenous power structures, and the emergence of modern political ideologies and movements.
4. **Cultural and Social Changes:** British colonialism brought about significant cultural and social changes in India, leading to the adoption of Western values, institutions, and lifestyles, as well as the emergence of new forms of identity and resistance against colonial rule.

Overall, the expansion of the British Empire in India had far-reaching consequences for the Indian subcontinent, shaping its political, economic, social, and cultural trajectory for centuries to come.

Warren Hastings, who served as the Governor-General of India from 1773 to 1785, implemented several significant reforms during his tenure aimed at improving the administrative, judicial, and financial systems of British India. Here are some key reforms undertaken by Warren Hastings:

Administrative Reforms:

1. **Centralization of Administration:** Hastings centralized administrative authority under the Governor-Generalship, reducing the powers of the Bengal Council and establishing direct control over the Company's territories in India.
2. **Revenue Administration:** Hastings introduced reforms in revenue administration, including the system of the Permanent Settlement in Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa, which aimed to fix land revenue assessments and provide stability to landholders.
3. **Judicial Reforms:** Hastings undertook judicial reforms, including the establishment of the Sadar Nizamat Adalat (Supreme Court) at Calcutta in 1774, which served as the highest court of appeal in civil and criminal cases.

Diplomatic and Military Reforms:

1. **Consolidation of British Power:** Hastings pursued a policy of territorial expansion and consolidation, annexing territories and defeating local rulers to extend British control over large parts of India.
2. **Relations with Princely States:** Hastings negotiated treaties and alliances with Indian princely states, employing the strategy of subsidiary alliances to establish British influence and protect British interests.
3. **Military Reorganization:** Hastings reorganized the Company's military forces, modernizing training, recruitment, and equipment to enhance the effectiveness of the Company's armies.

Financial Reforms:

1. **Financial Stability:** Hastings implemented measures to improve the Company's financial stability, including the reduction of extravagant expenses and the imposition of strict financial discipline.
2. **Fiscal Policies:** Hastings introduced fiscal policies to increase revenue generation, including the imposition of new taxes and the enhancement of revenue collection mechanisms.

Other Reforms:

1. **Educational Initiatives:** Hastings supported educational initiatives, including the establishment of the Calcutta Madrasa in 1781, which aimed to promote the study of Islamic law and Persian language.
2. **Cultural Patronage:** Hastings patronized Indian art, literature, and culture, supporting initiatives to preserve and promote indigenous cultural traditions.

Legacy:

1. **Administrative Legacy:** Warren Hastings' administrative reforms laid the groundwork for the establishment of British colonial rule in India and contributed to the development of administrative institutions and practices that endured for decades.
2. **Controversies and Criticisms:** Hastings' tenure was also marked by controversies and criticisms, including allegations of corruption and abuses of power, which ultimately led to his impeachment by the British Parliament in 1787. However, he was acquitted of all charges in 1795.

Overall, Warren Hastings' reforms had a significant impact on the political, administrative, and economic landscape of British India, shaping the trajectory of British colonial rule in the subcontinent.

Lord Cornwallis, who served as Governor-General of India in two terms (1786-1793 and 1805), introduced several important reforms during his tenure aimed at improving the administrative, judicial, and military systems in British India. Here are some key reforms implemented by Cornwallis:

Administrative Reforms:

1. **Cornwallis Code:** Cornwallis introduced a comprehensive set of administrative regulations known as the Cornwallis Code. This code aimed to streamline and modernize the administrative structure of British India, emphasizing efficiency, transparency, and accountability.
2. **District Administration:** Cornwallis reorganized the administrative divisions of Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa into districts, each headed by a District Collector who was responsible for revenue collection, law enforcement, and civil administration.
3. **Civil Service Reforms:** Cornwallis initiated reforms in the civil service, introducing competitive examinations and merit-based recruitment to ensure the appointment of qualified and capable individuals to administrative positions.

Judicial Reforms:

1. **Establishment of Circuit Courts:** Cornwallis established Circuit Courts, presided over by European judges, to provide legal administration and dispense justice in different regions of British India. These courts helped in improving access to justice and resolving legal disputes.
2. **Introduction of Jury System:** Cornwallis introduced the jury system in criminal trials, allowing for the participation of a panel of local jurors in the adjudication of criminal cases, thus promoting public participation and accountability in the legal process.
3. **Codification of Laws:** Cornwallis initiated the process of codifying laws in British India, compiling and organizing existing legal regulations and statutes to create a more systematic and accessible legal framework.

Military Reforms:

1. **Professionalization of the Army:** Cornwallis focused on professionalizing and modernizing the Company's military forces, improving training, discipline, and equipment standards to enhance the effectiveness of the army.
2. **Sepoy Reforms:** Cornwallis introduced reforms in the recruitment and training of Indian sepoys (soldiers) in the Company's army, standardizing pay, promotion, and retirement policies to increase morale and loyalty among Indian troops.
3. **Reduction of Corruption:** Cornwallis implemented measures to curb corruption and malpractices within the military establishment, strengthening disciplinary procedures and promoting accountability among military officers and personnel.

Other Reforms:

1. **Land Revenue Reforms:** Cornwallis introduced reforms in land revenue administration, aiming to improve the assessment and collection of land revenue, enhance agricultural productivity, and provide stability to landholders.
2. **Education Initiatives:** Cornwallis supported educational initiatives, including the establishment of schools and colleges, to promote Western education and learning in British India, laying the foundation for the modern education system.
3. **Welfare Measures:** Cornwallis introduced welfare measures for Company employees, including pension schemes and healthcare benefits, to improve the living standards and welfare of Company personnel.

Legacy:

1. **Institutional Legacy:** Cornwallis' reforms had a lasting impact on the administrative, judicial, and military institutions of British India, laying the foundation for modern governance and legal systems in the subcontinent.
2. **Continuing Influence:** Many of Cornwallis' reforms, such as the District Collector system and the jury system, continued to shape the administrative and legal framework of British India long after his tenure as Governor-General.
3. **Criticism and Controversy:** Despite his contributions, Cornwallis' tenure was not without criticism, particularly regarding his land revenue policies, which some critics argued exacerbated the exploitation of Indian peasants and landholders.

Overall, Lord Cornwallis' reforms played a significant role in shaping the structure and governance of British India, contributing to the consolidation of British colonial rule in the subcontinent.

The Subsidiary Alliance was a significant policy introduced by Lord Wellesley, who served as the Governor-General of India from 1798 to 1805. This policy aimed to strengthen British control over Indian princely states and to ensure the stability of British hegemony in the Indian subcontinent. Here are the key features and objectives of the Subsidiary Alliance of Wellesley:

Objectives:

1. **British Hegemony:** Lord Wellesley sought to establish and consolidate British dominance over the Indian subcontinent, extending British influence and control over Indian princely states.
2. **Security and Stability:** The Subsidiary Alliance aimed to provide security and stability to the British Empire by neutralizing potential threats from rival European powers, such as France, and internal dissent within Indian states.
3. **Revenue Generation:** By entering into subsidiary alliances with Indian princely states, the British East India Company could extract revenue and resources from these states, thereby enhancing its financial resources and strengthening its economic position.

Features:

1. **Military Protection:** Princely states entering into subsidiary alliances were required to accept British military protection, meaning that British forces would be stationed within the state to provide security against external threats.
2. **Surrender of Territory:** Princely states had to cede certain territories to the British East India Company as a guarantee of their compliance with the terms of the alliance.
3. **British Control over Foreign Affairs:** Princely states had to agree to the principle of non-interference in foreign affairs, effectively surrendering their sovereignty in matters of diplomacy and international relations to the British.
4. **Puppet Rulers:** The rulers of princely states entering into subsidiary alliances often became puppet rulers, with their authority and autonomy greatly diminished under the influence of the British Resident stationed at their court.
5. **Financial Obligations:** Princely states had to bear the expenses of maintaining British troops stationed within their territories, further increasing their financial dependence on the British East India Company.

Implementation:

1. **Negotiation and Coercion:** Lord Wellesley employed a combination of negotiation and coercion to compel Indian princely states to enter into subsidiary alliances. States that refused to comply were often subjected to military force and annexation.
2. **Expansion of British Territory:** The implementation of subsidiary alliances facilitated the expansion of British territorial control over large parts of India, including territories in South India, Central India, and the North-West Frontier.

Consequences:

1. **Consolidation of British Power:** The Subsidiary Alliance policy played a crucial role in consolidating British power and control over Indian territories, extending British hegemony over the subcontinent.
2. **Weakening of Princely States:** The policy weakened the autonomy and authority of Indian princely states, leading to the erosion of indigenous power structures and the emergence of British dominance in Indian politics.
3. **Economic Exploitation:** Princely states under subsidiary alliances were subjected to economic exploitation by the British East India Company, leading to the depletion of resources and the impoverishment of local populations.

Overall, the Subsidiary Alliance policy of Lord Wellesley was a key instrument of British imperialism in India, contributing to the expansion and consolidation of British colonial rule in the subcontinent.

Maharaja Ranjit Singh (1760-1839): The Ruler of Punjab

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The first Maharaja of the Sikh Empire, which ruled the northwest Indian subcontinent in the early nineteenth century, was **Maharaja Ranjit Singh**, sometimes called the “Lion of Punjab” or “Sher-e-Punjab”, also spelled Runjit Singh and empire was sometimes called as ”Maharaja Ranjit Singh Empire. He got into his first fight with his father when he was 10 years old. He fought several fights to force the Afghans out when his father passed away, and at the age of 21, he was named “Maharaja of Punjab” Even until 1839, under his leadership, his kingdom expanded throughout the Punjab region.

Maharaja Ranjit Singh

Overview: Maharaja Ranjit Singh

1st Maharaja of the Sikh Empire	
Reign	12 April 1801-27 June 1839
Investiture	12 April 1801 at Lahore Fort
Succcessor	Kharak Singh
3rd Chief of Sukerchakia Misl	
Reign	15 April 1792- 11 April 1801
Predecessor	Maha Singh
Born	Budh Singh 13 November 1780
Died	27 June 1839 (aged 58)

1st Maharaja of the Sikh Empire	
Spouse	Maharani Mehtab Kaur Maharani Datar Kaur Maharani Jind Kaur

Ranjit Singh was born in Gujranwala on November 13, 1780. His parents were Maha Singh and Raj Kaur. Maha Singh, his father, was the leader of **Sukerchakia Misl**. **Ranjit Singh** lost his father when he was just twelve years old. After then, he was entirely raised by his mother. Ranjit Singh lost one of his eyes as a result of smallpox as a youngster. He married Mehtab Kaur in 1796 when he was sixteen years old. Her parents were Sada Kaur and Sardar Gurbaksh Singh Sandhu.

Maharaja Ranjit Singh Family Tree

The Rule of Maharaja Ranjit Singh

Ranjit Singh's biggest accomplishment was the formation of the Sikh Empire in Punjab in 1799. This Maharaja Ranjit Singh empire had a major influence on the time on the Indian subcontinent. This kingdom comprised both western Tibet and the Khyber Pass in the west. The empire extended as far north as Mithankot and as far south as Kashmir.



Sikh Empire Map

When Ranjit Singh took control of Sukerchakia Misl at 18, he established his dominion. After that, he intended to enlarge his sphere of influence. Lahore and Punjab were also put under his rule. He overcame a number of misls. He also made an effort to unite all Sikhs, earning him the title of Maharaja. He was so young and had so much success. He took charge of Amritsar by defeating Mai Sukhan, the ruler of the Bhangi Misl, in 1802. After that, in 1807, he conquered Qutb ud-Din and captured Kasur. He helped the Raja Sansar Chand of Kangra in 1809. He defeated the Gurkha soldiers. This victory brought Kangra into his dominion. He joined the Barakzays in 1813 in order to enter Kashmir. But they abandoned him. But he went on his way to help Shah Shuja. The Attock Fort, which was built along the Indus River, was next taken over by him. Shuja was ordered to hand up the Kohinoor diamond he was holding after that. For several years, Ranjit Singh fought the Afghans in order to eliminate them from Punjab. He was successful in conquering the Pashtun area, Multan, and Peshawar (1818). As a result, there was no longer a Muslim majority in the Multan area. In 1819, Ranjit Singh gained power in Kashmir. He made an effort to lessen racism and hatred against various religions.

There were followers of different religions even among his soldiers. This demonstrated his respect for all faiths. In order to train his army using modern methods in 1820, he enlisted the assistance of European officers. After this training, the military performed better when they seized control of the North-West Frontier. In the 1830s, the British made attempts to colonize other parts of India. They identified Ranjit Singh as their target in order to do this. He was not, however, ready to hear any of the suggestions made by the British administration. In 1834, he even gained control of the North. In the year 1837, the Afghan and Sikh armies engaged in combat at the Battle of Jamrud. While traveling from the Khyber Pass into Jamrud, the Afghans came across the Sikhs. They failed in their attempt to suppress the Sikhs by conquering Peshawar. After all the area he had taken, even the British were scared of Ranjit. Therefore, they made an effort to take his domains.

Achievements of Maharaja Ranjit Singh

Ranjit Singh achieved significant success after taking power. However, as the British started to assert more control over Jammu as well, they had to deal with this success. He also acquired additional districts when he acquired the Sukara-chairs region. These areas were Chaj Doab and Rachna. He took advantage of the time while Afghanistan was engaged in an

internal civil war for around three decades. He established his own kingdom in the center of Punjab and adopted the Blood and Iron policy.

After that, the Afghan king requested that he take over and rule Lahore on Suzerain's behalf. By defeating Bhangi Misl, Ranjit Singh was successful in taking full control. He took control of Lahore. Due to this, other Commanders joined together to attack Ranjit Singh under their own union. However, this union collapsed after its leader passed away from excessive drinking. In the year 1805, Ranjit also succeeded in removing Bhangis from Amritsar. He gained political influence in Punjab as well, as he was the ruler of both Amritsar and Lahore. His primary goal after this was to bring all Sikhs together. He planned three missions with the intention of achieving this aim.

Many people respected Ranjit Singh. He respected all religions, hence all religions were recognized among his subjects. Even those who did not practice his religion showed him respect. They had been tremendously loyal to him. Due to their faith, none of the individuals differed from one another. The participants received appreciation for their talent and prior efforts. They were well known for their labor rather than their religion. Their respective cultures, religions, and festivals were respected. Despite having varied customs and beliefs, every topic cooperated.

Regardless of their religious background, he respected every one of his followers. This indicates that his people were never pushed to practice Sikhism. When the previous Afghan or Muslim monarchs were in power, this did not exist. Famous Punjabi Sufi poet Shah Mohammed wrote a poem about Maharaja Ranjit Singh. "Ranjit Singh was a natural warrior-king who provided his heart to the nation," said one of the paragraphs. Chamba, Kangra, Jammu, Multan, Peshawar, and Kashmir were all conquered under his rule. He extended his domains to include China and Ladakh and it is where he made his currency.

Death of Maharaja Ranjit Singh

Maharaja Ranjit Singh died on June 27th, 1839. Lahore, and now in Punjab, was the place of his death. At that time, the Sikh Empire ruled over this area. His cremated remains have been preserved in honor of his Samadhi at Lahore, Punjab, where he died and was cremated. Maharaja Ranjit Singh was a righteous leader, according to legend. Because he respected all religions, there was no hatred or discrimination towards any one religion in his Empire.

Lord Hastings, also known as Francis Rawdon-Hastings, was a British nobleman and military officer who served as the Governor-General of India from 1813 to 1823. His tenure is notable for significant military campaigns and political maneuvers that expanded British control over the Indian subcontinent. Here are key points regarding Lord Hastings and the establishment of British paramountcy in India:

Expansion of British Rule

1. Conquest and Annexation:

- **Anglo-Nepalese War (1814-1816):** The conflict between the British East India Company and the Kingdom of Nepal ended with the Treaty of Sugauli,

which significantly reduced Nepal's territories and increased British influence in the region.

- **Anglo-Maratha Wars:** The Third Anglo-Maratha War (1817-1818) resulted in the defeat of the Maratha Empire and led to the annexation of vast territories, including the Peshwa's dominions, thus establishing British supremacy in central India.

2. Pindari Campaign (1817-1818):

- The Pindaris were irregular mercenaries and plunderers who operated in central India. Lord Hastings initiated a campaign to eliminate the Pindari threat, which also brought many local rulers under British control as they sought protection against these marauders.

Establishment of British Paramountcy

1. Doctrine of Paramountcy:

- Under Hastings, the British policy shifted towards asserting paramountcy over Indian princely states, effectively making them subordinate to British authority. This policy aimed to create a unified and stable administration under British control, reducing the influence and autonomy of local rulers.

2. Subsidiary Alliances:

- Although the Subsidiary Alliance system was originally introduced by Lord Wellesley, Hastings expanded its application. Under this system, Indian rulers were compelled to accept British forces in their territories and to conduct foreign relations only through the British, further cementing British dominance.

3. Administrative Reforms:

- Hastings implemented administrative reforms to streamline governance and improve efficiency. This included judicial and revenue reforms aimed at consolidating British control and integrating the annexed territories into the colonial framework.

Impact on India

- **Political Consolidation:** Hastings' policies and military campaigns significantly weakened the power of regional kingdoms and paved the way for the consolidation of British rule over most of the Indian subcontinent.
- **Economic Exploitation:** The expansion of British control also meant the increased exploitation of India's resources for the benefit of the British economy, leading to economic changes that had long-lasting effects on Indian society.

Legacy

Lord Hastings is remembered as a pivotal figure in the expansion of British India. His tenure marked the transition from a collection of relatively autonomous princely states to a more centralized British-controlled India. The establishment of British paramountcy during his governorship set the stage for the full-fledged colonial administration that followed in the latter half of the 19th century.

The ascent to paramountcy

India, 1797–1805

At that point a radical change occurred in British policy. Two causes were principally responsible. There was a growing body of opinion within the company that only British control of India could end the constant wars and provide really satisfactory conditions for trade; full dominion would be economical as well as salutary. The more-compelling immediate cause was the transformation of European politics by the French Revolution. A new French threat to India emerged, this time overland, with Napoleon I's Egyptian expedition of 1798–99. It was certain that a French army under such a leader would find many friends in India to welcome it, not least Tippu Sultan.

The government of Lord Wellesley

The next governor-general, Lord Mornington (later Richard Colley Wellesley, Marquess Wellesley), combined the convictions of the imperialist group with a mandate to deal with the French. Wellesley was thus able to use this fear of the French as a cover for his imperialism

until he was near to complete success. His term of office (1798–1805) was therefore a decisive period in the rise of the British dominion.

Wellesley decided first to strike at Mysore, still a formidable military power and avowedly hostile. He had little difficulty getting the nizam for an ally and securing the neutrality of the *peshwa*. The nizam, hard pressed by the Marathas, was persuaded to disband his contingent of French-trained troops in return for a promise of protection. This was the first of Wellesley's subsidiary treaties. Tippu Sultan had entertained French republican envoys and had planted a tree of liberty at Seringapatam, but when the British stormed Seringapatam in May 1799 he was isolated and at bay, and he found too late that concessions, in the Indian tradition, would not save him. Tippu Sultan died fighting in the breach. Wellesley tempered his imperialism with diplomacy by restoring the child head of the old Hindu reigning family as the ruler of half of Tippu Sultan's dominions; the other half was divided between the nizam and the company. This substantially enlarged the area of the Madras presidency.

For the next three years Wellesley was occupied with certain exercises in realpolitik and with developing his device of the subsidiary treaty. The realpolitik was evidenced in four directions. On the death (1801) of the reigning Carnatic nawab, Wellesley took over his territories, pensioning the new nawab with one-fifth of the revenue. The same fate befell the small but highly cultivated state of Tanjore (1799) and the port city of Surat on a disputed succession.

The biggest of these exercises concerned the Mughal successor state of Avadh in northern India, which had been in treaty relationship with the company since 1765. This rich state had fallen into disorder under the listless though cultured rule of Āṣaf al-Dawlah; on his death in 1797 a succession dispute and an Afghan invasion of the Punjab gave Wellesley a welcome opportunity for interference. He pressed the nawab to disband his troops and increase his payment to the company for his subsidiary force. When the nawab made an offer to abdicate, it was accepted immediately; but, on finding that abdication would mean annexation and not his son's succession, he withdrew it, and Wellesley treated him as rebellious. In 1801 Wellesley annexed half the state, including the Ganges–Yamuna Doab and almost all of Rohilkhand. Whatever the verdict on the means employed, this move had important consequences. Avadh was isolated, and a jumping-off place was secured for an attack on the

northern Marathas. The company was no longer looking for buffer states as shields against attack but for territory that would serve as springboards for offensive action.

This change of attitude applies to Wellesley's development of the subsidiary system. In the hands of Clive and Hastings, it was a defensive instrument to safeguard the company's possessions; in the hands of Wellesley, it became an offensive device with which to subject independent states to British control. The essence of the system was that the company undertook to protect a state from external attack in return for control of its foreign relations. For this purpose it provided a subsidiary force of company troops, who were commonly stationed in a cantonment near the state capital. The state paid for this force by means of a subsidy, which was often commuted into ceding territory. In order to protect itself from an external enemy, the state in question bound itself irrevocably to the British power, providing at the heart, as it were, the means of its own coercion should it ever wish to resume independence.

Wellesley first applied this system in 1798 to Hyderabad, when the aging Nizām 'Alī Khan was in dire fear of the Marathas. In 1800 the subsidy was compounded for the nizām's share of the Mysore annexations. The same system was applied to Avadh, when the great annexation of 1801 was said to be on account of the subsidiary force. It was then the turn of the Marathas—one of the few remaining bastions of Indian independence. Had the Maratha chiefs remained united, Wellesley could have accomplished little; the death of the young *peshwa* released fresh dissensions, however, heightened by the death of the minister Nana Fadnavis in 1800. The chiefs Holkar and Dawlat Rao Sindhia contended for power over the *peshwa*, Baj Rao II. On Holkar's success in 1802, Baji Rao fled to Bassein and applied for British aid. Such an opportunity at the center of Maratha power was not to be missed; there was also the justification that Dawlat Rao Sindhia, in the north, had 40,000 French-trained troops under a French commander. The Treaty of Bassein (December 31, 1802) placed, as it were, a time bomb at the heart of the Maratha confederacy; British troops were stationed at Pune, at the price of a cession of territory, and the *peshwa* was reduced to dependency on the British. (See Sindhia family; Holkar dynasty.)

This action provoked the Second Maratha War—at first against Dawlat Rao Sindhia and Raghuji Bhonsle and then against Holkar. At first the British won resounding victories. Wellesley's brother Arthur (later Arthur Wellesley, 1st duke of Wellington) defeated the Sindhia-Bhonsle coalition in west-central India, while Lord Lake (Gerard Lake, 1st

Viscount Lake) broke up Sindhia's French army, occupied Delhi, and took the aged emperor Shah 'Ālam II under protection. Then came a check, however, with the intervention of Holkar using the old Maratha cavalry tactics, forcing the British to retreat, and besieging Delhi. Though Holkar was later defeated, this was the signal for which exasperated directors and a doubting ministry had been waiting. Wellesley was recalled. His race for hegemony had been lost in the last lap. But Wellesley's work, avowedly imperialistic, made ultimate supremacy inevitable. The Marathas were too broken to reunite, and there was no one to take their place. (See Treaty of Surji-Arjungaon.)

The government of Lord Minto

The next 10 years were an interlude, not a new era. During that period both Sindhia and Holkar plundered the chiefs of Rajasthan, thus preparing them mentally for future British overlordship. Meanwhile, bands of freebooters known as Pindaris raided the Nagpur (home of the Bhonsle dynasty) and Hyderabad states in widening circles and thence entered British territory. These were dispossessed villagers and discarded soldiers—the human flotsam and jetsam of the frequent wars. They had the elusiveness of guerrillas, and they received the tacit countenance of the Maratha princes but not the goodwill of the population, who were their principal victims.

Gilbert Elliott-Murray-Kynynmound, 1st earl of Minto

Gilbert Elliott-Murray-Kynynmound, 1st earl of Minto, detail of an oil painting by James Atkinson; in the National Portrait Gallery, London.(more)

Lord Minto (governor-general 1807–13) was occupied with the revived French danger, which was once again serious with the Treaty of Tilsit (1807) and Napoleon I's resulting alliance with Russia. To guard against a French-sponsored Russian attack, British missions were sent to Afghanistan, to Persia, and to Ranjit Singh, the Sikh ruler of the Punjab. The first two proved fruitless, but the Treaty of Amritsar (1809) with Ranjit Singh defined British and Sikh spheres of influence and settled relations for a generation. Minto's other achievement was the capture of the Île de France (Mauritius) and Java from the French-controlled Dutch; the former island became a colony, and the latter was restored to the Dutch under the peace treaty. One result of this episode was the acquisition of the key point of Singapore by Sir Stamford Raffles in 1819.

The government of Lord Hastings

Francis Rawdon-Hastings, 1st marquess of Hastings

Francis Rawdon-Hastings, 1st marquess of Hastings, detail of a portrait by an unknown artist; in the National Portrait Gallery, London.(more)

The end of the Napoleonic Wars in 1815 opened a new era in India by strengthening the commercial and economic arguments for completing supremacy and by removing all fear of the French. The Pindari raids, which grew year by year until they affected both the Bengal and Madras presidencies, added further reasons for action. The final act was directed by Francis Rawdon-Hastings, 1st marquess of Hastings (governor-general 1813–23), who came to India as a consolation for his failure to attain the premiership under his friend the prince regent (later King George IV). Lord Hastings, however, first had to deal in 1814–16 with the Gurkhas of the northern kingdom of Nepal, who inflicted a series of defeats on a Bengal army unprepared for mountain warfare. Each side earned the respect of the other. The resulting Treaty of Segauli (1816) gave the British the tract of hill country where Shimla (Simla), the site of the future summer capital of British India, was situated, and it settled relations between Nepal and British India for the rest of the British period. Nepal remained independent and isolated, supported by the export of soldiers to strengthen the British military presence in India.

Lord Hastings then turned to the Pindaris. By a large-scale and well-planned enveloping movement, he hoped to enclose them in an iron net. But this involved entering Maratha territories and seeking the cooperation of their princes. Sindhia agreed after agonizing indecision, and this really settled the issue. Holkar's state was in disorder and was easily defeated. Both the raja of Nagpur and the peshwa resisted and attacked the British forces stationed under their respective subsidiary treaties. Nagpur quickly collapsed, but the peshwa kept up a running fight before surrendering in June 1818. The Pindari bands themselves, chased hither and thither, broke up or surrendered.

The East India Company was thus the undisputed master of India, as far as the Sutlej River in the Punjab. This episode was completed by the acceptance of British suzerainty by the Rajput chiefs of Rajasthan, central India, and Kathiawar, as they had formerly accepted the Mughals. Thus the year 1818 marks a watershed, when the British Empire in India became the British Empire of India.

The settlement of 1818

The diplomatic settlement of 1818, except for a few annexations before 1857, remained in force until 1947 and is therefore worth some attention. The company, under the influence of its guiding star of economy, wished to be saved as much of the expense of administering India as possible, especially the less fertile portions. Having controlled the larger states by its subsidiary forces (for which they paid), it was content with tribute from the remainder, with control posts at strategic points. Thus, Kathiawar was controlled from Baroda and Rajasthan from Ajmer. There was no thought of integration as in Mughal days. The states were isolated and excluded from any connection with the British. About half of India remained under Indian rulers, robbed of any power of aggression and deprived of any opportunity of cooperation: in the south were the large units of Mysore, Hyderabad, and Travancore; in the west, the states of Shivaji's family; across the center to the east, Nagpur and a number of poor "jungle" states; in the west and west-central areas, numerous Rajput and other Hindu chiefs with the surviving Maratha states of Sindhia, Holkar, and the Gaekwar; west of the Yamuna River, some Sikh princedoms; and in the Ganges valley, the still prosperous and disorderly state of Avadh. In all there were more than 360 units; politically, they were like the surviving fragments of a broken jigsaw puzzle, with all its complexity but without its unity.

The subjection of a whole subcontinent containing a unique civilization has long been a source of historical wonderment. The one-time explanations of innate superiority and of mere fate are no longer seriously entertained. But analysis goes far to dissipate the mystery. In the first place, the feat was not unique; Turkic Muslim dynasties had twice done much the same—for shorter periods, it is true, but also with fewer resources. All these achievements were made possible by the innate divisiveness of Hindu society, rent by class and caste divisions, which rendered it unusually willing to call in unwelcome outsiders to defeat the still more unwelcome neighbour. The foreigners, asked in the first resort to assist in defeating a rival, were in the last resort accepted as masters in preference to dominance by a rival. Thus, Marathas preferred the British to the Mughals, and the nizam preferred the British to the Marathas. Long historical memories can be inhibiting as well as inspiring. Against this setting can be set the company's urge toward unity in the interests of trade. Even when its Indian trade was no longer profitable, India gave profits to others, and its opium bought the Chinese tea, which gave the East India Company its overall profits. Given the fact of expansion, Britain enjoyed the advantage of overseas reinforcement through its sea power and of reserves of power, far greater than that of any Indian prince, through its rapidly

expanding industrial economy. A lost battle for the British was an incident in a campaign, for the Indian prince usually the end of the chapter. Then there were the technical advantages of arms and military discipline and the immense general advantage of a disciplined civilian morale. In the later stages this was boosted by the rising self-confidence of Europeans in general, with their belief that the western European civilization was the only truly progressive one that had ever existed. For the Hindu, on the other hand, his world was at its lowest ebb—in the Kali Yuga, or Dark Age—while the Muslim believed in inscrutable fate. The Hindu's heart was in his religio-cultural complex, and political dominion meant little to the ordinary Hindu so long as this remained untouched.

Organization and policy in British India

The realization of supremacy in 1818 made urgent the problem of the organization of and determination of policy for British India. So far only Bengal had been deliberately organized; the extensive areas annexed after 1799 in the north and the south were still under provisional arrangements. Now the *peshwa's* dominions in the west awaited settlement. The administrators of the first 30 years of the 19th century gave British India the form it retained until 1947. Outstanding among them were Sir Thomas Munro in Madras, Mountstuart Elphinstone in western India, and Sir Charles T. Metcalfe in Delhi; to this trio must be added a fourth—Holt MacKenzie, whose planning determined the lines of settlement from Banaras (Varanasi) to the Yamuna River.

Organization

Lord Charles Cornwallis

Lord Charles Cornwallis, undated engraving.

The only areas so far definitely settled were those of Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa. Lord Cornwallis had been charged by Pitt with the reorganization of Bengal under the new act. Besides being a soldier of distinction, Cornwallis was a man of outstanding integrity, a landlord with rural tastes, and an instinctive Whig. Cornwallis first undertook a cleansing of the existing system. Discipline among the company's servants was enforced at the price of dismissal. Private trade was forbidden to all government officers, and the service was divided into administrative and commercial branches. These measures (which, with others, became known as the Cornwallis Code) were coupled with a generous salary system, which removed the temptation to corruption. From this time the company's service began to gain its later reputation for efficiency and integrity. All this could be done because the governor-general,

with his council of three and his veto power, was now unassailable to the attacks that had ruined Vansittart and frustrated Warren Hastings.

From this base Cornwallis built up the Bengal system. Its first principle was Anglicization. In the belief that Indian officials were corrupt (and that British corruption had been cured), all posts worth more than £500 a year were reserved for the company's covenanted servants. Next came the government. The 23 districts each had a British collector with magisterial powers and two assistants, who were responsible for revenue collection. The judicial system was organized with district judges for both civil and criminal cases. In civil cases there were four courts of appeal; and in criminal, four circuit courts. Criminal justice was taken over from the nawab's deputy, thus removing the last shred of Mughal authority. The criminal code was the Islamic one, humanely modified. A new police force replaced the former local constables of the zamindars. This new system, which, with its division of authority, showed its Whig influence, was rounded off by the proclamation of the rule of law, making all governmental acts answerable in the ordinary courts of law. Though hardly noticed at the time by Indians, it was a radical innovation with far-reaching effects. It was a charter of civil—as distinct from political—liberty.

Cornwallis's permanent settlement of the land revenue is the measure that most deeply affected the life and structure of Indian society, three-quarters of the revenue coming from the land. He found a system of hereditary zamindars, who had acquired police and magisterial powers as well and who were much shaken by the frequent changes of revenue policy under the British. The "settlement" was the decision in 1793 to stabilize the revenue demand at a fixed annual figure, with a commission to the zamindar for collection, and to regard him as the owner of his zamindari; he had the disposal of wastelands within his jurisdiction, but these lands were liable to be sold for arrears of payment. Thus, the land revenue collector became a landlord, with the Achilles' heel that the lands he administered could be sold for arrears, while the tiers of lesser landholders became his tenants. The zamindar reaped the profit of rising prices and of cultivation of wasteland, while the classes below him lost their occupancy rights. The intended protection of these tenants proved illusory because their rights were customary, unsupported by documents. The legal cases that ensued clogged the courts to the point of breakdown. Initially, the zamindar often lost his holding because the fixed demand was pitched too high. The net result of this measure was the creation of a landlord class, loyal to the British connection but divorced from touch with the cultivators.

The government, receiving the revenue from the zamindars, knew little of the people and could do little for them.

At first the Bengal system was thought to provide the key to Indian administration, but doubts multiplied with the years. In Madras, Sir Thomas Munro retained the paternal framework of government but introduced a radically differing method of revenue management known as the ryotwari system, in which the settlement was made directly with the cultivator, each field being separately measured and annually assessed. The system eliminated the middleman but sometimes placed the cultivators at the mercy of lower officials, who often formed cliques of caste groups. Munro considered that innovation and ignorance were the ruling British vices. His system tended to be static and to allow the subordinate tail to wag the directing British dog.

In western India, Mountstuart Elphinstone had the problem of reconciling to British control the resentful Marathas of the *peshwa*'s dominions. With a masterly mixture of tact and firmness, he largely succeeded. He retained Indian agency as far as possible, and he allowed the Maratha nobles, or *jāgīrdārs*, to retain most of their land and many of their privileges. He even continued some donations to Hindu temples. He used the *ryotwari* method of assessing land revenue, collecting through local officials from the village headmen. In Bombay he encouraged Western learning and science, tempting suspicious Brahmans to open their minds to the West. He foresaw the ultimate end of British rule through voluntary Westernization, and he took the first steps toward introducing the new world without antagonizing the old.

In the north, Sir Charles Metcalfe discovered the largely autonomous village with its joint ownership and cultivation by caste oligarchies. He believed this to be the original pattern of rural organization throughout India, and it became his passion to preserve it as far as possible in current conditions. Like Munro and Elphinstone, he was suspicious of change and wished to leave the villagers alone as far as possible. In this he was powerfully supported by the work of Holt MacKenzie, the Bengal secretary whose memorandum of 1819 set a course of recognition and record of village rights for the whole of the northwestern provinces (as later revised and codified, this marked the end of the Bengal system of permanent revenue settlement).

The resulting system of administration of British India was still largely Indian in pattern, though it was now British in direction and superintendence. It was paternalistic and

hierarchical, and it suffered, like its immediate predecessors, from a chronic tendency to overassess. The Mughal emperor was replaced by the mystical entity the Company Bahadur, and its representative, the governor-general, moved about with almost equal pomp. The higher direction was exclusively European, but the officers acted in a Mughal spirit, and the administration at subdistrict and village level went on much as before. But there were also large changes. The British established on a national scale the idea of property in land, and the resulting buying and selling caused large class changes. Their new security benefited the commercial classes generally, but the deliberate sacrifice of Indian industry to the claims of the new machine industries of Britain ruined such ancient crafts as cotton and silk weaving. The new legal system, with its network of courts, proved efficient on the criminal justice side but was heavily overloaded on the civil.

The strain and the scandal of this situation created a demand for increased Indian agency and caused the first breaches in the British monopoly of higher office. Indianization began with the confessed inefficiency of the British legal system. The picture is completed by the company's army, separately organized in the three presidencies and officered, like the civil service, exclusively by the British. It was backed by contingents of the British army. The Bengal army preponderated in numbers and fighting spirit. By European standards it was cumbrous and inefficient; some of its defects were exposed in the early days of the war with Nepal. But it was more than a match for anything that could be brought against it. Of other powers in the region, only the Russians, could they have moved so far in force, might have made short work of it.

The determination of policy

The administration of British India thus established was impressive though ponderous. But it was essentially static; it was a repair of the machinery of government without any decision about its direction. Such a situation in a subcontinent could not be viable for long.

In the early 19th century a great debate went on in Britain about the nature of the government in India. The company wanted India to be regarded as a field for British commercial exploitation, with the company holding the administrative whip with one hand and exploiting with the other. This pleased no one but the company itself. As an extension of this, the new regime could be regarded as a law-and-order or police state, holding the ring while British merchants in general traded profitably. But this was assailed from several quarters. There was the Whig demand, first voiced by Edmund Burke in his campaign against Warren Hastings,

that the Indian government must be responsible for the welfare of the governed. This was reinforced by Evangelicals in England, both Anglican and Baptist, who added the rider that, as the ruler, Britain was responsible for India's spiritual and moral welfare as well. The Evangelicals were a rising force, influential in the British "establishment." Their remedy for India, as a preparation for conversion, was English education. They were reinforced in this by the rising group of freethinking utilitarians—followers of Jeremy Bentham and John Stuart Mill—who were influential in the company's service, who wished to use India as a laboratory for their theories, and who thought Indian society could be transformed by legislation. Finally, there were radical rationalists who had borrowed the doctrine of human rights from France and wished to introduce them into India, and on the practical side there was a body of British merchants and manufacturers who saw in India both a market and a profitable theatre of activity and who chafed at the restraints of the East India Company's monopoly.

Some of these influences seeped into the Tory ascendancy, which lasted until 1830. In 1813 the East India Company lost its monopoly of trade with India and was compelled to allow free entry of missionaries. British India was declared to be British territory, and money was to be set aside annually for the promotion of both Eastern and Western learning. But the real breakthrough came with the governor-generalship of Lord William Bentinck (served 1828–35) and with the Whig government that from 1830 carried the great Reform Bill.

Bentinck was a radical aristocrat. His administrative reforms were in line with utilitarian theory but with deference to local conditions and in harmony with his own military sense of command. In Bengal the collector was made the real head of his district by the addition of civil judgeship to his magistracy; he was also disciplined by the institution of commissioners to superintend him. The judiciary was overhauled with the same eye to a chain of authority.

But it was as a social reformer that Bentinck made an indelible mark on the future of India. He was commissioned by the directors to effect economies in order to show a balanced budget in the approaching charter-renewal discussions. In doing this he incurred much odium, but he was able to take the first steps in Indianizing the higher judicial services. On his arrival Bentinck was confronted with an agitation against suttee, the burning of Hindu widows on the funeral pyres of their husbands. In suppressing the practice, he had to face the reproaches of both Hindus and Europeans on the grounds of religious interference. But he was also fortified by the support of the Hindu reformer Ram Mohun Roy. In thus acting and in

prohibiting child sacrifice on Sagar Island and discouraging infanticide—a widespread practice among the Rajputs—Bentinck established the principle that the general good did not permit violations of the universal moral law, even if done in the name of religion. The same principle applied to the suppression of ritual murder and robbery by gangs of *thagi* (thugs) in central India in the name of the goddess Kali.

Bentinck also substituted English for Persian as the language of record for government and the higher courts, and he declared that government support would be given primarily to the cultivation of Western learning and science through the medium of English. In this he was supported by Thomas Babington (later Lord) Macaulay.

This period saw the British in India committed to promoting the positive welfare of India instead of merely holding a ring for trade and exploitation; to introducing Western knowledge, science, and ideas alongside the Indian with a view to eventual absorption and adoption; and to the promotion of Indian participation in the government with a view to eventual Indian self-government. It was the changeover from the concept of a Mughal successor state—the Company Bahadur—to that of a Westernized self-governing dominion. In the former case, the British were wardens of a stationary society; in the latter, trustees of an evolving one.

A word should be added about the Indian states. Their place in British India was also a subject of the great debate on the future of India. On the whole, the argument for subordinate isolation held, and no great change occurred in their status until after the revolt of 1857 (*see below* The mutiny and great revolt of 1857–59). Out of the discussions, however, came the de facto principle of British paramountcy, which was increasingly assumed though not openly proclaimed. The only important change before 1840 was the takeover of Mysore in 1831 on the ground of misgovernment; it was not annexed, but it was administered on behalf of the raja for the next 50 years.

The completion of dominion and expansion

After the settlement of 1818, the only parts of India beyond British control were a fringe of Himalayan states to the north, the valley and hill tracts of Assam to the east, and a block of territory in the northwest covering the Indus valley, the Punjab, and Kashmir. To the south Ceylon was already occupied by the British, but to the east the Buddhist kingdom of Myanmar (Burma) straddled the Irrawaddy River.

The Himalayan states were Nepal of the Gurkhas, Bhutan, and Sikkim. Nepal and Bhutan remained nominally independent throughout the British period, though both eventually became British protectorates—Nepal in 1815 and Bhutan in 1866. Sikkim came under British protection in 1890; earlier it had ceded the hill station of Darjiling (Darjeeling) to the British. The valley and hill tracts of Assam were taken under protection to save them from attack by Burmans from Myanmar. Beginning in 1836, the Indian tea plant was cultivated, after the failure of Chinese imported ones, and thus commenced the great Indian tea industry.

In the early 19th century the Burmans were in an aggressive mood, having defeated the Thais (1768) and subjected Arakan and hill states on either side of the river valleys. Attacks on British protected territory in 1824 started the First Anglo-Burmese War (1824–26), which, though mismanaged, led to the British annexation of the coastal strips of Arakan and Tenasserim in 1826. The Second Anglo-Burmese War (1852) was caused by disputes between merchants (trading in rice and teak timber) and the Rangoon governor. The governor-general, Lord Dalhousie (served 1848–56), intervened, annexing the maritime province of Pegu with the port of Rangoon (now Yangôn) in a campaign—this time well-managed and economical. Commercial imperialism was the motive for this campaign.

To the northwest, British India was bounded by the Sikh kingdom of Ranjit Singh, who added the Vale of Kashmir and Peshawar to his state in 1819. Beyond was confusion, with the Afghan monarchy in dissolution and its lands parcelled between several chiefs and Sind (Sindh), controlled by a group of emirs, or chiefs. British indifference changed to action in the 1830s, owing to the advance of Russia in Central Asia and to that nation's diplomatic duel with Lord Palmerston about its influence in Turkey. Afghanistan was seen as a point from which Russia could threaten British India or Britain could embarrass Russia. Lord Auckland (served 1836–42) was sent as governor-general, charged with forestalling the Russians, and from this stemmed his Afghan adventure and the First Anglo-Afghan War (1838–42). The method adopted was to restore Shah Shojā', the exiled Afghan king, then living in the Punjab, by ousting the ruler of Kabul, Dūst Muḥammad. Ranjit Singh cooperated in the enterprise but cleverly avoided any military commitment, leaving the British to bear the whole burden. The route of invasion lay through Sind, because of Sikh occupation of the Punjab.

The emirs' treaty of 1832 with the British was brushed aside, and Sind was forced to pay arrears of tribute to Shah Shojā'. At first things went well, with victories and the occupation

of Kabul in 1839. But then it was discovered that Shah Shojā' was too unpopular to rule the country unaided; the British restoring force thus became a foreign occupying army—anathema to the liberty-loving Afghans—and was regularly engaged in putting down sporadic tribal revolts. After two years a general revolt in the autumn of 1841 overwhelmed and virtually annihilated the retreating British garrison. Meanwhile, the Russian menace in eastern Europe had receded. Auckland's successor, Lord Ellenborough (served 1842–44), arranged for a brief reoccupation and sack of Kabul by means of a converging march from Kandahār in the south and Jalālābād in the east and a return through the Khyber Pass. Thus, honour was satisfied, and the fact of defeat was glossed over. Shah Shojā' was shortly thereafter murdered. The episode demonstrated, at a heavy price in terms of money and human suffering, both the ease with which Afghanistan could be overrun by a regular army and the difficulty of holding it. The enterprise, though conceived as an insurance against Russian imperialism, developed into a species of imperialism itself. Economics joined with Afghan spirit to put a limit on British expansion in this direction. (See Anglo-Afghan Wars).

After the Afghans came Sind. There was little to be said for the emirs themselves—a group of related chiefs who had come to power in the late 18th century and had kept the country in poverty and stagnation. A treaty in 1832 threw the Indus River open to commerce except for the passage of armed vessels or military stores; at the same time, the integrity of Sind was recognized. Thus, Auckland's march through Sind was a clear violation of a treaty signed only seven years before. Sore feelings at the turn of events in Afghanistan produced a final breach. On a charge of unfriendly feelings by the emirs during the First Anglo-Afghan War, Karachi, occupied in 1839, was retained. Further demands were then made; the moderate resident James Outram was superseded by the militant general Sir Charles James Napier; and resistance was provoked, to be crushed at the Battle of Miani (1843). Sind was then annexed to the Bombay Presidency; after four years of rough-and-ready rule by Napier, its economy was put in order by Sir Bartle Frere.

There remained the great Sikh state of the Punjab, the single-handed creation of Ranjit Singh. Succeeding to a local chiefship in 1792 at the age of 12, he occupied Lahore in 1799 under a grant from Zamān Shah, the Afghan king. He could thus pose as a legitimate ruler, not only to his own people (the Sikhs) but to the majority of Muslims of the Punjab. From this start he extended his dominions northwestward as far as the Afghan hills and including the Kashmir region and southwestward well beyond Multan, toward the Sindh region. The Treaty of

Amritsar with the British in 1809 barred his expansion southeastward; besides directing Ranjit's expansionism northwestward, it produced an admiration for the disciplined company's troops, who coolly repelled the Sikh Akali suicide squads when they attacked the British at Amritsar. From that time dates the formation of the formidable Sikh army with its 40,000 disciplined infantry, 12,000 cavalry, and powerful artillery—as well as large numbers of foreign mercenary officers. It was generally agreed that the Sikh army compared favorably for efficiency with the company's forces.

Ranjit Singh employed Hindus and Muslims besides Sikhs, but his regime was in fact a Sikh dominion based on tacit Hindu support and Muslim acquiescence. It used most of the revenue to support the army, which made it apparently powerful but retarded development. It was a highly personal system, centered on Ranjit himself. It was thus one that the company would not lightly attack but that had inner weaknesses behind its formidable facade. These weaknesses began to be exposed on the morrow of Ranjit's death in 1839; within six years the state was on the verge of dissolution. Army disbandment or foreign adventure seemed the only way for the Sikhs to deal with this crisis. The former being impossible, at length the Rani Jindan, regent for the boy prince Dalip Singh, the chief minister, and the commander in chief agreed on a move against the British. The frontier was crossed in December 1845, and a sharp and bloody war ended in a British victory at the Battle of Sobraon in February 1846. The British feared to annex outright a region full of former soldiers and wished to retain a buffer state against possible attack from the northwest. By the Treaty of Lahore they took Kashmir and its dependencies, with the fertile Jullundur (now Jalandhar) area, reduced the regular army to 20,000 infantry and 12,000 cavalry, and exacted a sizable cash indemnity. The British then sold Kashmir to the Hindu chief Gulab Singh of Jammu, who had changed sides at precisely the right moment. Thus were sown the seeds of a chronic political problem for the subcontinent. (See Battle of Fīrōz Shah; Sikh Wars.)

Sikh nobles chafed under the conditions of the peace, and two years later a rising at Multan became a national Sikh revolt; the Sikh court was helpless. Another brief and still bloodier war, with the Sikhs this time fighting resolutely, ended with their surrender in March 1849 and the British annexation of the state.

Annexation this time proved viable, perhaps because of the underlying tension between Sikhs and Muslims. The Sikhs may have preferred the British to a Muslim raj. The British

repressed the sirdars, or Sikh leaders, but left the rest of the community and its religion untouched.

Whatever the reason, the Sikhs sided with the British during the 1857 mutiny; the Muslims, however, could not forget their loss of power to the Sikhs. There was little commercial exploitation of the state, and the Sikhs found employment in the army. Lord Dalhousie closely supervised the administration through a like-minded agent, Sir John Lawrence. The pair produced a new model administration, establishing what was known as the Punjab school. It was noted for strong personal leadership, on-the-spot decisions, strong-arm methods, impartiality between the communities, and material development, including irrigation. A canal, a road, or a bridge was the Punjabi official's delight. The cultivator was preferred to the sirdar; the countryman was preferred to the townsman. The Punjab system was strong and efficient, creating prosperity, but it never reconciled the two main confessional communities or welded them into unity.

James Ramsey, 10th earl of Dalhousie

James Ramsey, 10th earl of Dalhousie, detail of an oil painting by Sir John Watson-Gordon, 1847; in the National Portrait Gallery, London.(more)

Lord Dalhousie's reign is often regarded as an exercise in imperialism; in fact it was more an exercise in Westernism. Dalhousie was a man of great drive and strong conviction. In general, he considered Western civilization to be far superior to that of the Indian, and the more of it that could be introduced, the better. Along these lines he pushed Western education—introducing a grant-in-aid system, which later proliferated Indian private colleges—and planned three universities. Socially, he allowed Christian converts to inherit the property of their Hindu families. Materially, he extended irrigation and the telegraph and introduced the railway.

Politically, British administration was preferable to Indian, and it was to be imposed where possible. Externally, this led to annexation, as in the Punjab and in Myanmar, rather than to the control of foreign relations or to a British-superintended native regime. Internally, it led to the annexation of Indian states on the ground of misgovernment or the doctrine of lapse. The leading case of misgovernment was the disorderly but prosperous Muslim state of Avadh—one of the oldest allies of the British. The doctrine of lapse concerned Hindu states where

rulers had no direct natural heirs. Hindu law allowed adoption to meet these cases, but Dalhousie declared that such must be approved by the supreme government; otherwise there was “lapse” to the paramount power, which meant the imposition of the usual British administration. The three principal cases were Satara in 1848 (the descendants of the Maratha king Shivaji), Jhansi (1853), and the large Maratha state of Nagpur (1854). Finally, Dalhousie abolished the titular sovereignities of the Carnatic and Tanjore and declined to continue the former *peshwa*’s pension to his adopted son.

The first century of British influence

The onset of British influence in India differed both in manner and in kind from that of other historical invasions. The British came neither as migrating hordes seeking new homes nor, originally, as armies seeking plunder or empire. They had no missionary zeal. Yet eventually they did more to transform India than did any previous ruling power. This apparent paradox requires some explanation.

Political effects

At first the British were only one group of foreign traders among several, fortunate to find in the Mughals a firm government ready to foster trade. Their entry into politics was gradual, first as allies of country powers, then as their virtual directors, and only finally as masters. At each step they were assisted by local powers who preferred British influence to that of their neighbours. It was mainly in the 20 years from 1798 to 1818 that they were consciously imperialistic and only thereafter that they treated India as a conquered rather than an acquired country. The effect of this was to replace the defunct Mughal regime and the abortive Maratha successor empire with a veiled but very real hegemony.

Indians were accustomed to the idea of political unity and overlordship. They admired the British for being more successful than themselves, while reprobating many of the British habits and doctrines. But the old ruling classes showed little sign of adopting British institutions; after 1818 they withdrew within themselves, nursing their memories rather than feeding their hopes. The Indian regimes of 1857 all assumed a traditional form. The one department in which Western influence was effective was the military. From the time of Mir Qasim in Bengal (1760–63), Indian princes began to train troops in the European manner and to form parks of artillery. Some of these bodies, culminating in Ranjit Singh’s Sikh army, attained a high degree of efficiency. Their problem was maintenance, for most princes lacked the necessary resources to pay their men and officers regularly and maintain their arms. Indian opinion, in general, saw the British as the latest holders of the traditional paramount

power. There was no novelty in the fact that there were foreign personnel within the government, for this had been a Mughal practice too. What was new was the artificial division between British India and Indian-governed India, with little contact between the two. The Mughals had practiced partnership for a century; the Turks and Afghans, subordinate cooperation; but the British, it seemed, wished to forget the Indian leaders altogether.

Economic effects

Things were quite different in the economic field. Up to 1750 the effect of the East India Company's operations was marginal. Production of cotton and silk goods, indigo, saltpetre, and, later, opium was stimulated in particular areas such as Bengal, Gujarat, and Malwa, with some gain to the middlemen but no sign of any general rise in living standards. India was then, as now, mainly agricultural, and its industries, though significant, were marginal to its whole economy. The latter changed, however, with the acquisition of Bengal. The bias in favor of British merchants diverted trade from their Indian counterparts, though some of the profit went back to the British merchants' Indian agents. The extravagant present giving, a large abuse of a traditional system, diverted much money to Britain. Still more, the pressure on the zamindars for more revenue, and theirs in turn on the cultivators, further diminished the Bengali income. To this must be added the operation of monopolies, public and private. When the Bengal famine of 1770 occurred, a famine reckoned to have swept away one-third of the population, little attempt at relief was made, though it would have been practicable given Bengal's network of waterways. The cruel severity with which the revenue was still collected at this time delayed recovery for many years. Economic recovery was further delayed by Warren Hastings's makeshift revenue arrangements; and much dislocation was caused in the social structure, with its own effect on economic life.

Cornwallis's permanent settlement (1793), after an initial period of dislocation, gave relief and security to the zamindars, who benefited by the rise in prices and the cultivation of wastelands; the cultivators themselves, now the zamindars' tenants-at-will, remained as poor as before. Apart from the zamindars, the principal class to benefit from the British was that of the entrepreneurs of Calcutta, who acted as agents and bankers to the British. Thus, both Clive's and Hastings's business managers became wealthy landowners. In Madras little could be done until the burden of the Carnatic nawab's debts was removed and the country was settled after the Cornwallis-Wellesley annexations (1792–99). There, economic settlement

turned on the working of the *ryotwari* revenue system; regularity of collection was offset by severity of assessment, and the same may be said of both western and northern India.

After about 1800 there was a new factor: machine-made cotton goods from Britain. These steadily undermined the Indian handicraft industries until all but the highest and coarsest grades of cloth were squeezed out. The district of Dacca (now Dhaka, Bangladesh) was especially illustrative of this process. Beginning in 1836, tea was grown in Assam and coffee was cultivated in the south. Coal mining was begun, but its growth, with that of the jute and cotton machine industries, had to wait for the second half of the century. The average Indian was far more secure than before (except for famine) but generally was not much more prosperous. India drifted toward the status of a colonial economy, a supplier of raw materials, a market for manufactured articles, to the profit of the foreigner.

Social effects

The social effects of this period were considerable. They took mainly the form of the displacement of classes. As already noted, there was a general disturbance in Bengal caused by the permanent settlement, whereby the lesser landholders were reduced to the condition of tenants-at-will. But there was also disturbance among the zamindars. The first upset followed the famine of 1770, when the cultivators were often too few for the revenue demand to be met, and “farming” the revenue—that is, selling the right of taxation to a second party—for some time took the place of a revenue settlement. The second upset came with the permanent settlement of 1793, when the revenue figure fixed was in many cases too high for the existing cultivation. By 1820 it was calculated that more than one-third of the estates had changed hands through sale for arrears of land tax. The purchasers were in the main the Calcutta entrepreneurs newly enriched by their contacts with the British. Many were absentees. The social link between landholder and cultivator had been broken, cash nexus replacing traditional rights.

In Calcutta itself, these same rentiers formed a fashionable and intellectual society from which came the first significant cultural contacts with the West. It was composed of the prosperous section of the three upper Bengali castes, with such others as gained acceptance by their wealth or education. Collectively, this literate class of gentry was known as the *bhadralok* (“respectable people”).

In the north there was less dislocation, though the landholders, many of whom had no title but the sword, tended to be repressed. There was a general recognition of rights and broadly of

their protection. The chief sufferers were ruling families, who lost power, and the official aristocracy, who lost office. In the south, chiefs whom Sir Thomas Munro dispossessed were largely in the class of robber barons.

In western India a balance between aristocratic and cultivating rights was perhaps better-maintained than elsewhere, and relations were more harmonious. Of significance was the rapid development of Bombay from the time it came to possess a large hinterland in 1818. With it came the rise of the enterprising Parsi community (Zoroastrians of Persian heritage).

In general, apart from Bengal, there was some repression of the old aristocracy, a regulation and preservation of lesser landholders' rights, and an encouragement of the commercial classes. Communities did not break up, but their fortunes rose and fell with their ability to adjust to changing conditions.

Cultural effects

The cultural effects of British influence during the century from 1757 to 1857, though less spectacular, were in the long run farther-reaching. At first there was little enough. But as the Europeans grew in political importance, Indians became interested in the causes of the growth, so that the first examples of cultural influence were in the military field. Some Europeans, in their turn, early interested themselves in Indian culture, as evident from the foundation of the Asiatic Society of Bengal in 1784 by Sir William Jones and from the translation of Sanskrit works such as the *Bhagavadgita* and Kalidasa's Abhijnanashakuntala and of Persian works such as the *Ā'in-e Akbarī* by Abū al-Faḍl 'Allāmī.

As the British completed their supremacy, four Indian attitudes could be discerned. There were Indians who rejected all things Western, retiring to their houses and estates to dream of the past. There were those who were clients and employees of the British, as they had been of the Mughals and the Turks before them, without any intention of giving up their traditional culture. But there were also those who, while remaining good Hindus or Muslims, began to study Western ways and thought for careerist purposes. And there was, finally, a small group who sought to study the ideas and spirit of the West with a view to incorporating in their own society anything that seemed desirable.

The agents of Western influence were government officials, who carried Western ideas such as utilitarianism and equality before the law and Western concepts of property into their

administration of revenue and the law, and missionaries, who combined hostility to Hinduism and Islam with the presentation of a new ethic—the practice of good works and the promotion of English education as preliminaries for conversion. It was at this point that the Indian careerist and inquirer met the new Western stream of thought. The English language was popular because it opened paths to employment and influence; orthodox Hindus patronized the English schools and promoted the Hindu College (now Presidency College) in Calcutta (1816). This college, along with Alexander Duff's Scottish Church College, also in Calcutta, became a center of Western influence and saw the rise of the Young Bengal movement, the Westernizing zeal of which denied the Hindu religion itself.

But between the complete Westernizers and the careerists was a third group, which found a leader of genius in Ram Mohun Roy. Making a moderate fortune in Calcutta finance, which he invested in zamindaris, from 1815 Roy advocated reforms in Hindu society and the acceptance of some features of Western thought. He denounced suttee (the burning of widows) and championed the cause of the Indian widow and wife. He advocated English education as a means of bringing Western knowledge to India. He denounced idolatry and preached monotheism. With his Precepts of Jesus, he both introduced the Christian ethic into Hindu society and drew the sting of missionary attacks. He finally founded a reforming Hindu body, the Brahmo Samaj (“Society of Brahma”), in 1828. Both careerists and Roy's followers cooperated in the spread of English education, but it was the latter who began the movement of borrowing from the West without any feeling of disloyalty to their past.

By the year 1857 the British had established complete political control of the Indian subcontinent, which they ruled directly or through subordinate princes. They had established an authoritarian system of government, making use of Mughal practice and tradition and supported by an efficient civil service and a relatively efficient army. Princely India remained, for the most part, in a stagnant traditionalism. In British India land settlements had produced much social dislocation while purporting to respect traditional rights and to learn from the past; in particular, the Western concept of property in land had led to much social displacement. The Westernized legal system was efficient in suppressing crime but dilatory in upholding rights and incomprehensible for most natives in its working. Social evils like suttee and infanticide and practices such as those of the thugs had been suppressed or discouraged, but Hinduism and Islam were still by and large respected. The revolutionary aspect of the British presence was the decision, taken about the time of the tenure of Lord

William Bentinck as governor-general, to introduce Western knowledge and science through the medium of the English language. Western inventions like the telegraph, modern irrigation, railways, and steamships followed, throwing India open to the industrial mechanistic and democratic world of the developing West. Along with education came the Christian missionary intrusion, with its moral and ideological challenge. This, in its turn, provoked a creative response from Ram Mohun Roy's circle, who were laying the foundations of a modernized Hinduism, which was later to find political expression in the Indian National Congress.

The mutiny and great revolt of 1857–59

When soldiers of the Bengal army mutinied in Meerut on May 10, 1857, tension had been growing for some time. The immediate cause of military disaffection was the deployment of the new breech-loading Enfield rifle, the cartridge of which was purportedly greased with pork and beef fat. When Muslim and Hindu troops learned that the tip of the Enfield cartridge had to be bitten off to prepare it for firing, a number of troops refused, for religious reasons, to accept the ammunition. These recalcitrant troops were placed in irons, but their comrades soon came to their rescue. They shot the British officers and made for Delhi, 40 miles (65 km) distant, where there were no British troops. The Indian garrison at Delhi joined them, and by the next nightfall they had secured the city and Mughal fort, proclaiming the aged titular Mughal emperor, Bahādur Shah II, as their leader. There at a stroke was an army, a cause, and a national leader—the only Muslim who appealed to both Hindus and Muslims.

Nature and causes of the rebellion

This movement became much more than a military mutiny. There has been much controversy over its nature and causes. The British military commander Sir James Outram thought it was a Muslim conspiracy, exploiting Hindu grievances. Or it might have been an aristocratic plot, set off too soon by the Meerut outbreak. But the only evidence for either of these was the circulation from village to village of chapatis, or cakes of unleavened bread, a practice that, though it also occurred on other occasions, was known to have taken place at any time of unrest. The lack of planning after the outbreak rules out these two explanations, while the degree of popular support argues more than a purely military outbreak.

Nationalist historians have seen in it the first Indian war of independence. In fact, it was rather the last effort of traditional India. It began on a point of caste pollution; its leaders were traditionalists who looked to reviving the past, while the small new Westernized class actively supported the British. And the leaders were not united, because they sought to revive

former Hindu and Muslim regimes, which in their heyday had bitterly clashed. But something important was required to provoke so many to seize the opportunity of a military uprising to stage a war of independence.

The military cause was both particular and general. The particular reason, the greased cartridges for the Enfield rifles, was a mistake rectified as soon as it was discovered; but the fact that explanations and reissues could not quell the soldiers' suspicions suggests that the troops were already disturbed by other causes. The Bengal army of some 130,000 Indian troops may have contained as many as 40,000 Brahmans as well as many Rajputs. The British had accentuated caste consciousness by careful regulations, had allowed discipline to grow lax, and had failed to maintain understanding between British officers and their men. In addition, the General Service Enlistment Act of 1856 required recruits to serve overseas if ordered, a challenge to the castes who composed so much of the Bengal army. To these points may be added the fact that the British garrison in Bengal had been reduced at this time to 23,000 men because of troop withdrawals for the Crimean and Persian wars. (See Barrackpore Mutiny.)

The general factors that turned a military mutiny into a popular revolt can be comprehensively described under the heading of political, economic, social, and cultural Westernization. Politically, many princes of India had retired into seclusion after their final defeat in 1818. But the wars against the Afghans and the Sikhs and then the annexations of Dalhousie alarmed and outraged them. The Muslims had lost the large state of Avadh; the Marathas had lost Nagpur, Satara, and Jhansi. Further, the British were becoming increasingly hostile toward traditional survivals and contemptuous of most things Indian. There was therefore both resentment and unease among the old governing class, fanned in Delhi by the British decision to end the Mughal imperial title on Bahādur Shah's death.

Economically and socially, there had been much dislocation in the landholding class all over northern and western India as a result of British land-revenue settlements, setting group against group. There was thus a suppressed tension in the countryside, ready to break out whenever governmental pressure might be reduced.

Then came the Western innovations of the now overconfident British. Their educational policy was a Westernizing one, with English instead of Persian as the official language; the old elites, schooled in the traditional pattern, felt themselves slighted. Western inventions

such as the telegraph and railways aroused the prejudice of a conservative society (though Indians crowded the trains when they had them). More disturbing to traditional sensibilities were the interventions, in the name of humanity, in the realm of Hindu custom—e.g., the prohibition of suttee, the campaign against infanticide, the law legalizing remarriage of Hindu widows. Finally, there was the activity of Christian missionaries, by that time widespread. Government was ostentatiously neutral, but Hindu society was inclined to regard the missionaries as eroding Hindu society without openly interfering. In sum, this combination of factors produced, besides the normal tensions endemic in India, an uneasy, fearful, suspicious, and resentful frame of mind and a wind of unrest ready to fan the flame of any actual physical outbreak.

The revolt and its aftermath

The dramatic capture of Delhi turned mutiny into full-scale revolt. The whole episode falls into three periods: first came the summer of 1857, when the British, without reinforcements from home, fought with their backs to the wall; the second concerned the operations for the relief of Lucknow in the autumn; and the third was the successful campaign of Sir Colin Campbell (later Baron Clyde) and Sir Hugh Henry Rose (later Baron Strathnairn of Strathnairn and Jhansi) in the first half of 1858. Mopping-up operations followed, lasting until the British capture of rebel leader Tantia Topi in April 1859.

From Delhi the revolt spread in June to Kanpur (Cawnpore) and Lucknow. The surrender of Kanpur, after a relatively brief siege, was followed by a massacre of virtually all British citizens and loyal Indian soldiers at Kanpur. The Lucknow garrison held out in the residency from July 1, in spite of the death of Sir Henry Lawrence on July 4. The campaign then settled down to British attempts to take Delhi and relieve Lucknow. In spite of their apparently desperate situation, the British possessed long-term advantages: they could and did receive reinforcements from Britain; they had, thanks to the resolution of Sir John Lawrence, a firm base in the Punjab, and they had another base in Bengal, where the people were quiet; they had virtually no anxiety in the south and only a little in the west; and they had an immense belief in themselves and their civilization, which gave resolution to their initial desperation. The mutineers, on the other hand, lacked good leadership until nearly the end, and they had no confidence in themselves and suffered the guilt feelings of rebels without a cause, making them frantic and fearful by turns.

In the Punjab were some 10,000 British troops, which made it possible to disarm the Indian regiments; and the recently defeated Sikhs were so hostile to the Muslims that they supported the British against the Mughal restoration in Delhi. A small British army was improvised, which held the ridge before Delhi against greatly superior forces until Sir John Lawrence was able to send a siege train under John Nicholson. With this, and the aid of rebel dissensions, Delhi was stormed and captured by the British on September 20, while the emperor Bahādur Shah surrendered on promise of his life.

Down-country operations centered on the relief of Lucknow. Setting out from Allahabad, Sir Henry Havelock fought through Kanpur to the Lucknow residency on September 25, where he was besieged in turn. But the back of the rebellion had been broken and time gained for reinforcements to restore British superiority. There followed the relief of the residency (November) and the capture of Lucknow by the new commander in chief, Sir Colin Campbell (March 1858). By a campaign in Avadh and Rohilkhand, Campbell cleared the countryside.

The next phase was the central Indian campaign of Sir Hugh Rose. He first defeated the Gwalior contingent and then, when the rebels Tantia Topi and Rani Lakshmi Bai of Jhansi had seized Gwalior, broke up their forces in two more battles. The rani found a soldier's death, and Tantia Topi became a fugitive. With the British recovery of Gwalior (June 20, 1858), the revolt was virtually over.

Lord Canning

Lord Canning, chalk portrait by George Richmond, 1851; in the National Portrait Gallery, London.(more)

The restoration of peace was hindered by British cries for vengeance, often leading to indiscriminate reprisals. The treatment of the aged Bahādur Shah, who was sent into exile, was a disgrace to a civilized country; also, the whole population of Delhi was driven out into the open, and thousands were killed after perfunctory trials or no trials at all. Order was restored by the firmness of Charles John Canning (later Earl Canning), first viceroy of India (governed 1858–62), whose title of “Clemency” was given in derision by angry British merchants in Calcutta, and of Sir John Lawrence in the Punjab. Ferocity led to grave excesses on both sides, distinguishing this war in horror from other wars of the 19th century.

Measures of prevention of future crises naturally began with the army, which was completely reorganized. The ratio of British to Indian troops was fixed at roughly 1:2 instead of 1:5—one British and two Indian battalions were formed into brigades so that no sizable station should be without British troops. The effective Indian artillery, except for a few mountain batteries, was abolished, while the Brahmans and Rajputs of Avadh were reduced in favor of other groups. The officers continued to be British, but they were more closely linked with their men. The army became an efficient professional body, drawn largely from the northwest and aloof from the national life.

Doctrine of lapse

in Indian history, formula devised by Lord Dalhousie, governor-general of India (1848–56), to deal with questions of succession to Hindu Indian states. It was a corollary to the doctrine of paramountcy, by which Great Britain, as the ruling power of the Indian subcontinent, claimed the superintendence of the subordinate Indian states and so also the regulation of their succession.

According to Hindu law, an individual or a ruler without natural heirs could adopt a person who would then have all the personal and political rights of a son. Dalhousie asserted the paramount power's right of approving such adoptions and of acting at discretion in their absence in the case of dependent states. In practice this meant the rejection of last-minute adoptions and British annexation of states without a direct natural or adopted heir, because Dalhousie believed that Western rule was preferable to Eastern and to be enforced where possible. Annexation in the absence of a natural or adopted heir was enforced in the cases of Satara (1848), Jaitpur and Sambalpur (1849), Baghat (1850), Chota Udaipur (1852), Jhansi (1853), and Nagpur (1854). Though the scope of the doctrine was limited to dependent Hindu states, these annexations aroused much alarm and resentment among the Indian princes and the old aristocracy who served them. They have generally been regarded as having contributed to the discontent that was a factor in the outbreak (1857) of the Indian Mutiny and the widespread revolt that followed.

James Andrew Broun Ramsay, marquess and 10th earl of Dalhousie (born April 22, 1812, Dalhousie Castle, Midlothian, Scot.—died Dec. 19, 1860, Dalhousie Castle) was a British governor-general of India from 1847 to 1856, who is accounted the creator both of the map of modern India, through his conquests and annexations of independent provinces, and of the centralized Indian state. So radical were Dalhousie's changes and so widespread the resentment they caused that his policies were frequently held responsible for the Indian Mutiny in 1857, one year after his retirement.

Early career

Dalhousie was the third son of George Ramsay, the 9th Earl of Dalhousie. His family had traditions of military and public service but, by the standards of the day, had not accumulated great wealth, and, consequently, Dalhousie was often troubled by financial worries. Small in stature, he also suffered from a number of physical infirmities. Throughout his life he derived energy and satisfaction from the thought that he was achieving public success in spite of private handicaps.

After an undistinguished career as an undergraduate at Christ Church, Oxford, he married Lady Susan Hay in 1836 and entered Parliament the following year. From 1843 he served as vice president, and from 1845 as president, of the Board of Trade in the Tory (conservative)

ministry of Sir Robert Peel. In that office he handled a number of railroad problems and gained a reputation for administrative efficiency. He lost his post when Peel resigned in 1846. In the following year he accepted the new Whig ministry's offer of the governor-generalship of India, becoming the youngest man ever appointed to that post.

Arrival in India.

When Dalhousie arrived in India in January 1848, the country seemed peaceful. Only two years earlier, however, the army of the Punjab, an independent state founded by the religious and military sect of the Sikhs, had precipitated a war that the British had won only with great difficulty. The discipline and economy enforced by the new Sikh regime, sponsored by the British, aroused discontent, and in April 1848 a local rebellion broke out at Multān. This was the first serious problem faced by Dalhousie. Local officers urged immediate action, but he delayed, and Sikh disaffection spread throughout the Punjab. In November 1848 Dalhousie dispatched British troops, and, after several British victories, the Punjab was annexed in 1849.

Dalhousie's critics maintained that he had allowed a local rebellion to grow into a national uprising so that he could annex the Punjab. But the commander in chief of the British army had warned him against precipitate action. Certainly, the steps Dalhousie eventually took were somewhat irregular; the uprising at Multān had been directed not against the British but against policies of the Sikh government. In any event, he was created marquess for his efforts.

Second Burmese War.

In 1852 commercial disputes in Rangoon (now Yangon) prompted new hostilities between the British and the Burmese, a conflict that became the Second Burmese War. It was settled within the year with little loss of life and with the British annexation of Rangoon and the rest of Pegu province. Dalhousie was again criticized for aggressive diplomacy, but Britain profited from the installation of a new Burmese government that was less aggressive abroad and less oppressive at home. Another advantage was that Rangoon, Britain's most valuable acquisition from the war, became one of the biggest ports in Asia.

Policy of "lapse" and annexation.

Dalhousie also took advantage of every opportunity to acquire territory by peaceful means. The East India Company, which was no longer an independent corporation but largely under the control of the British government, was rapidly becoming the predominant power in India. It had concluded alliances with Indian rulers, promising to support them and their heirs in return for various concessions, including the right to keep a British resident and a military force within their states. Although this type of agreement gave the British an effective influence over general policy, Dalhousie sought to acquire even more power. It was customary for a ruler without a natural heir to ask the British government whether he could adopt a son to succeed him. Dalhousie concluded that if such permission were refused, the state would "lapse" and thereby become part of the British possessions. On these grounds, Sātāra was annexed in 1848 and Jhānsi and Nāgpur in 1854. Dalhousie maintained that there was a difference in principle between the right to inherit private property and the right to govern, but his main argument was his own belief in the benefits of British rule.

His annexation of Oudh in 1856, however, entailed grave political danger. Here there was no question of lack of heirs; the nawab (ruler) was simply accused of misgovernment, and the state was annexed against his will. The transfer of power over the nawab's protests offended the Muslim elite. More dangerous was the effect on the British army's Indian troops, many of

whom came from Oudh, where they had occupied a privileged position before its annexation. Under the British government, however, they were treated as equals with the rest of the population, which represented a loss of prestige. Moreover, after Dalhousie's departure in 1856, the landed aristocracy of Oudh lost many of its privileges. In these various ways, the annexation of Oudh contributed to the mutiny and rebellion of the following year.

Westernization of India.

Dalhousie's energy extended beyond the mere acquisition of territories. His greatest achievement was the molding of these provinces into a modern centralized state. His confidence in Western institutions and his ability as an administrator immediately led him to attend to the development of a communication and transportation system. He gave much attention to the planning of the first railways. Drawing on the knowledge he had acquired in London at the Board of Trade, he laid the foundation of future railway development, outlining the basic concept of trunk and branch lines and making provisions to safeguard both the railway workers and the property owners affected by railway construction. He planned and instituted a network of electric telegraph lines, promoted the completion of the Grand Trunk Road between Calcutta and Delhi and its extension into the Punjab, and instituted a centralized postal system, based on a low uniform rate paid in advance by the purchase of stamps, thus replacing a variety of methods characterized by uncertainty of delivery and high rates. His social reforms included strong support for the suppression of female infanticide in the Punjab and in the northwest generally and the suppression of human sacrifice among the hill tribes of Orissa. Besides encouraging the use of the vernacular languages in schools, he gave particular encouragement to the education of girls.

He left India in 1856, and the controversies aroused by his policy of annexation, which were widely—and justly—criticized as contributory factors to the mutiny and rebellion of 1857, overshadowed his achievements in modernization. Exhausted by his years of overwork in India, he died in 1860. His marquessate became extinct.

Lord Dalhousie, who served as the Governor-General of India from 1848 to 1856, is most famously associated with the Doctrine of Lapse. This doctrine was a policy of annexation used by the British East India Company to expand its territory in India. Here are the key aspects and implications of the Doctrine of Lapse:

Doctrine of Lapse: Key Features

1. Policy Overview:

- The Doctrine of Lapse stated that any princely state or territory under the suzerainty of the British East India Company would automatically be annexed if the ruler died without a legitimate male heir. In such cases, the state would "lapse" into British control.

2. Rationale:

- Dalhousie justified the policy on the grounds of administrative efficiency and the need to maintain law and order. He argued that the annexation of such states would lead to better governance and the modernization of India.

3. Conditions:

- The doctrine was applied strictly in cases where the local ruler had not been recognized as having the right to adopt an heir. Without a direct male heir, the British saw an opportunity to annex the state.

Notable Annexations

1. **Satara (1848):**
 - The first significant application of the Doctrine of Lapse, where the kingdom of Satara was annexed after the death of its ruler, who left no direct male heir.
2. **Jaitpur and Sambalpur (1849):**
 - These states were annexed under similar circumstances, following the death of their rulers without direct male heirs.
3. **Baghat (1850) and Udaipur (Chhattisgarh) (1852):**
 - These smaller states were also brought under British control through the doctrine.
4. **Jhansi (1853):**
 - One of the most famous cases, Jhansi was annexed after the death of Raja Gangadhar Rao. His widow, Rani Lakshmibai, opposed the annexation, leading to significant resistance during the Indian Rebellion of 1857.
5. **Nagpur (1854):**
 - A large and strategically important state in central India, Nagpur was annexed after the death of its ruler without a male heir.

Implications of the Doctrine of Lapse

1. **Expansion of British Territory:**
 - The doctrine allowed the British to annex several key states, significantly expanding their control over the Indian subcontinent.
2. **Local Discontent:**
 - The annexations led to widespread resentment among the Indian rulers and the local populace. Many viewed the policy as unjust and a direct threat to their traditional rights and sovereignty.
3. **Contributory Factor to the Revolt of 1857:**
 - The discontent generated by the Doctrine of Lapse and other annexations contributed to the underlying causes of the Indian Rebellion of 1857. Leaders like Rani Lakshmibai of Jhansi became prominent figures in the revolt, symbolizing resistance against British rule.
4. **End of the Doctrine:**
 - After the Revolt of 1857, the British Crown took direct control of India from the East India Company. The policy of annexation through the Doctrine of Lapse was abandoned as part of broader efforts to stabilize and consolidate British rule in India.

Legacy

Lord Dalhousie's tenure and the Doctrine of Lapse had a lasting impact on British-Indian relations. While it facilitated the expansion of British territory and control, it also sowed the seeds of widespread discontent and resistance among Indian rulers and the general populace. The policy is often cited as a significant factor leading up to the first major challenge to British rule in India, the Revolt of 1857.

LORD WILLIAM BENTINCK (1828-1835)

Introduction

William Bentinck, the third Duke of Portland's son, was born on September 14, 1774, in Buckinghamshire, England. His father served as the British Prime Minister. He was appointed the Governor of Madras in 1803. From 1828 until 1835, he was the Governor-General of India. During his time as Governor-General of British India, he is credited with improvements in the legal, social, and educational sectors.

Significant Reforms During William Bentinck Tenure

He is credited with major social and educational reforms in India, including the elimination of sati, the ban on women viewing cremations on Varanasi's ghats, the eradication of female infanticide, and the outlawing of human sacrifice.

Financial Reforms

The Company was in a precarious financial situation and the exchequer was in disorder when Bentinck was appointed Governor-General in 1828. There was a million The Governor-General was compelled to take decisive action to help the financial situation. He took the subsequent actions to achieve this: Both the number of officers on the payroll and their salaries and benefits were decreased.

The military department's twin battalion structure was eliminated by him. (A Batta was a stipend provided to service members.)

Administrative Reforms

Bentinck's administrative changes show his political sagacity and sophistication.

He eliminated Cornwallis's provincial courts of appeal in the judicial branch, which were largely to blame for the enormous case backlog.

Another wise Bentinck initiative was the substitution of English for Persian in the higher courts and the use of regional tongues in the lower courts.

Social Reforms

His tenure focussed on the abolition of a wide range of social evils practised in contemporary India.

On December 4, 1829, Regulation XVII was issued, prohibiting the practice of sati. The legal system declared people who practised sati to be complicit in the crime and subject to punishment.

The Regulation was expanded to include the Madras and Bombay Presidency in 1830.

They were a family of thieves, as depicted in *Suppression of thugs* (1930). They travelled in

small groups of 50 to 100 people, pretending to be business gangs or pilgrims, and they would rob and strangle innocent tourists.

Educational Reforms

The implementation of English education was a defining aspect of Lord Willaim Bentinck's presidency.

The government of India declared English to be the official and literary language in a resolution that was adopted in 1835.

Evaluation Of William Bentinck Tenure

The seven-year span was a turning point in India's administrative changes. It began a process by which the Indian populace, which is enraged by abrupt changes, was forced to obey the British emperor and government gradually. This time period can be categorised as "benevolent administrators" in part.

Coorg War 1834: The only territory Lord William Bentinck annexed was the Coorg. A brief but terrible war broke out between the Raja of Coorg and the British East India Company in 1834.

Annexation of Mysore(1831): In Mysore, there was a civil uprising in the late 1820s. This was caused by either the Maharaja's bad governance and heavy taxation or the financial exploitation of British residents. These events led to the British taking full control of Mysore in 1831.

Cachar and Jaintia (1834): The principality of Cachar in the North East Frontier was given British protection by the Treaty of Yandabo, which was signed at the conclusion of the first Burmese War. The Raja of this tiny state was killed in 1832, but he didn't leave behind a

He is credited with implementing social, judicial, and educational changes while serving as the Governor-General of British India.

The Vellore Mutiny broke out in response to his edict barring Indian troops from wearing their customary dress while he served as governor of Madras.

He was mostly responsible for saving the failing East India Company. He was effective in setting up a reliable financial management system for the business, however, this was done in conjunction with a Westernisation policy.

successor. Jaintia was one of the areas occupied by the British following the first Anglo-Burmese War. Bentinck annexed this kingdom at the people's request.

Punjab (Treaty of Perpetual Friendship): William Bentinck, who sensed a threat from Russian invasion, was keen to build cordial ties with both Maharaja Ranjit Singh, the ruler of Punjab, and the Amirs of Sind. Indus Navigation Treaty was concluded when the Governor-General was successful in gaining Ranjit Singh's goodwill.

Conclusion

His social reforms eliminated ingrained wrongs in Hindu society, including the banning of child sacrifice and the elimination of Sati. Encouragement can be found in the fact that "Bentinck acted where others had talked." He changed the country's economy, gave Indians access to judicial positions, and outlawed thuggee—the ritual killing of robber gang members—and suttee—the burning of widows. The changes made under his administration were significant in developing a type of governance that was far more interventionist than earlier ones and involved the westernisation of Indian society and culture.

Reforms Made by Lord William Bentick

The appointment of Lord William Bentick as the Governor-General of India marked the dawn of a new era in the annals of British rule in India. He continued as Governor-General from 1828 to 1835 in India.

Bentick was a man of peace, discipline and of economy. He was a liberal reformist who took active part in the reform movement of England.

He had a firm faith in the programme of peace retrenchment and reform. Macauley in the eulogistic language describes him, "Bentick infused into oriental Despotism the spirit of British freedom; who never forgot that the end of the government is the welfare of the governed."

Administrative Reforms:

Lord Bentick was a great reformer. He was the first Governor-General who was sympathetic towards the Indian people and also tried to remove difficulties of the Indians. After Cornwallis it was Governor-General Lord William Bentick who paid attention to any new administrative reforms and introduced some changes in the sphere of administration.

He started the practice of appointing Indians in Company's service. Cornwallis had stopped appointing Indians in administrative service as he had low opinion about the character, ability and integrity of the Indian people. So he sought to reserve all higher posts for the Europeans.

It offended the Indians very much. But Bentick gave up that policy in order to establish

closer contact between the ruler and the ruled. Therefore, Bentick appointed Indians in government service. Now the educated Indians were also appointed to the post of Deputy Magistrate and Deputy Collector. Thus Bentick took a remarkable step towards the Indianization of the government service.

Bentick had introduced land revenue settlement in the North Western province. Taking ten years to complete, its principle was that of a semi-permanent settlement for thirty years which would both encourage the tenants to make improvements and enable the state to get some of the benefits.

After a proper survey of the land the settlement was made with large land holders, cultivators or village communities according to the locality. Due to this arrangement the revenue of the state increased.

The Presidency of Bengal was divided into twenty divisions. A commissioner was appointed over each division. The Commissioner also decided the cases which were previously dealt by the judges of the courts of appeal and circuit in the provinces. They had also the right to supervise the working of the District Magistrates and Judges.

Judicial Reforms:

The Provincial Courts of appeal and circuit had been largely responsible for the huge arrears of cases. The judicial procedure followed in these courts often resulted in delays and uncertainties. Bentick abolished these courts. He established different grades of courts to avoid delay in the trial of cases. He established a Supreme Court in Agra. The civil and criminal appeals were heard in this court.

In 1829 magistrates were empowered to award punishment up to two years. A separate Sadar Diwani Adalat and Sadr Nizamat Adalat were set up at Allahabad for the convenience of the people of Delhi and Upper Provinces. Bentick also reduced the severity of the punishment. The system of beating a man with whips was abolished by Bentick.

So far, Persian had been the language of the court. Both the public and the Judges were ignorant of Persian. So Bentick ordered the use of vernacular language in place of Persian. In higher courts Persian was replaced by English as the court language. Qualified Indians were appointed as Munsiffs and Sadar Amins.

Financial Reforms:

The Burmese war had depleted the treasury of the company. Due to the reduced income and increase in the expenditure, the company was facing a deficit of about one crore. So Bentick's first duty was to economize. His economies measures were extensive and severe.

Bentick appointed two committees, one Military and one civil to enquire into the

increased expenditure of the company. According to the recommendations of the Committee, Bentick reduced the high salary of the civil Servants. He also reduced the allowances of both the civil and military officials. He made provision for the reduction of bhatta by 50% at all stations within four hundred miles of Calcutta. As a result of this measure a saving of £ 20,000 a year was effected.

During those days opium was produced in Central India and was sent to China from Karachi. Bentick changed the route of the trade from Karachi to Bombay which gave the company a share in the profits in the form of duties.

Public institutions and individuals enjoyed rent free land in Bengal since the acquisition of Diwani. Bentick ordered the collectors to make inquiries into the rights of those who held free grants of land. It was found that in most cases the title deeds were forged.

The Government resumed the management of these rent free lands in Bengal and Bombay. This step of Bentick also increased the revenue of the company. The land revenue settlement of North Western Provinces also yielded more revenue.

Bentick also enhanced the income of the company by appointing Indians in administrative posts. The Indians were paid less salaries in comparison to their European Counterparts. The result of these economic measures was that the deficit of one crore per year was converted into a surplus of 2 crores per year.

Educational Reforms:

Bentick's great achievement was his intellectual reform. Charter Act of 1813 had provided one lac of rupees annually for the revival and promotion of education in India. But this money went on accumulating as no proper arrangement could

Prior to the arrival of Bentick a great controversy was going on regarding the medium of education in the schools and colleges. Was it to be given through the Indian language or through English language? The orientalists led by Heyman Wilson and H.T. Princes expressed their opinion in favour of Sanskrit, Arabic and Persian as the medium of education. The Angliasts led by Sir Charles Trevelyan supported by Indian liberals like Raja Rammohan Ray expressed their views in favour of English Language.

Lord Macauley, the law member of the Council gave a definite shape to the controversy. On his recommendations the decision was taken that the amount which was kept for education should be spent on the education of the Indians and the education be imparted through English medium.

Macauley's proposals were accepted by Bentick and embodied in a resolution of March 7, 1835, which declared that, "His Lordship in council is of opinion that the great object

of the British Government ought to be the promotion of European literature and science among the natives of India and that all the fund appropriated for the purpose of education would be best employed on English education alone.” Schools and colleges were established to provide English education. English language also became the official language and it helped the people of India for exchange of ideas.

Social Reforms:

William Bentinck is famous for his social reforms in Indian. By the abolition of the systems of ‘Sati’ and human sacrifice he freed the society from two of the worst superstitions. By the suppression of the system of Thuggee he freed the people from one of their worst fears. By the end of 1834 Thuggee System was completely stopped.

From some remote past the system of sati or the burning of the widow on the funeral pyre of her husband prevailed in the Hindu Society as a deep rooted superstition. With deep desire to enjoy heaven as Sati many widows died on the funeral pyre of their husbands willingly.

But in some cases they had also to die against their will in order to escape public criticism. On one side there was the fear of death on the other-side there was the fear of the society. At some places the ignorant relatives forced the widows to die in order to uphold their own social prestige.

There were also the shameless motives of greed of collecting valuable ornaments of the widows of rich families. Among various ceremonies rituals and hymns that inhuman act was committed. On observing these evils Bentinck wanted to abolish this system to save the lives of many widows and therefore abolished the system of Sati by the proclamation of a regulation.

Raja Rammohan Ray the great Indian reformer supported this pioneering Venture of Bentinck. He even wants to England to plead in favour of the abolition of the system before the British Government. The next achievement of Bentinck was the abolition of the system of human sacrifice prevailing among hill tribes.

Bentick left India in 1835 AD. He holds the highest rank among all the Governor-Generals in India due to his various reforms. His seven years rule came to be known as an “Age of Reforms”. Dr. Ishwari Prasad writes, “Bentinck’s glories were the glories of peace. His reign stands in sharp contrast to the years that preceded or those that followed it.”

Lord William Bentinck, who served as Governor-General of India from 1828 to 1835, is remembered for his significant and progressive reforms in various aspects of Indian

administration, society, and economy. His tenure is often considered a period of liberal and humanitarian reforms aimed at modernizing India and improving the conditions of its people under British rule. Here are the key reforms introduced by Lord William Bentinck:

Social Reforms

Abolition of Sati (1829):

Sati, the practice of widow immolation, was prevalent in certain parts of India. Bentinck, influenced by social reformers like Raja Ram Mohan Roy, outlawed Sati through Regulation XVII, making it illegal and punishable by the courts.

Suppression of Thuggee (1830):

Thuggee referred to the organized gangs of robbers who strangled and robbed travelers. Bentinck initiated a campaign to suppress these criminal activities, leading to the capture and punishment of many Thugs, significantly reducing the threat they posed.

Female Infanticide:

Bentinck took steps to curb the practice of female infanticide, which was prevalent in some parts of India. Efforts included legal measures and awareness campaigns to change societal attitudes towards female children.

Administrative Reforms

Judicial Reforms:

Bentinck reorganized the judicial system to make it more efficient and accessible. He introduced English as the official language of the higher courts, which facilitated a uniform legal framework and reduced corruption.

Revenue Reforms:

Bentinck implemented measures to improve the efficiency of revenue collection and reduce corruption. This included the introduction of the principle of competitive bidding for revenue collection and the assessment of land revenue.

Civil Services:

He emphasized merit-based appointments in the civil services and introduced measures to reduce corruption and inefficiency among officials. Bentinck's tenure saw the foundation for the later establishment of a professional and efficient Indian Civil Service.

Educational Reforms

Promotion of Western Education:

Bentinck was a proponent of Western education and played a significant role in the promotion of English-language education in India. The establishment of the General Committee of Public Instruction in 1823 aimed to oversee and expand educational efforts.

Macaulay's Minute on Education (1835):

Though not directly authored by Bentinck, his tenure saw the influential Minute on Education by Thomas Babington Macaulay, which advocated for the promotion of English education. This policy laid the foundation for the spread of Western education and the use of English as a medium of instruction in India.

Economic Reforms**Commercialization of Agriculture:**

Bentinck introduced measures to encourage the production of cash crops like indigo and opium, which were important for British trade. This included improving infrastructure, such as roads and canals, to facilitate the transport of goods.

Infrastructure Development:

He initiated projects to improve infrastructure, including the construction of roads, bridges, and canals. These projects aimed to enhance communication, trade, and administration across British India.

Impact and Legacy

Modernization of India: Bentinck's reforms played a crucial role in modernizing Indian society and administration. His focus on education, law, and social practices laid the groundwork for future developments.

Humanitarian Approach: His efforts to abolish inhumane practices and promote social justice highlighted a more humanitarian approach to governance, influencing subsequent policies.

Economic Changes: While some economic reforms benefited British commercial interests, they also led to significant changes in Indian agriculture and trade patterns.

Controversial Impact: Despite the progressive nature of many reforms, some, like the emphasis on English education, had mixed impacts, fostering an elite class educated in English while also contributing to the decline of traditional Indian education systems.

Lord William Bentinck's tenure is seen as a transformative period in British Indian history, marked by progressive reforms that aimed to modernize and improve Indian society, albeit within the framework of colonial interests.

Unit 3-

1-Maratha Rule

2-Mughal – Maratha Relations

3- Peshwai

4-Sikh Rule

The Maratha rulers, also known as the Maratha Chhatrapatis or Peshwas, were the leaders of the Maratha Empire, which emerged as a powerful force in India during the 17th and 18th centuries. Here are some of the prominent Maratha rulers who played significant roles in shaping the history of the Maratha Empire:

Shivaji Maharaj (1630–1680)

- Shivaji Maharaj, born Shivaji Bhosale, was the founder of the Maratha Empire. He established an independent Maratha kingdom in the western Deccan, defying the dominance of the Mughal Empire.
- Known for his military acumen, Shivaji Maharaj employed guerrilla tactics and strategic alliances to expand his territory and challenge Mughal authority.
- He laid the foundation for a strong administrative system and promoted religious tolerance within his kingdom.

Sambhaji Maharaj (1657–1689)

- Sambhaji Maharaj was the eldest son of Shivaji Maharaj and succeeded him as the ruler of the Maratha Empire after his death.
- He faced numerous challenges, including Mughal invasions and internal conflicts, during his brief reign. Despite these challenges, he continued his father's efforts to expand Maratha territories.

Rajaram Maharaj (1670–1700)

- Rajaram Maharaj, Shivaji Maharaj's younger son, became the third Chhatrapati of the Maratha Empire after the death of his elder brother Sambhaji Maharaj.
- His reign was marked by continuous warfare with the Mughals, as well as internal struggles among Maratha nobles.
- Rajaram Maharaj's wife, Tarabai, played a significant role in leading the Maratha forces and governing the empire during his reign.

Balaji Vishwanath (c. 1660–1720)

- Balaji Vishwanath, also known as Peshwa Balaji Vishwanath, served as the first Peshwa (prime minister) of the Maratha Empire under Chhatrapati Shahu Maharaj, the grandson of Shivaji Maharaj.
- He played a crucial role in consolidating Maratha power and establishing the Peshwa authority as a key institution in the Maratha administration.

Baji Rao I (1699–1740)

- Baji Rao I, the eldest son of Peshwa Balaji Vishwanath, is considered one of the most successful and influential Peshwas of the Maratha Empire.
- He expanded Maratha territories significantly through military campaigns and diplomatic maneuvers, earning him the title of "Thorale Bajirao" (Elder Bajirao) and the epithet "the Napoleon of India."

Balaji Baji Rao (Baji Rao II) (1775–1851)

- Balaji Baji Rao, also known as Baji Rao II, was the last Peshwa of the Maratha Empire. He succeeded his father, Peshwa Baji Rao I, but faced challenges from both the British East India Company and internal factions.
- His reign witnessed the defeat of the Marathas in the Third Anglo-Maratha War (1817–1818), leading to the annexation of Maratha territories by the British.

These are just a few of the notable Maratha rulers who played significant roles in the history and expansion of the Maratha Empire. Each ruler contributed in their own way to the rise and eventual decline of Maratha power in India.

Shivaji Maharaj, also known as Chhatrapati Shivaji Maharaj, was one of the most renowned and revered figures in Indian history. He was the founder of the Maratha Empire and is remembered for his military genius, administrative reforms, and promotion of Hindavi Swarajya (self-rule for the Hindu majority). Here's an overview of Shivaji Maharaj's life and accomplishments:

Early Life and Rise to Power

1. Birth and Upbringing:

- Shivaji was born in 1630 to Shahaji Bhonsle, a Maratha general in the service of the Adil Shahi Sultanate of Bijapur, and Jijabai, the daughter of a prominent Maratha noble.
- He was raised in the rugged terrain of the Western Ghats, which instilled in him a love for the land and a spirit of independence.

2. Founding of the Maratha Kingdom:

- Shivaji began his military career in his teens, initially serving the Bijapur Sultanate. However, he soon realized his ambition to establish an independent Maratha kingdom.
- In 1674, he was crowned as Chhatrapati (paramount sovereign) of the Maratha Empire, marking the formal establishment of his kingdom with Raigad as its capital.

Military Campaigns and Strategies

1. Guerilla Warfare Tactics:

- Shivaji Maharaj pioneered the use of guerrilla warfare tactics against the more powerful Mughal and Adil Shahi forces. His nimble cavalry units and mountain forts enabled him to challenge much larger armies.
- He emphasized swift mobility, surprise attacks, and hit-and-run tactics, which proved highly effective in confronting his enemies.

2. Naval Power:

- Shivaji recognized the strategic importance of naval power and built a formidable navy, which challenged the dominance of the Portuguese and established Maratha control over coastal regions.

3. Strategic Alliances:

- Shivaji forged strategic alliances with local Maratha chiefs, Hindu rulers, and even some Muslim sultans, leveraging their support to expand his territory and challenge the authority of the Mughal Empire and Bijapur Sultanate.

Administrative Reforms

1. Centralized Administration:

- Shivaji established a centralized administrative system, dividing his kingdom into provinces (swarajyas) and districts (parganas), each governed by officials appointed for revenue collection and law enforcement.
- He introduced a system of revenue assessment, military organization, and fortification construction, laying the foundations of a stable and efficient administration.

2. Religious Tolerance:

- Shivaji Maharaj promoted religious tolerance and treated his subjects, regardless of their faith, with respect and fairness. He granted autonomy to religious communities and protected their religious practices.

Legacy and Impact

1. National Icon:

- Shivaji Maharaj is celebrated as a symbol of Hindu nationalism and resistance against foreign domination. His valor, leadership, and commitment to Hindavi Swarajya have earned him a revered place in Indian history and culture.

2. Military Innovations:

- His military innovations and strategies influenced subsequent Indian rulers and resistance movements against colonial powers, inspiring generations of freedom fighters.

3. Statecraft and Administration:

- Shivaji's administrative reforms laid the groundwork for the Maratha Empire's expansion and the development of a distinct Maratha identity. His legacy continues to shape Maharashtra's political and cultural landscape.

4. Historical Controversy:

- Despite his heroic status, Shivaji's legacy has been subject to historical revisionism and political appropriation, with various groups interpreting his life and achievements differently.

Overall, Shivaji Maharaj's legacy as a visionary leader, military strategist, and champion of Hindavi Swarajya endures as an inspiration for generations of Indians.

The relationship between Shivaji Maharaj, the founder of the Maratha Empire, and Aurangzeb, the Mughal Emperor, was marked by both conflict and diplomacy. Their interactions had significant implications for the political landscape of 17th-century India. Here's an overview of their relationship and conflicts:

Early Interactions and Diplomacy

1. Submission to Bijapur:

- During Shivaji's early years, his father, Shahaji Bhosle, served the Adil Shahi Sultanate of Bijapur, which was in conflict with the Mughal Empire.
- Shivaji initially remained loyal to Bijapur, but his ambitions for independence soon led to conflict with both Bijapur and the Mughals.

2. Diplomatic Maneuvering:

- Shivaji employed diplomatic tactics to maintain a semblance of independence while avoiding direct confrontation with the Mughals. He sought to balance his expansionist ambitions with a cautious approach towards the Mughal Empire.

Conflict with the Mughals

1. Rise of Aurangzeb:

- Aurangzeb, who became Emperor in 1658 after a war of succession, sought to consolidate Mughal authority over the Deccan region, where Shivaji's kingdom was located.

2. Mughal Campaigns:

- Aurangzeb launched several military campaigns against Shivaji's territories, aiming to subdue the Maratha leader and bring his kingdom under Mughal control.

- However, Shivaji's guerrilla warfare tactics and the rugged terrain of the Western Ghats made it difficult for the Mughals to achieve decisive victories.

Diplomatic Engagements

1. Treaty of Purandar (1665):

- Following initial hostilities, Shivaji entered into a treaty with the Mughals, represented by Jai Singh I, known as the Treaty of Purandar. According to the treaty, Shivaji agreed to surrender several forts and pay tribute to the Mughals in exchange for peace.

2. Imprisonment and Escape:

- Shivaji faced challenges with the Mughals, including being briefly imprisoned by Aurangzeb in Agra in 1666. However, Shivaji managed to escape from captivity in a dramatic manner, further enhancing his reputation as a cunning and resourceful leader.

Renewed Conflict and Confrontation

1. Coronation and Expansion:

- After his escape, Shivaji resumed his expansionist efforts, reclaiming territories and fortresses lost to the Mughals. He also declared himself as Chhatrapati (paramount sovereign) of the Maratha Empire in 1674.

2. Mughal Campaigns and Shivaji's Response:

- Aurangzeb launched renewed campaigns against Shivaji's kingdom, leading to further conflict and skirmishes. Shivaji continued to resist Mughal incursions through guerrilla warfare and strategic retreats.

Legacy and Historical Interpretation

- The conflict between Shivaji and Aurangzeb is often seen as a struggle for regional supremacy and control over the Deccan.
- Shivaji's ability to challenge the mighty Mughal Empire and establish an independent Maratha kingdom has earned him admiration as a symbol of resistance and Hindu valor.

- Aurangzeb's efforts to subdue Shivaji and assert Mughal authority over the Deccan reflected his ambition to centralize power and enforce orthodox Islamic policies.

Overall, the relationship between Shivaji Maharaj and Aurangzeb was characterized by a complex interplay of diplomacy, conflict, and mutual distrust. Their interactions shaped the political landscape of 17th-century India and left a lasting impact on Indian history.

1674 – 1818 CE

Public Administration of The Great Marathas

1674 – 1818 CE River in the east. They lost much of their territory beyond Delhi after their defeat in the third Battle of Panipat in 1761 but within a span of ten years, Marathas resurrected themselves in north India under the leadership of Peshwas (Prime Minister of the Maratha Empire) and Sardars (chiefs). ^[1]

The seed of national identity which was sown by Chatrapati Shivaji Maharaja to break the several centuries of dominance of foreign rule grew into a huge banyan tree of Maratha Empire as in less than a century after the death of Shivaji their influence was felt throughout the length and breadth of the Indian subcontinent. The 18th century in Indian history was truly the century of the Great Marathas. ^[2]

To effectively manage such a large empire, a confederacy of semi-independent Maratha states was formed under powerful Maratha chiefs called Sardars who ruled under the suzerainty of Peshwa. The Peshwas were subordinates to the Chhatrapati (the Maratha Emperor) during the days of Shivaji and his successor Sambhaji, Rajaram, and Shahu. But soon they become the de facto leaders of the Maratha Confederacy and the house of the King became a titular head. During the last years of the Maratha Empire, the Peshwas were also reduced to nominal leaders under the authority of the Maratha chiefs and the British East India Company. After the death of Peshwa Madhavrao I, various Maratha chiefs like Scindias of Gwalior and Ujjain, Gaekwads of Baroda, the Holkars of Indore and Malwa, and Bhonsales of Nagpur played the role of the de facto rulers in their regions. ^[3]

The Peshwa was one of the Ashtapradhan of Shivaji become hereditary during the reign of Shahu. Under Peshwa rule, the centre of the Maratha central administration was the secretariat called Huzur Daftar at Poona. At the provincial level, Deshmukhs and Deshpandes along with Mamlatdars and Kamavistars were main officials. Land revenue was their main source of income and they took great care that peasants were not excessively taxed. The judicial system of Peshwas was based on Dharmashastras. Civil and criminal justice were simpler and left to the community to resolve disputes. ^[1]

The Maratha rule, spanning from the late 17th century to the early 19th century, was a significant period in Indian history marked by the rise of the Maratha Empire as a formidable power. The Marathas played a crucial role in resisting Mughal domination and later became one of the key players in the power dynamics of the Indian subcontinent. Here are the key aspects of the Maratha rule:

Origins and Rise

1. Shivaji Maharaj (1630-1680):

- Shivaji Bhonsle, the founder of the Maratha Empire, established a strong, independent kingdom in the western Deccan region. He is renowned for his military tactics, innovative strategies, and administration.
- Shivaji's coronation as Chhatrapati in 1674 marked the formal establishment of the Maratha Empire. He built a formidable navy and fortified numerous forts to secure his territory.

2. Expansion under the Peshwas:

- After Shivaji's death, his successors and particularly the Peshwas (prime ministers) expanded the Maratha influence across much of India. The Peshwas, especially Balaji Vishwanath and his son Baji Rao I, were instrumental in this expansion.

Administrative and Military Structure

1. Centralized Administration:

- The Marathas developed a sophisticated administrative system. The empire was divided into swaraj (directly administered territories) and mughalai or jagir (territories held by Maratha chiefs).
- The Peshwas, based in Pune, acted as the de facto leaders, especially during the period when the Chhatrapati's role became more ceremonial.

2. Military Prowess:

- The Maratha army was known for its mobility, guerrilla tactics, and use of light cavalry. This allowed them to conduct rapid and effective military campaigns.
- Notable military leaders like Baji Rao I expanded Maratha influence through a series of successful campaigns against the Mughals and other regional powers.

Key Battles and Conflicts

1. Battle of Panipat (1761):

- The Third Battle of Panipat was a major conflict between the Maratha Empire and the Durrani Empire led by Ahmad Shah Abdali. The Marathas suffered a significant defeat, which temporarily halted their expansion and led to internal disarray.

2. Wars with the British:

- The Marathas fought several wars against the British East India Company. The Anglo-Maratha Wars (1775-1782, 1803-1805, and 1817-1818) were significant conflicts that eventually led to the decline of Maratha power.
- The Third Anglo-Maratha War (1817-1818) resulted in the defeat of the Marathas and the eventual annexation of their territories by the British, marking the end of the Maratha Empire.

Contributions and Legacy

1. Cultural Revival:

- The Maratha rule saw a revival of Hindu culture and traditions. They patronized literature, arts, and architecture, contributing to the cultural richness of the region.
- Temples, forts, and other structures built during their rule stand as architectural testaments to their legacy.

2. Resistance to Mughal Rule:

- The Marathas played a crucial role in the eventual decline of the Mughal Empire. Their continuous resistance weakened Mughal authority and paved the way for regional powers to assert their independence.

3. Maratha Confederacy:

- The Maratha Empire eventually evolved into a confederacy with several semi-autonomous chieftains, such as the Scindias, Holkars, Gaekwads, and Bhonsles, controlling different regions. This decentralized structure made the empire resilient but also led to internal rivalries.

Decline and Fall

• Internal Conflicts:

- The Maratha Empire faced internal conflicts and power struggles among the various chieftains and the central authority of the Peshwas.

• British Ascendancy:

- The superior military technology and strategic diplomacy of the British East India Company, coupled with internal Maratha conflicts, led to the eventual subjugation of the Marathas.

• Post-Empire Influence:

- Even after their political decline, the Marathas left a lasting impact on Indian history, influencing regional politics, culture, and the social structure of modern Maharashtra and other regions they once controlled.

The Maratha rule was a dynamic period that significantly shaped the course of Indian history, illustrating the complexities of resistance, expansion, and eventual integration into the British colonial framework.

Maratha rule refers to the period in Indian history when the Maratha Empire, under the leadership of the Maratha warrior-administrators, dominated large parts of the Indian subcontinent. The Marathas rose to prominence in the 17th century and played a significant role in shaping the political landscape of India until the early 19th century. Here are key aspects of Maratha rule:

Rise of the Marathas

1. Early Origins:

- The Marathas originated as a regional warrior community in the western Deccan region of India. Initially, they served as mercenaries and soldiers for various rulers.

2. Leadership of Shivaji (1630–1680):

- Shivaji Bhonsle, also known as Chhatrapati Shivaji Maharaj, founded the Maratha Empire in 1674 after establishing an independent kingdom in the Deccan. He is revered as a heroic figure for his military campaigns against the Mughal Empire and other regional powers.

Expansion and Consolidation

1. Military Campaigns:

- Under Shivaji and his successors, the Marathas launched numerous military campaigns to expand their territories, primarily in the western and central regions of India.
- Shivaji's successors, particularly the Peshwas, continued the expansionist policies, often through military conquests and strategic alliances.

2. Administrative Structure:

- The Marathas established a decentralized administrative system, with power distributed among various chiefs and administrators.
- The Peshwa, as the prime minister, held significant authority, while local chiefs (sardars) administered territories under their control.

Maratha Confederacy

1. Peshwa Dominance:

- The Peshwas emerged as the de facto leaders of the Maratha Empire during the 18th century. They held significant influence over the affairs of the empire, often eclipsing the power of the titular rulers (Chhatrapatis).
- The Peshwa-led Maratha Confederacy comprised various Maratha chiefs, each controlling specific territories and armies.

2. Alliances and Conflicts:

- The Marathas formed alliances with regional powers and often engaged in conflicts with the Mughal Empire, other Indian kingdoms, and European colonial powers like the British and the Portuguese.

Decline and Disintegration

1. Third Battle of Panipat (1761):

- The defeat of the Marathas by Ahmad Shah Durrani's Afghan forces in the Third Battle of Panipat marked a turning point. Although the Marathas remained a significant power, their influence gradually declined in the following decades.

2. Internal Disputes:

- Internal rivalries and conflicts among Maratha chiefs, particularly between the Peshwas and other factions, weakened the unity of the Maratha Confederacy.

3. British Expansion:

- The British East India Company capitalized on the internal divisions within the Maratha Empire and gradually expanded its control over India, often exploiting Maratha rivalries and conflicts to its advantage.

Legacy

- **Regional Influence:** The Marathas left a lasting impact on the political and cultural landscape of western and central India, with many regions still influenced by Maratha traditions and language.
- **Military Legacy:** The Marathas were renowned for their military prowess and guerrilla warfare tactics, which influenced subsequent Indian resistance movements against colonial rule.
- **Administrative Systems:** Despite the decline of the empire, Maratha administrative practices, such as revenue collection and local governance, continued to influence British colonial administration in India.

The era of Maratha rule in India represents a period of significant political and cultural dynamism, marked by both expansion and fragmentation, ultimately shaping the course of Indian history.

Maratha rule refers to the period of dominance by the Maratha Empire over large parts of the Indian subcontinent, particularly during the 18th century. The Marathas, an influential Hindu warrior group originating from the western region of present-day Maharashtra, rose to power under the leadership of charismatic leaders such as Shivaji Maharaj and later expanded their influence under the Peshwas. Here are the key aspects of Maratha rule:

Rise of the Marathas

1. Shivaji Maharaj (1627-1680):

- Shivaji Maharaj founded the Maratha Empire in the late 17th century through a series of military campaigns against the Mughal Empire and other regional powers. He established a strong and well-organized state in the western Deccan region, with Raigad as its capital.

2. Expansion and Military Strategy:

- Shivaji Maharaj employed guerrilla warfare tactics and strategic alliances to expand Maratha influence, particularly in the face of the powerful Mughal Empire. His naval prowess and administrative reforms strengthened the Maratha state.

Consolidation under the Peshwas

1. Peshwa Era (1713-1818):

- After Shivaji Maharaj's death, the Maratha Empire was led by the Peshwas, who served as prime ministers. During this period, the Marathas expanded their territory to include large parts of central and northern India.

2. Administrative System:

- The Peshwas established a decentralized administrative system, with regional administrators called Subedars or Sardars managing different territories. This system allowed for efficient governance and revenue collection.

3. **Maratha Confederacy:**

- The Marathas formed a loose confederacy of regional chiefs and clans, united under the leadership of the Peshwa. While the Peshwa held significant authority, individual Maratha chiefs retained a degree of autonomy.

Decline and British Conquest

1. **Third Battle of Panipat (1761):**

- The Maratha Empire suffered a significant setback in the Third Battle of Panipat against Ahmad Shah Durrani (also known as Ahmad Shah Abdali), resulting in heavy losses and weakening Maratha influence in northern India.

2. **Internal Conflicts:**

- The later years of Maratha rule were marked by internal conflicts and power struggles among different factions, including the Peshwas, regional chiefs, and other Maratha leaders. These internal divisions weakened the Maratha Empire.

3. **British Expansion:**

- Taking advantage of Maratha disunity and weakened central authority, the British East India Company gradually expanded its control over various parts of India through a series of wars and treaties with Maratha chiefs.

4. **Anglo-Maratha Wars (1775-1818):**

- A series of conflicts between the British East India Company and the Marathas resulted in the gradual erosion of Maratha power. The Third Anglo-Maratha War culminated in the defeat of the Marathas and the annexation of their territories by the British.

Legacy

- **Regional Influence:** Despite its eventual decline, Maratha rule left a lasting impact on the political and cultural landscape of India, particularly in the western regions.
- **Military Legacy:** The Marathas' military prowess and tactics influenced subsequent Indian military strategies and resistance movements against colonial powers.

- **Administrative Practices:** Some administrative practices introduced by the Marathas, such as revenue collection systems, continued under British rule and influenced later Indian governance.
- **Cultural Contributions:** Maratha rule also contributed to the development of Marathi language, literature, and culture, which remain vibrant aspects of Maharashtra's identity.

Overall, Maratha rule represents a significant chapter in Indian history, characterized by military expansion, administrative innovations, and cultural achievements, despite its eventual decline in the face of British colonial ambitions.

The relationship between the Mughal Empire and the Maratha Confederacy, which emerged as a significant power in India during the 17th and 18th centuries, was characterized by a complex mix of cooperation, rivalry, and conflict. Here's an overview of Mughal-Maratha relations:

Early Interactions and Diplomacy

1. Coexistence and Cooperation:

- In the early years of the Maratha ascendancy under Shivaji Maharaj, there were instances of cooperation and even alliance between the Marathas and the Mughals against common enemies, such as the Bijapur Sultanate.

2. Diplomatic Maneuvering:

- Shivaji adopted a cautious approach towards the Mughals, seeking to maintain a degree of autonomy while avoiding direct confrontation. He entered into treaties with Mughal officials, such as the Treaty of Purandar in 1665, to secure peace and territorial concessions.

Conflict and Confrontation

1. Mughal Campaigns:

- Despite attempts at diplomacy, tensions between the Mughals and the Marathas escalated over territorial disputes and conflicting ambitions. Mughal Emperors, especially Aurangzeb, launched several military campaigns to subdue the Marathas and assert Mughal authority over the Deccan.

2. Maratha Resistance:

- The Marathas, under leaders like Shivaji Maharaj and later his descendants, fiercely resisted Mughal incursions through guerrilla warfare, fortified mountain forts, and strategic retreats. They managed to maintain their independence and even expand their territory despite Mughal pressure.

Treaties and Alliances

1. Treaties of Peace and Diplomacy:

- Throughout the 17th and 18th centuries, there were numerous treaties and agreements between the Mughals and the Marathas aimed at maintaining peace and delineating spheres of influence. However, these treaties often proved temporary and were frequently violated by both sides.

2. Shifting Alliances:

- The Marathas sometimes entered into alliances with Mughal officials or princes who were in conflict with the central Mughal authority. This resulted in complex webs of alliances and rivalries within the Mughal Empire and contributed to the fragmentation of Mughal power.

Impact of Conflicts and Cooperation

1. Regional Power Struggle:

- The conflict between the Mughals and the Marathas was part of a broader struggle for dominance in the Indian subcontinent, with both powers vying for control over lucrative territories and resources.

2. Maratha Ascendancy:

- Despite facing significant Mughal opposition, the Marathas managed to establish themselves as a formidable power in India, particularly in the Deccan region. Their resistance to Mughal authority contributed to the eventual decline of the Mughal Empire.

Legacy

- The Mughal-Maratha relations left a lasting impact on the political landscape of India, shaping the course of regional politics and influencing subsequent developments.

- The conflict and competition between the two powers contributed to the decentralization of authority in India and paved the way for the emergence of regional powers in the post-Mughal period.
- Despite periods of conflict, there were also instances of cultural exchange and cooperation between the Mughals and the Marathas, highlighting the complexity of their relationship.

Peshwai

Peshwai, also known as the Peshwa Era or Peshwa Administration, refers to the period of Maratha rule in India when the Peshwas, or prime ministers, served as the de facto rulers of the Maratha Empire. The Peshwai is an important chapter in Indian history, particularly in the context of the Maratha Empire's expansion and governance. Here's an overview of the Peshwai:

Establishment and Rise of the Peshwas

1. Origins:

- The office of the Peshwa was initially created during the reign of Shivaji Maharaj, the founder of the Maratha Empire, to serve as the chief minister or prime minister of the kingdom.
- After Shivaji's death, the Peshwas emerged as the most powerful political figures within the Maratha administration, wielding significant authority and influence.

2. Role and Responsibilities:

- The Peshwa was responsible for overseeing the day-to-day administration of the Maratha Empire, including matters of governance, finance, military affairs, and diplomacy.
- They served as the chief advisor to the Chhatrapati (paramount sovereign) of the Maratha Empire and often acted as regents during the minority of the Chhatrapati.

Expansion and Consolidation

1. Military Campaigns:

- Under the leadership of the Peshwas, particularly during the reign of Baji Rao I, the Maratha Empire expanded rapidly through military conquests and diplomatic alliances.
- Baji Rao I, in particular, is credited with significantly expanding Maratha territories through his successful military campaigns, earning him the title of "the Napoleon of India."

2. Administrative Reforms:

- The Peshwas implemented various administrative reforms aimed at streamlining governance, enhancing revenue collection, and maintaining law and order.
- They established a decentralized administrative system, with regional administrators known as Subedars or Sardars managing different territories under the supervision of the Peshwa.

Decline and Disintegration

1. Internal Strife:

- The latter years of the Peshwai were marked by internal power struggles and conflicts among different factions within the Maratha Empire.
- Rivalry between different Maratha chiefs, as well as growing discontent among subject states and communities, contributed to the weakening of Peshwa authority.

2. British Conquest:

- The decline of the Peshwai culminated in the Anglo-Maratha Wars, a series of conflicts between the British East India Company and the Marathas.
- The Third Anglo-Maratha War (1817–1818) resulted in the defeat of the Marathas and the annexation of their territories by the British, effectively ending the Peshwa rule.

Legacy

- The Peshwai represents a significant period in Indian history, characterized by Maratha expansion, administrative innovations, and cultural achievements.
- Despite its eventual decline and absorption into British India, the Peshwai left a lasting impact on the political and cultural landscape of Maharashtra and the broader Indian subcontinent.
- The Peshwas are remembered as influential figures who played a crucial role in shaping the destiny of the Maratha Empire and leaving behind a rich legacy of governance and military prowess.

The Peshwai, or Peshwa administration, was the prime ministerial system that governed the Maratha Empire. Established by Balaji Vishwanath in the early 18th century, it centralized power under the Peshwa, who acted as the chief minister and the de facto ruler of the empire. The Peshwa managed the administration, military affairs, and diplomacy, while the Chhatrapati (the Maratha king) retained a ceremonial role. The Peshwai played a crucial role in expanding Maratha influence and maintaining stability, although internal rivalries and conflicts eventually weakened its authority.

Sikh

The Sikh community, known for its distinctive religious and cultural identity, originated in the Punjab region of South Asia during the 15th century. Here's an overview of the Sikh faith and its key aspects:

Origin and Founder

1. **Guru Nanak Dev Ji (1469–1539):**
 - Guru Nanak, born in the village of Talwandi (now Nankana Sahib in Pakistan), was the founder of Sikhism. He preached a message of love, equality, and devotion to one God, rejecting the caste system and rituals of Hinduism and Islam.

Core Beliefs and Practices

1. **Oneness of God (Ik Onkar):**
 - Sikhs believe in the concept of Ik Onkar, which emphasizes the monotheistic nature of God. They view God as formless, transcendent, and omnipresent.
2. **Guru Granth Sahib:**

- The Guru Granth Sahib, considered the eternal Guru by Sikhs, is the holy scripture of Sikhism. It comprises the writings and hymns of Sikh Gurus, as well as contributions from Hindu and Muslim saints.
- 3. **Three Pillars:**
 - Sikhism is based on three core principles: Naam Japna (meditating on God's name), Kirat Karni (earning a living honestly), and Vand Chakna (sharing with others).
- 4. **Five Ks (Panj Kakar):**
 - Sikhs who have undergone the Amrit initiation ceremony are expected to observe the Five Ks: Kesh (uncut hair), Kangha (a wooden comb), Kara (a steel bracelet), Kachera (cotton undergarments), and Kirpan (a ceremonial sword).

Sikh Gurus and Leadership

1. **Ten Sikh Gurus:**
 - Following Guru Nanak, Sikhism was led by a succession of nine Gurus, each contributing to the development and spread of the faith. The teachings of the Sikh Gurus are recorded in the Guru Granth Sahib.
2. **Guru Gobind Singh Ji (1666–1708):**
 - Guru Gobind Singh, the tenth and final human Guru, established the Khalsa (the community of initiated Sikhs) and formalized the initiation ceremony known as Amrit Sanchar.

Sikh Identity and Community

1. **Equality and Social Justice:**
 - Sikhism emphasizes the equality of all human beings regardless of caste, creed, gender, or social status. The langar (community kitchen) in Sikh gurdwaras serves free meals to all, irrespective of background.
2. **Community Service (Seva):**
 - Sikhs are encouraged to engage in selfless service and contribute to the welfare of society. Seva is an integral part of Sikh practice and is often carried out through community kitchens, charitable activities, and humanitarian aid.

Sikh Symbols and Practices

1. **Gurdwaras:**
 - Gurdwaras are Sikh places of worship where the Guru Granth Sahib is revered. They serve as centers for congregational prayers, community gatherings, and religious education.
2. **Kirtan and Gurbani:**
 - Kirtan refers to the singing of hymns and devotional music from the Guru Granth Sahib, while Gurbani comprises the sacred verses and compositions found in the scripture.
3. **Langar:**
 - Langar is the community kitchen in Sikh gurdwaras where free meals are served to all visitors, regardless of background, as a symbol of equality and hospitality.

Sikh History and Contributions

1. **Military Tradition:**
 - Sikhs have a rich martial tradition and have historically played significant roles in defending their faith and the rights of others. The Khalsa army, established by Guru Gobind Singh, became renowned for its bravery and valor.

2. Global Diaspora:

- Sikh communities can be found around the world, with significant populations in countries such as Canada, the United Kingdom, the United States, and Australia. Sikh immigrants have made notable contributions to various fields, including business, academia, and public service.

Sikhism continues to be a vibrant and influential faith with millions of followers worldwide, guided by the teachings of the Sikh Gurus and the principles of equality, service, and devotion to the One Creator.

The Sikh Gurus were spiritual leaders who played a pivotal role in the establishment, growth, and teachings of Sikhism, a monotheistic religion originating in the Punjab region of the Indian subcontinent. There were ten Sikh Gurus who succeeded one another from the 15th to the 18th century. Here's a brief overview:

1. **Guru Nanak Dev Ji (1469-1539):** He was the founder of Sikhism and the first of the Sikh Gurus. Guru Nanak emphasized the worship of one God and preached equality, compassion, and righteousness.
2. **Guru Angad Dev Ji (1504-1552):** He was the second Guru and played a significant role in consolidating the early Sikh community. Guru Angad Dev Ji standardized the Gurmukhi script and contributed to the further development of Sikh institutions.
3. **Guru Amar Das Ji (1479-1574):** The third Guru, Guru Amar Das Ji, institutionalized the concept of langar (community kitchen) and further expanded Sikhism's reach.
4. **Guru Ram Das Ji (1534-1581):** He was the fourth Guru and is known for founding the city of Amritsar, which is now home to the Harmandir Sahib (Golden Temple), the holiest shrine in Sikhism.
5. **Guru Arjan Dev Ji (1563-1606):** Guru Arjan Dev Ji compiled the Sikh scripture, the Guru Granth Sahib, and built the Harmandir Sahib. He was also the first Sikh Guru to be martyred for his beliefs.
6. **Guru Hargobind Ji (1595-1644):** Guru Hargobind Ji militarized the Sikh community in response to persecution from Mughal rulers. He established the Akal Takht, the temporal seat of Sikh authority.
7. **Guru Har Rai Ji (1630-1661):** He was the seventh Guru and is remembered for his compassion and care for nature. Guru Har Rai Ji emphasized the importance of living in harmony with the environment.
8. **Guru Har Krishan Ji (1656-1664):** Guru Har Krishan Ji became the eighth Guru at a very young age and is known for his selfless service during the smallpox epidemic of 1664.
9. **Guru Tegh Bahadur Ji (1621-1675):** Guru Tegh Bahadur Ji is revered for his defense of religious freedom and human rights. He was executed by the Mughal Emperor Aurangzeb for refusing to convert to Islam.
10. **Guru Gobind Singh Ji (1666-1708):** The tenth Guru, Guru Gobind Singh Ji, established the Khalsa, a community of initiated Sikhs, and formalized the Guru Granth Sahib as the eternal Guru of the Sikhs. He also initiated the tradition of the five Ks.

These Sikh Gurus collectively laid down the foundation of Sikhism and provided spiritual guidance to their followers, shaping the Sikh community into what it is today.

If you're referring to Sikh rule in terms of political governance, there was a period in Indian history known as the Sikh Empire, which existed in the 18th and early 19th centuries. This empire was founded by Maharaja Ranjit Singh, who unified various Sikh factions and established a strong centralized state in the Punjab region.

Under Maharaja Ranjit Singh's leadership, the Sikh Empire reached its zenith, encompassing a large part of present-day Pakistan and northwest India. The empire was known for its military prowess, administrative reforms, and religious tolerance. Ranjit Singh's rule saw the flourishing of art, culture, and commerce in the Punjab region.

However, after Ranjit Singh's death in 1839, the Sikh Empire faced internal strife and external threats. The British East India Company took advantage of the situation and gradually annexed Sikh territories through a series of Anglo-Sikh wars. The Punjab was finally annexed by the British in 1849, marking the end of Sikh sovereignty in the region.

Though the Sikh Empire was relatively short-lived, its legacy continues to be celebrated by Sikhs worldwide, and Maharaja Ranjit Singh is remembered as a prominent figure in Sikh history for his contributions to the Sikh community and Punjab region.

3.5

Sikh Empire and rule
ChatGPT

The Sikh Empire, also known as the Sikh Raj, was a significant political entity in the Indian subcontinent during the 19th century. It emerged under the leadership of Maharaja Ranjit Singh and lasted from 1799 to 1849. Here's an overview of the Sikh Empire and its rule:

Founding and Expansion:

- Maharaja Ranjit Singh, born in 1780, unified various Sikh factions and succeeded in consolidating power in the Punjab region.
- By 1801, Ranjit Singh had captured Lahore and established himself as the ruler of the Punjab.
- Over the next few decades, Ranjit Singh and his forces expanded the Sikh Empire's territory, conquering parts of present-day Pakistan, India, and Afghanistan.

Administration and Military:

- Ranjit Singh's administration was known for its secular and efficient governance. Despite being a Sikh ruler, he appointed officials from various religious and ethnic backgrounds.
- The Sikh Empire had a well-organized military, consisting of regular infantry, cavalry, and artillery units. European officers were also employed to modernize the army.

Cultural and Economic Flourishing:

- The Sikh Empire witnessed a period of cultural and economic prosperity. Lahore, the capital, became a center for art, literature, and commerce.

- Trade routes flourished, connecting the Punjab region with Central Asia, Persia, and other parts of the Indian subcontinent.

Decline and Annexation:

- After Maharaja Ranjit Singh's death in 1839, the Sikh Empire faced internal conflicts and succession struggles.
- The British East India Company, taking advantage of the weakened Sikh Empire, engaged in a series of conflicts known as the Anglo-Sikh Wars.
- The Anglo-Sikh Wars concluded with the annexation of the Punjab by the British in 1849, marking the end of the Sikh Empire.

Legacy:

- Despite its relatively short duration, the Sikh Empire left a lasting impact on Sikh history and the Punjab region.
- Maharaja Ranjit Singh is remembered as a capable ruler who united the Sikh community and created a formidable state in the northwest of the Indian subcontinent.

The Sikh Empire's legacy continues to be celebrated by Sikhs worldwide, and its history remains an important part of the cultural and political landscape of the Indian subcontinent.

Unit 4-

The background of the Indian National Movement.

Regional movement prior of 1857.

THE INDIAN NATIONAL MOVEMENT: HISTORY, PHASE, STRUGGLE & TRIUMPH FOR INDEPENDENCE

Unity in Diversity: Indian National Movement's Triumph for Independence

The Indian National Movement, a watershed moment in India's history, reflects the emergence of Indian consciousness and a fervent sense of nationalism. This mass movement took root in the latter part of the 19th century and marked the first successful resistance against British colonial rule.

Prior to the Indian National Movement, the quest for independence was characterized by fragmented, localized efforts scattered across the subcontinent. These fragmented endeavors, divided by regional, cultural, and linguistic differences, struggled to sustain themselves against the formidable British colonial apparatus. India appeared less as a unified nation and more as a conglomeration of distinct kingdoms and regions, all grappling with the same oppressive British presence.

To the colonizers, the Indian subcontinent constituted a singular entity ripe for exploitation. However, beneath this exterior, people identified themselves in diverse ways, often rooted in their regional affiliations. This fragmented identity posed a challenge to the unity required for a successful resistance against British rule.

The Indian National Movement, therefore, played a pivotal role in transforming this mosaic of identities into a cohesive force. It fostered a shared vision of independence, transcending linguistic, cultural, and regional boundaries. This movement sowed the seeds of a united India, where diverse groups came together under the banner of freedom and self-determination, ultimately leading to the successful culmination of India's struggle for independence.

Indian National Movement's Impact on a Nation's Awakening

The Indian National Movement served as a unifying force, bringing together diverse social groups and people into a cohesive nation during a pivotal era in Indian history. The seeds of awareness were sown with the expansion of English education, primarily in key urban centers like Calcutta, Madras, and Bombay, during the late 19th century. Intellectuals of that time vociferously opposed the injustices and duplicity inherent in the prevailing societal structure.

As this newfound awareness grew, it began to focus more sharply on the concept of British rule and its profound impact on India. Informed Indians progressively became more critical of British policies imposed on the Indian

3 Phases of Indian National Movement: Moderates, Extremists, and Gandhian Era

Based on the time period, leadership, objectives, methods employed, and social base, the Indian National Movement during the years 1885 to 1947 can be categorized into three distinct phases:

1. Moderate Phase (1885-1905): INC's Constitutional Quest for Indian Representation

Leadership: During this phase, leaders like Dadabhai Naoroji, Gopal Krishna Gokhale, and others played significant roles.

Objective: The primary goal was to obtain Dominion Status within the British Empire. Moderate leaders believed in using constitutional means and petitions to achieve political reforms.

Key Features:

- The formation of the Indian National Congress (INC) in 1885 marked the beginning of this phase.
- Leaders sought greater Indian representation in government and civil service. The movement focused on addressing economic issues and social reforms.
- It was marked by petitions, negotiations, and appeals to the British government for greater Indian involvement in decision-making.

2. Extremist Phase (1905-1919): Swaraj Quest through Bold Actions

Leadership: This phase witnessed leaders like Bal Gangadhar Tilak, Bipin Chandra Pal, and Lala Lajpat Rai emerging as prominent figures.

Objective: The objective shifted from Dominion Status to Swaraj or complete self-government. Extremist leaders advocated more radical approaches and direct action against British rule.

Key Features:

- The partition of Bengal in 1905 acted as a catalyst, leading to mass protests and boycotts.
- Extremist leaders encouraged the use of non-cooperation, civil disobedience, and Swadeshi (boycott of foreign goods).

Indian National Movement List From 1857 to 1947

- The movement gained momentum with mass mobilization and a more assertive stance.
- Leaders like Tilak emphasized cultural pride and self-reliance.

3. Gandhian Phase (1919-1947): Non-Violent Quest for Independence

Leadership: Mahatma Gandhi became the central figure of this phase, with support from leaders like Jawaharlal Nehru and Sardar Patel.

Objective: The main goal was to achieve complete independence from British rule. Gandhi introduced the philosophy of non-violence (Satyagraha) as the core of the movement.

Key Features: Gandhi's Movements & India's Independence

- The Non-Cooperation Movement (1920-1922), Civil Disobedience Movement (1930-1934), and Quit India Movement (1942) were major campaigns.
- Gandhi's emphasis on non-violent resistance and self-sufficiency in the form of Khadi (handspun cloth) became symbols of the movement.
- The Quit India Movement marked a significant turning point, leading to mass arrests and intensified pressure on the British.
- Post-World War II negotiations with the British resulted in India gaining independence on August 15, 1947.

Indian National Movement List: Indian National Movement (1857-1947)

Here's a list of some key events and movements within the Indian National Movement:

Indian National Movement	Year
Revolt of 1857; Sepoy Mutiny	1857
Formation of Indian National Congress (INC)	1885
Partition of Bengal; Swadeshi Movement	1905
Formation of Muslim League	1906
Gadar Party Movement	1914
Home Rule Movement	1916-1918
Champaran Satyagraha	1917
Kheda Satyagraha	1917
Ahemdabad Mill Strike	1918
Rowlatt Satyagraha	1919
Khilafat And Non-Cooperation Movement	1920
Civil Disobedience Movement	1930

Individual Satyagraha	1940
Quit India Movement	1942

Indian National Movement: Struggle for Independence (1857-1947)

The Indian National Movement was a historic struggle against British colonial rule in India. It spanned several decades, from the late 19th century to 1947, when India finally gained independence. Here is a brief overview of the Indian National Movement:

Revolt of 1857 (Sepoy Mutiny): End of East India Company Rule, British Crown Ascendancy

- Year: 1857
- Objective: Against British East India Company rule.
- Key Figures: Nana Saheb, Rani Laxmi Bai, Bahadur Shah Zafar.
- Outcome: End of East India Company rule, beginning of direct British Crown rule.

Partition of Bengal: Sparking Swadeshi Movement and Nationalism

- Year: 1905
- Objective: Protest against the partition of Bengal.
- Impact: Birth of the Swadeshi Movement, nationalism.

Swadeshi Movement: Indian Industries, Fostering Nationalism

- Year: 1905
- Objective: Boycott of British goods, promotion of Indian-made products.
- Key Figures: Dadabhai Naoroji, Bal Gangadhar Tilak, Gopal Krishna Gokhale.
- Outcome: Revival of Indian cottage industries, rise of Nationalism.

Formation of All India Muslim League: Advocating Muslim Political Rights

- Year: 1906
- Objective: To represent Indian Muslims' political rights.
- Key Figures: Agha Khan, Mohammad Ali Jinnah.
- Outcome: Advocacy for separate electorates for Muslims.

Surat Split: Divergence in Indian National Congress

- Year: 1907
- Objective: Disagreements between Moderates and Extremists within the Indian National Congress.

- Outcome: Differentiation between Moderate and Extremist factions.

Minto-Morley Reforms (Indian Councils Act of 1909): Limited Indian Representation, Communal Shift

- Year: 1909
- Objective: Introduction of limited elected representation for Indians in legislative councils.
- Outcome: Communal representation for Muslims, separate electorates.

Ghadar Party Movement: Anti-Colonial Overthrow Efforts

- Year: 1913
- Objective: Overthrow of British colonial rule.
- Key Figures: Lala Har Dayal, Bhagwan Singh, Taraknath Das.
- Outcome: Propaganda against British rule through the “Ghadar” newspaper.

Komagata Maru Incident: Immigration Strife in Canada

- Year: 1914
- Objective: Immigration of Indians to Canada.
- Outcome: Return of the ship to India, tension between Indians and Canadians.

Home Rule Movement: Indian Quest for Self-Governance

- Year: 1916-1918
- Objective: Demand for self-governance within the British Empire.
- Key Figures: Annie Besant, Bal Gangadhar Tilak.
- Outcome: Unification of Moderate and Extremist factions within the Congress.

Champaran Satyagraha: Gandhi’s Stand for Agrarian Justice

- Year: 1917
- Objective: Protest against forced indigo cultivation.
- Key Figure: Mahatma Gandhi.
- Outcome: Champaran Agrarian Act 1918.

Kheda Satyagraha: Gandhi’s Tax Protest and Triumph

- Year: 1918
- Objective: Protest against unfair taxation during a famine.
- Key Figure: Mahatma Gandhi.
- Outcome: Suspension of tax for two years.

Rowlatt Act: Prelude to Jallianwala Bagh

- Year: 1919
- Objective: To suppress political agitation.

- Outcome: Protests and Jallianwala Bagh Massacre.

Jallianwala Bagh Massacre: Outcry and Unrest

- Year: 1919
- Objective: Protest against Rowlatt Act.
- Outcome: Public outrage, widespread unrest.

Non-Cooperation Movement: Gandhi's Peaceful Revolt

- Year: 1920-1922
- Objective: Non-violent resistance, non-cooperation with British rule.
- Key Figures: Mahatma Gandhi, Rajendra Prasad, Sardar Patel.
- Outcome: Increased political awareness, unity among Indians.

Moplah Rebellion: Struggle and Reform in 1921

- Year: 1921
- Objective: Rebellion against landlords and British rule.
- Outcome: Post-rebellion Muslim reform movement.

Bardoli Satyagraha: Patel's Tax Protest Triumph

- Year: 1928
- Objective: Protest against unfair taxes.
- Key Figure: Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel.
- Outcome: Return of seized land, reduced tax.

Simon Commission: Indian Representation Absence

- Year: 1927
- Objective: Review of the Indian constitutional system.
- Outcome: Opposition due to the absence of Indian representation.

Civil Disobedience Movement: Salt Tax Protest:

- Year: 1930-1934
- Objective: Protest against salt tax and other British policies.
- Key Figures: Mahatma Gandhi, Sarojini Naidu, C. Rajagopalachari.
- Outcome: Raised political awareness, led to negotiations.

Government of India Act, 1935: Autonomy and Federalism for India's Governance

- Year: 1935
- Objective: Introduced provincial autonomy and federal structure.
- Outcome: Paved the way for a more representative government.

Quit India Movement: Indians Demand Freedom, Facing Colonial Suppression

- Year: 1942

- Objective: Demanding an end to British colonial rule.
- Key Figure: Mahatma Gandhi
- Outcome: Suppression of the movement, increased nationalist sentiment.

Cabinet Mission Plan: India's Path to Independence

- Year: 1946
- Objective: Framework for India's independence and formation of constituent assembly.
- Outcome: Preparations for India's transition to independence.

Partition of India (1947): Birth of Nations

- Year: 1947
- Objective: Division of British India into India and Pakistan.
- Outcome: Independence and the creation of two separate nations.

Indian National Movement Moderate Phase (1885-1905)

The Moderate Phase of the Indian National Movement, spanning from 1885 to 1905, was characterized by a more cautious and gradual approach to achieving political reforms and greater participation in the British colonial administration. Here are key details about this phase:

Leadership: Naoroji, Gokhale, and More

Prominent leaders during this phase included Dadabhai Naoroji, Gopal Krishna Gokhale, Womesh Chunder Bonnerjee (the first president of the Indian National Congress), Dinshaw Wacha, and others.

Objectives: Congress' Early Goals for India

The primary objective was to attain Dominion Status for India within the British Empire. Dominion Status would grant India a significant degree of self-governance while remaining a part of the British Commonwealth.

Key Features: Constitutional Reform and Economic Independence

- The Indian National Congress (INC) was founded in 1885, marking the formal beginning of organized political opposition to British rule.

- Moderate leaders believed in using constitutional means, petitions, and negotiations to achieve political reforms. They aimed to work within the existing system to secure greater Indian representation in government and civil service.
- The movement focused on addressing economic issues, social reforms, and educational advancement.
- Dadabhai Naoroji's "Drain Theory" highlighted the economic exploitation of India by the British, emphasizing the need for economic self-sufficiency.

Key Events: Petitions, Cooperation, and Education

- Moderates presented demands for political reforms through memoranda and petitions to the British authorities. One notable petition was the "Ilbert Bill" protest in 1883 against racial discrimination in the judiciary.
- Efforts were made to build a bridge of understanding and cooperation with the British, seeking to persuade them to enact reforms voluntarily.
- The INC's early sessions focused on discussing issues such as civil rights, local self-government, and economic policies.
- Moderates also stressed the importance of Western education and the English language as tools for social and political progress.

Outcome: Foundations Laid, Reforms Awaited

- While the Moderate Phase laid the foundation for the Indian National Movement, it did not achieve the desired political reforms during this period.
- The movement's moderate approach faced limitations, as the British government was often unresponsive to their demands.
- The frustration with the lack of progress eventually led to the emergence of more radical and assertive approaches in the Extremist Phase of the Indian National Movement.

The Moderate Phase played a vital role in bringing Indian political issues to the forefront and in nurturing a sense of political awareness and unity among Indians. It set the stage for the more assertive and radical phases of the movement that followed.

Important Moderate Personalities: Architects of Political Reform

The Moderate Phase of the Indian National Movement (1885-1905) was characterized by leaders who adopted a moderate approach to achieve political reforms and gain greater

participation for Indians within the British colonial framework. Some important moderate personalities during this period included:

- **Dadabhai Naoroji:** Often referred to as the “Grand Old Man of India,” Dadabhai Naoroji was one of the founding members of the Indian National Congress (INC). He was the first Indian to be elected to the British Parliament and played a crucial role in articulating economic and political grievances of Indians under British rule. He popularized the concept of the “Drain of Wealth” from India to Britain.
- **Dinshaw Wacha:** Dinshaw Wacha was a prominent moderate leader who served as the President of the INC in 1901. He advocated for constitutional methods and believed in the power of petitions and negotiations with the British authorities.
- **William Wedderburn:** William Wedderburn was an Englishman who actively supported the Indian National Congress. He was one of the few British individuals who sympathized with the Indian cause for self-governance.
- **George Yule:** George Yule was an influential figure who contributed to the early growth of the INC. He played a key role in establishing a constructive dialogue between Indian leaders and the British government.
- **Sir Narayan Ganesh Chandavarkar:** A prominent lawyer and social reformer, Chandavarkar was a moderate leader who believed in the importance of constitutional agitation. He was one of the founding members of the INC and actively worked for Indian political representation.
- **Mahadev Govind Ranade:** Mahadev Govind Ranade was a social reformer, scholar, and moderate leader. He advocated for social and economic reforms in addition to political reforms. He founded the Poona Sarvajanic Sabha, which played a crucial role in the national movement.
- **Gopal Krishna Gokhale:** Gokhale was a highly respected moderate leader who emphasized the importance of education and moral values in achieving political reforms. He believed in “Sarvajanikarana” or the public’s participation in government.

Indian National Movement Extremist Phase (1905-1916)

The Extremist Phase of the Indian National Movement, spanning from 1905 to 1916, was characterized by a more assertive and radical approach to achieving political reforms and self-governance. Here are key details about this phase:

Indian National Movement From 1905-1918

Indian National Movement	First World War
Muslim League	Morley-Minto Reforms 1909 (Indian Council Act 1
Partition of Bengal	Swadeshi Movement
Lucknow Pact	Home Rule Movement
Surat Split	Komagata Maru Incident
Ghadar Movement	

Leadership: Vanguard of Change

Prominent leaders during this phase included Bal Gangadhar Tilak, Bipin Chandra Pal, Lala Lajpat Rai, Aurobindo Ghosh, and others. They were often referred to as the “Extremists.”

Objectives: Extremists’ Call for Self-Governance

The primary objective shifted from seeking Dominion Status within the British Empire to demanding Swaraj or complete self-government for India. Extremist leaders believed in more direct action against British rule.

Key Features: Defying Partition, Asserting Swaraj

- The phase began with the vehement protest against the partition of Bengal by the British in 1905, which was seen as a deliberate attempt to divide and rule.
- Extremist leaders encouraged the use of non-cooperation, civil disobedience, and Swadeshi (boycott of foreign goods) as means of protest against British policies.

- There was an emphasis on cultural pride and the promotion of indigenous Indian culture as a means of asserting national identity.
- Tilak's call for "Swaraj is my birthright, and I shall have it" became a rallying cry for the movement.

Key Events: Bengal Partition Sparks Swadeshi and Revolt

- The partition of Bengal in 1905 led to mass protests, boycotts, and demonstrations, with leaders like Tilak advocating for strong opposition.
- The Swadeshi Movement (1905-1908) called for the boycott of British goods and the promotion of Indian-made products.
- The Extremists organized public rallies, strikes, and protests, often resulting in clashes with the British authorities.
- The revolutionary movement, characterized by secret societies and armed resistance, gained momentum during this phase.

Outcome: Aggression, Repression, and National Mobilization

- The Extremist Phase saw a more aggressive and assertive approach that resonated with the masses, leading to increased participation in the freedom struggle.
- It marked a shift from petitions and negotiations to direct confrontation with British rule.
- While the Extremist Phase raised nationalist fervor and mobilized the masses, it also led to increased repression by the British, with many leaders being imprisoned or exiled.
- The Extremist Phase of the Indian National Movement played a pivotal role in galvanizing public support and laying the groundwork for the subsequent Gandhian Phase, which further emphasized non-violent civil disobedience as a means of achieving independence.

Causes of Indian National Movement: Influences and Catalysts

The rise of Indian nationalism was a gradual process influenced by various interconnected factors. The following are the causes and circumstances that contributed to the growth of the Indian national movement:

1. **Socio-Religious Reforms:** In the 19th century, a wave of socio-religious reform movements swept across India. Visionaries like Jyotiba Phule, Raja Ram Mohan Roy, and Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar played pivotal roles in these movements, tirelessly working to eradicate religious and social injustices. These reformers championed

causes such as the abolition of Sati and the promotion of women's education, fostering a sense of social justice and equality.

2. **Rise in Western Education:** The introduction of Western education, particularly with Lord Macaulay's "Minute on Indian Education" in 1835, aimed to create an educated class of Indians loyal to British rule. However, Indians harnessed the power of English education to unite various regions and disseminate ideas of freedom, democracy, and equality that they encountered through exposure to Western thinkers and philosophers.
3. **Revival of Vernacular Languages:** Alongside the rise of English education, Indians recognized the significance of their native languages. Vernacular languages gained popularity, and prominent writers began expressing nationalist ideas in these languages. This ensured that the ideals of freedom and liberty reached a broader audience in a language they understood, fostering unity.
4. **Effects of British Economic Policies:** British economic policies during the colonial era had devastating consequences for India, particularly for peasants and farmers. These policies led to widespread poverty, heavy debts, and economic hardships. The suffering of the masses due to British economic exploitation fueled resentment and contributed to the mobilization of nationalist sentiments.
5. **Aftermath of the Revolt of 1857:** The Revolt of 1857, often referred to as the First War of Independence, was a significant uprising against British rule. Despite its brutal suppression by the British, the revolt left a lasting impact. It deepened the sense of resentment among Indians and heightened racial tensions between the Indian populace and the British colonial rulers. The events of 1857 served as a catalyst for the subsequent rise of nationalism in India.

Factors Responsible for Indian National Movement: Factors Shaping India's Freedom Struggle

The Indian National Movement, a significant struggle for India's independence from British colonial rule, was shaped by a multitude of complex factors. These factors contributed to the emergence and evolution of the movement over several decades. Here are the key factors responsible for the Indian National Movement:

1. **Political Unity in the Country:** Under British rule, most parts of India were brought under a single administrative and political system. While this centralized control

served British interests, it also fostered a sense of unity and oneness among different regions of India, contributing to the nationalistic sentiment.

2. **Rise in the Network of Transport:** The British initially developed roads and railways in India to facilitate the transportation of raw materials. However, this infrastructure inadvertently facilitated the movement of people and ideas. Indians who preached the Indian National Movement could travel more easily from one region to another, spreading the message of freedom.
3. **Increased Communication:** The British built an extensive telegraph and postal network in India to serve their administrative needs. Indians leveraged this communication infrastructure to disseminate information about the freedom struggle, share news of events, and connect with like-minded individuals and groups across the country.
4. **Growth of the Modern Press:** The expansion of the modern press, both in English and regional languages, played a pivotal role in the success of the Indian National Movement. Newspapers, pamphlets, posters, and publications were widely distributed to propagate the idea of freedom from British rule and educate the masses.
5. **Policies of Lord Lytton:** Lord Lytton's policies, such as the Vernacular Press Act of 1878 and the Arms Act of 1878, were oppressive and curtailed freedom of expression and individual rights. These policies fueled mass anger and resentment against British rule, leading to increased support for the Indian National Movement.
6. **Racist Treatment:** British colonial authorities displayed racism and discrimination towards Indians, treating them as inferiors. The **Ilbert Bill** controversy, which initially sought to maintain British legal privileges, highlighted the unequal treatment Indians faced solely based on race, further galvanizing nationalist sentiments.
7. **Inspiration from Foreign National Movements:** Indians drew inspiration from nationalist struggles occurring in foreign countries, such as the French Revolution and the American Civil War. These events introduced new ideals of freedom, equality, and democracy, influencing the Indian National Movement.
8. **Economic Exploitation:** The economic policies of the British Raj, which led to the exploitation of Indian resources and impoverishment of the masses, fueled resentment and a desire for economic independence. This economic hardship contributed to the mobilization of nationalist sentiments.

Important Centers of Indian National Movement: Pivotal Centers of India's Freedom Movement

The Indian National Movement had several important centers and cities where significant events, meetings, and activities took place. These centers played pivotal roles in the struggle for India's independence. Here are some of the important centers of the Indian National Movement:

- **Bombay (Mumbai):** Bombay was a hub of nationalist activities and home to prominent leaders like Dadabhai Naoroji and Bal Gangadhar Tilak. It hosted the Indian National Congress sessions in 1885, 1904, and 1915.
- **Calcutta (Kolkata):** Calcutta was another major center of nationalist activities and a stronghold of the Indian National Congress. The city hosted the first session of the Indian National Congress in 1885. Leaders like Aurobindo Ghosh and Bipin Chandra Pal were active in Calcutta.
- **Delhi:** Delhi played a significant role in the Indian National Movement. The city saw the coronation of King George V in 1911, which led to the annulment of the partition of Bengal. Delhi also became the capital of India in 1912, a move that symbolized British intentions to control India.
- **Ahmedabad:** Mahatma Gandhi established Sabarmati Ashram in Ahmedabad, which served as a base for many of his non-violent movements, including the Salt Satyagraha and the Non-Cooperation Movement.
- **Lucknow:** Lucknow was a center of political activities and home to leaders like Motilal Nehru and Jawaharlal Nehru. It hosted the Congress session in 1916.
- **Nagpur:** Nagpur witnessed the historic Nagpur session of the Indian National Congress in 1920, during which the Non-Cooperation Movement was launched.
- **Lahore:** Lahore was an important center of political and cultural activities. The city hosted several Congress sessions, including the famous Lahore session of 1929 when the demand for complete independence (Purna Swaraj) was made.
- **Champaran:** Champaran in Bihar was the site of Mahatma Gandhi's first major campaign in India, the Champaran Satyagraha, in 1917. It focused on the issues faced by indigo farmers.
- **Amritsar:** Amritsar is known for the Jallianwala Bagh Massacre of 1919, where British troops opened fire on a peaceful gathering of Indians, leading to widespread outrage.

- **Dandi:** Dandi in Gujarat was the endpoint of the Salt March led by Mahatma Gandhi in 1930. This iconic march protested against the British monopoly on salt production and distribution.
- **Jhansi:** Jhansi played a role in the revolt of 1857, with Rani Laxmi Bai leading her troops in resisting British forces.
- **Indian National Movement Short Notes: Snapshot of Indian National Movement**

Here's a concise table summarizing key aspects of the Indian National Movement:

Indian National Movement	
Event	Description
Revolt of 1857	First major armed uprising against British colonial rule.
Swadeshi Movement (1905-1911)	Boycott of British goods and promotion of Indian products.
Gadar Movement (1914-1917)	Organized by Indian expatriates to liberate India from British rule.
Home Rule Movement (1916-1918)	Advocated self-governance within the British Empire.
Champaran Satyagraha (1917)	Led by Gandhi, it protested against the exploitation of indigo farmers.
Rowlatt Satyagraha (1919)	Nationwide protest against the Rowlatt Act, which allowed for arrest without trial.
Khilafat and Non-Cooperation Movement (1920)	Non-violent resistance against British rule and support for the Khilafat movement.
Civil Disobedience Movement and Dandi March (1930)	Mass protests against salt taxes and British monopoly.
Quit India Movement (1942)	Demanded an end to British rule in India.
Partition of India (1947)	Division into India and Pakistan based on religious lines.
Prominent Leaders	Mahatma Gandhi, Jawaharlal Nehru, Sardar Patel, Subhas Chandra Bose, Bhagat Singh, and many others.
Impact	Paved the way for India's independence from British colonial rule in 1947.

The Indian National Movement was a historic struggle against British colonial rule in India. Its roots can be traced back to the 19th century when India was under British colonial domination. Here's a background of the Indian National Movement:

Early Resistance (19th Century):

- The early 19th century saw the British East India Company's dominance over Indian territories through conquest and the Doctrine of Lapse, which allowed them to annex Indian states.
- Resistance against British rule emerged through various forms, including localized uprisings, such as the 1857 Rebellion (often referred to as the First War of Indian Independence), which was a significant but unsuccessful attempt to overthrow British rule.

Emergence of Political Consciousness:

- The latter half of the 19th century witnessed the rise of political consciousness among Indians, largely influenced by factors such as education, modernization, and exposure to Western ideas of democracy and nationalism.
- Reform movements like the Brahmo Samaj and Arya Samaj, as well as the works of Indian intellectuals like Raja Ram Mohan Roy and Dadabhai Naoroji, contributed to the awakening of nationalist sentiment.

Formation of Nationalist Organizations:

- The late 19th century also saw the formation of various nationalist organizations aimed at achieving political reforms and eventual self-rule. Prominent among these were the Indian National Congress (INC), founded in 1885, and the All India Muslim League (AIML), founded in 1906.
- The INC, initially a platform for Indian elites to voice grievances and seek reforms within the British framework, gradually evolved into the principal political party advocating for Indian self-rule.

Partition of Bengal and Swadeshi Movement:

- The British decision to partition the Bengal province in 1905 sparked widespread protests and gave rise to the Swadeshi Movement, which called for the boycott of British goods and the promotion of indigenous industries.
- The Swadeshi Movement saw active participation from people across different social and economic backgrounds and became a symbol of Indian unity and resistance against colonial rule.

Growth of Extremism:

- Alongside the moderate approach of the INC, there emerged a more radical wing advocating for more assertive methods to achieve self-rule. Leaders like Bal Gangadhar Tilak, Bipin Chandra Pal, and Lala Lajpat Rai played crucial roles in promoting extremist ideas and tactics.
- The extremist phase, which reached its peak around 1907, emphasized mass mobilization, civil disobedience, and the boycott of British institutions.

Impact of World War I:

- India's involvement in World War I, along with the British government's failure to deliver on its promises of greater self-governance, led to widespread disillusionment among Indians.
- The aftermath of the war witnessed increased political agitation and demands for self-rule, culminating in the historic Non-Cooperation Movement launched by Mahatma Gandhi in 1920.

The Indian National Movement continued to evolve over the decades, incorporating various strategies and ideologies, including non-violent resistance, civil disobedience, and armed struggle, ultimately leading to India's independence in 1947. It remains a monumental chapter in India's history, symbolizing the resilience and determination of its people in the face of colonial oppression.

Prior to the widespread uprising of 1857, various regional movements and rebellions against British colonial rule occurred across different parts of India. These movements often had local grievances as well as broader aspirations for autonomy and resistance against British exploitation and oppression. Here are some notable regional movements before 1857:

1. Santhal Rebellion (1855-1856):

- The Santhal Rebellion was one of the significant uprisings against British rule in eastern India, particularly in present-day Jharkhand, Bihar, and West Bengal.
- Led by tribal leaders like Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu, the Santhals revolted against the British authorities who had usurped their lands, imposed heavy taxes, and exploited them economically.
- The rebellion was eventually suppressed by the British with great brutality, but it remains a symbol of tribal resistance against colonial oppression.

2. Pabna Peasant Uprising (1873):

- The Pabna Peasant Uprising occurred in the Bengal region, particularly in the Pabna district (now in Bangladesh), in response to the British indigo planters' exploitative practices.
- Peasants revolted against the unjust indigo cultivation system, which imposed heavy rents and forced labor on them.
- The uprising was eventually crushed by the British, but it highlighted the grievances of the rural peasantry against colonial economic policies.

3. Khasi and Jaintia Hills Uprising (1829-1833):

- In the Khasi and Jaintia Hills of present-day Meghalaya, the local tribes revolted against British attempts to annex their territories and impose taxes.
- Led by tribal leaders like Tirot Sing, the uprising involved guerrilla warfare against British forces.
- Though the revolt was eventually suppressed, it demonstrated the resistance of indigenous tribes against British expansionism.

4. Kol Rebellion (1831-1832):

- The Kol Rebellion, also known as the Munda Rebellion, took place in present-day Bihar and Jharkhand.
- The Kols and Mundas, marginalized tribal communities, rose up against British oppression and exploitation, particularly in the form of excessive taxation and forced labor.
- Despite initial successes, the rebellion was quelled by the British, leading to the execution of several tribal leaders.

These regional movements, along with others not mentioned here, contributed to the growing discontent and resistance against British colonial rule in India. While they may not have achieved lasting success in their immediate goals, they played a crucial role in laying the groundwork for the larger-scale revolt of 1857 and in shaping the narrative of Indian resistance against colonialism.

During the Indian Rebellion of 1857, also known as the Indian Mutiny or the First War of Independence, numerous local movements and rebellions erupted across different regions of India. These local uprisings were often sparked by various grievances against British colonial rule and were part of the broader uprising against British authority. Here are some notable local movements and rebellions during the Revolution of 1857:

1. **Awadh (Oudh) Rebellion:**

- The rebellion in Awadh, a region in present-day Uttar Pradesh, was one of the most significant and widespread uprisings during the 1857 revolt.
- Awadh had been annexed by the British under the Doctrine of Lapse, leading to the dispossession of local rulers and landlords.
- The rebellion was led by leaders such as Begum Hazrat Mahal, Birjis Qadir, and Kunwar Singh, and it saw widespread participation from soldiers, peasants, and nobility.
- The rebels briefly managed to establish control over Lucknow and other parts of Awadh before the British regained control after a prolonged siege.

2. **Delhi Uprising:**

- Delhi was one of the epicenters of the 1857 revolt, with the rebellion centered around the Mughal Emperor Bahadur Shah II.
- The uprising in Delhi began with Indian soldiers (sepoys) stationed there mutinying against British officers.
- Bahadur Shah II was proclaimed the Emperor of India by the rebels, and Delhi became the focal point of resistance against British rule.
- The British eventually recaptured Delhi after intense fighting and subsequently exiled Bahadur Shah II.

3. **Bihar and Eastern India:**

- Various pockets of Bihar and eastern India witnessed significant unrest and rebellion during the 1857 revolt.
- Leaders like Kunwar Singh in Bihar and Titu Mir in Bengal led local uprisings against British authority.
- Peasants, zamindars (landlords), and tribal communities participated in these rebellions, motivated by grievances such as land annexation, high taxes, and religious and cultural suppression.

4. **Punjab and North-West Frontier Region:**

- While the Punjab region remained relatively calm during the initial stages of the revolt, there were instances of resistance against British rule.
- Leaders like Maulvi Ahmadullah Shah in the North-West Frontier region (present-day Pakistan) led local uprisings against British forces.
- However, the Punjab remained largely loyal to the British, with Sikh and Punjabi soldiers playing a crucial role in suppressing the rebellion in other parts of India.

These are just a few examples of the numerous local movements and rebellions that occurred during the Indian Rebellion of 1857. While the revolt ultimately failed to overthrow British rule, it left a significant impact on Indian society and played a pivotal role in shaping the trajectory of the Indian independence movement in the years to come.

During the Indian Rebellion of 1857, also known as the Indian Mutiny or the First War of Independence, several tribal communities in various parts of India participated in the uprising against British colonial rule. While the rebellion was primarily fueled by grievances among sepoys (Indian soldiers in the British East India Company's army) and other sections of society, certain tribal groups also joined the revolt, especially in regions where they felt marginalized or oppressed by British policies. Here are some instances of tribal involvement and rebellion during the Revolution of 1857:

1. **Santhal Rebellion (1855-1856):**

- While technically predating the 1857 revolt, the Santhal Rebellion played a significant role in the broader context of resistance against British rule in eastern India.
 - The Santhal tribe in present-day Jharkhand, Bihar, and West Bengal rose up against British authorities, protesting against land revenue policies, exploitation by moneylenders, and other grievances.
 - Though the rebellion was suppressed by the British with considerable force, it demonstrated the potential for tribal communities to resist colonial oppression.
- 2. Birsa Munda and the Munda Rebellion:**
- The Munda tribe, primarily inhabiting the Chotanagpur plateau in present-day Jharkhand, played a role in the uprising against British rule.
 - Birsa Munda, a prominent tribal leader, emerged as a symbol of resistance against British encroachment on tribal lands and imposition of taxes.
 - While the Munda Rebellion did not directly coincide with the 1857 revolt, it exemplified the ongoing resistance by tribal communities against colonial oppression in the region.
- 3. Paharia Rebellion:**
- The Paharia tribe, inhabiting parts of present-day Jharkhand and West Bengal, also participated in the rebellion against British rule.
 - They joined forces with other local rebels and leaders to resist British authority, particularly in areas where they faced land alienation and economic exploitation.
- 4. Kol (Mundas) Rebellion:**
- The Kol or Munda tribe in present-day Bihar and Jharkhand engaged in sporadic acts of rebellion against British rule during the 1857 revolt.
 - The Kols, like other tribal communities, were often marginalized and exploited by British colonial policies, leading to occasional outbreaks of resistance.

While tribal involvement in the 1857 revolt varied across regions and communities, it underscored the diversity of participants and grievances within the broader movement against British colonialism. These tribal rebellions, along with other forms of resistance, contributed to the overall atmosphere of unrest and defiance against British rule during this period.

Birsa Munda was a prominent tribal leader and freedom fighter who played a crucial role in the struggle against British colonial rule in India. He emerged as a powerful voice for the rights and autonomy of tribal communities, particularly the Munda tribe, in the Chotanagpur plateau region of present-day Jharkhand.

Here are some key points about Birsa Munda and his contributions:

- 1. Early Life and Background:**
 - Birsa Munda was born in 1875 in the Ulihatu village of present-day Jharkhand, which was then part of the Chotanagpur region under British colonial rule.
 - He belonged to the Munda tribe, one of the indigenous tribal communities of the region, and grew up witnessing the exploitation and marginalization of his people by British colonial authorities and local landlords.
- 2. Resistance Against British Rule:**

- Inspired by the injustices faced by his community, Birsa Munda began organizing protests and mobilizing fellow tribals to resist British oppression.
 - He advocated for the rights of tribal communities to their ancestral lands, cultural practices, and autonomy from outside interference.
 - Birsa Munda's movement gained momentum as he traveled across the region, rallying support and spreading awareness about the need for tribal unity and resistance against colonial exploitation.
- 3. Formation of the Ulgulan Movement:**
- In 1899, Birsa Munda launched the Ulgulan (meaning "The Great Tumult" or "The Great Uprising") movement, also known as the Birsa Munda Rebellion or the Munda Rebellion.
 - The movement aimed to challenge British dominance and the oppressive practices of landlords and moneylenders, as well as to reclaim tribal rights and sovereignty over their lands.
 - Birsa Munda's charisma, leadership, and ability to mobilize people made him a significant figure in the uprising, which spread across the Chotanagpur region.
- 4. Legacy and Impact:**
- Despite facing significant challenges and British reprisals, the Ulgulan movement inspired a sense of empowerment and solidarity among tribal communities.
 - Birsa Munda's legacy as a champion of tribal rights and a symbol of resistance against colonial oppression remains deeply revered in Jharkhand and across India.
 - His teachings and vision for social justice continue to inspire movements advocating for the rights of indigenous peoples and marginalized communities.

Birsa Munda's contributions to India's freedom struggle and his efforts to uplift and empower tribal communities have earned him a revered place in Indian history as a fearless leader and social reformer.

Sidhu Murmu and Kanhu Murmu were significant figures in the Santhal Rebellion of 1855-1856, also known as the Santal Hul or the Santhal Uprising. This rebellion was one of the most notable tribal uprisings against British colonial rule in India and took place in the present-day states of Jharkhand, Bihar, and West Bengal. Here's an overview of Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu and their roles in the rebellion:

- 1. Sidhu Murmu:**
 - Sidhu Murmu, along with his brother Kanhu Murmu, was a Santhal tribal leader who played a pivotal role in organizing and leading the rebellion against British authority.
 - The Santhals, an indigenous tribal community, were aggrieved by British policies that led to land alienation, economic exploitation, and social discrimination.
 - Sidhu Murmu, described as a charismatic and courageous leader, mobilized the Santhal community to resist British oppression and reclaim their rights to their ancestral lands and way of life.
- 2. Kanhu Murmu:**
 - Kanhu Murmu, the brother of Sidhu Murmu, was a key figure in the Santhal Rebellion and worked closely with Sidhu to organize and lead the uprising.

- Kanhu Murmu, like his brother, was deeply committed to the cause of Santhal autonomy and fought against the encroachment of British settlers and the imposition of unjust taxes and laws.
 - Together, Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu rallied Santhal warriors and waged guerrilla warfare against British forces and local landlords who collaborated with the colonial administration.
- 3. Role in the Rebellion:**
- The Santhal Rebellion erupted in 1855 when Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu, along with other Santhal leaders, mobilized thousands of Santhal tribesmen to rise up against British authority.
 - The rebellion was marked by acts of sabotage, attacks on British outposts, and the establishment of Santhal self-rule in certain areas.
 - Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu's leadership inspired widespread participation in the uprising, and their tactics often caught British forces off guard.
- 4. Legacy:**
- While the Santhal Rebellion was eventually suppressed by British forces with considerable brutality, the resistance led by Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu left a lasting impact on the Santhal community and on India's struggle against colonial rule.
 - Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu are revered as heroes and symbols of Santhal pride and resilience. Their bravery and sacrifice continue to be celebrated in Santhal folklore and in the collective memory of the Santhal people.

Sidhu and Kanhu Murmu's leadership in the Santhal Rebellion exemplifies the spirit of indigenous resistance against colonial oppression and the struggle for autonomy and dignity.

Unit 5-

Resistance to British Rule and Indian Renaissance

I. First war of Indian independence: 1857- Nature, causes, events, results and impact. Failure of the struggle.

II. Role of women in the the struggleLaxmi Bai, Avanti Bai and Baija Bai.

III. Indian Renaissance-Nature, causes and consequences. Socio-Religious movements- Raja Ram Mohan Rai, Ishwar Chand Vidhya Sagar, Dayanand Sraswati

The resistance to British rule in India and the Indian Renaissance were two interconnected phenomena that emerged in response to colonial domination and cultural reformation. Here's a brief overview of each:

Resistance to British Rule:

1. **Early Forms of Resistance:** Resistance to British rule in India began almost as soon as the British East India Company established its presence in the subcontinent. Local rulers, such as the Mysore ruler Tipu Sultan and the Maratha Empire, resisted British expansionism through military campaigns.
2. **Rebellions and Uprisings:** The 19th century witnessed several major rebellions and uprisings against British rule, including the 1857 Rebellion (also known as the Indian Mutiny or the First War of Independence). These revolts were sparked by various grievances, including economic exploitation, cultural and religious suppression, and the annexation of territories.
3. **Nationalist Movements:** As the 19th century progressed, the Indian National Congress (INC) emerged as a platform for political agitation and reform. Leaders like Dadabhai Naoroji, Bal Gangadhar Tilak, and Mohandas Karamchand Gandhi employed various tactics, including nonviolent resistance, civil disobedience, and boycotts, to challenge British rule.

Indian Renaissance:

1. **Intellectual and Cultural Awakening:** The Indian Renaissance, also known as the Bengal Renaissance, was a cultural and intellectual movement that emerged in Bengal in the late 18th and 19th centuries. It was characterized by a revival of Indian art, literature, philosophy, and social reform.
2. **Reform Movements:** Influential figures like Raja Ram Mohan Roy and Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar spearheaded social and religious reform movements aimed at eradicating social evils such as Sati (the immolation of widows), child marriage, and caste discrimination. They also advocated for women's rights and modern education.
3. **Literary and Artistic Revival:** The Indian Renaissance saw a flourishing of literature, poetry, and art. Writers like Rabindranath Tagore and Bankim Chandra Chattopadhyay explored themes of national identity, spirituality, and social reform through their works. The Bengal School of Art, founded by Abanindranath Tagore, sought to revive traditional Indian art forms.
4. **Educational Reforms:** Efforts were made to modernize education and promote scientific inquiry. Institutions like the Calcutta Medical College and the University of Calcutta were established, and English education gained prominence alongside vernacular languages.

Overall, the resistance to British rule and the Indian Renaissance were both responses to the challenges posed by colonialism and represented attempts to assert Indian identity, culture, and autonomy. While the resistance focused on political liberation, the Renaissance focused on cultural and intellectual rejuvenation, both contributing to the broader movement towards Indian independence.

The First War of Indian Independence, also known as the Indian Rebellion of 1857 or the Sepoy Mutiny, was a significant uprising against British rule in India. Here's an overview of its nature, causes, events, results, impact, and the reasons for its failure:

Nature:

- The rebellion was a widespread and multifaceted uprising involving various sections of Indian society, including soldiers (sepoys), peasants, landlords, nobility, and intellectuals.
- It was characterized by a combination of political, economic, social, and religious grievances against British colonial rule.
- The rebellion saw both coordinated military actions and spontaneous outbreaks of violence across different regions of India.

Causes:

- The immediate trigger for the rebellion was the introduction of new Enfield rifles by the British, which required soldiers to bite off the cartridge ends, rumored to be greased with cow and pig fat, offending Hindu and Muslim religious sentiments.
- However, the rebellion was fueled by deeper grievances, including economic exploitation, land annexation, racial discrimination, cultural and religious suppression, and the loss of traditional authority and status.

Events:

- The rebellion began in Meerut on May 10, 1857, when Indian soldiers (sepoys) refused to use the new cartridges and were subsequently court-martialed and imprisoned.
- The mutiny quickly spread to other parts of northern and central India, including Delhi, Kanpur, Lucknow, Jhansi, and Bareilly, as well as Bengal, Bihar, and parts of present-day Uttar Pradesh.
- Rebels captured several key cities and forts, including Delhi and Kanpur, and engaged in pitched battles against British forces.
- The rebellion lasted for about a year, marked by intense fighting, atrocities on both sides, and acts of brutality.

Results and Impact:

- The rebellion was eventually suppressed by British forces, aided by loyal Indian troops, reinforcements from Britain, and ruthless tactics.
- The British East India Company's rule was replaced by direct control of the British Crown, marking the end of the Company's rule in India.
- The rebellion led to significant changes in British policies, including the abolition of the East India Company, the reorganization of the Indian administration under the British Crown, and the end of the Doctrine of Lapse.
- It also prompted the British government to adopt a policy of cautious reforms, including greater respect for religious and cultural sensitivities, and the recruitment of more European troops in the Indian army.

Failure of the Struggle:

- Despite its initial successes and widespread support, the rebellion ultimately failed to achieve its goals of overthrowing British rule and establishing Indian independence.

- The rebellion lacked centralized leadership and coordination, leading to fragmentation and disunity among the rebels.
- The British employed superior military strength, strategic planning, and divide-and-rule tactics to suppress the rebellion.
- The rebellion also faced opposition from sections of Indian society that remained loyal to the British, including some princely states, landlords, and educated elites.

Overall, while the First War of Indian Independence failed to achieve its immediate objectives, it left a lasting impact on India's struggle for independence, inspiring future generations of freedom fighters and contributing to the eventual end of British colonial rule in India.

Revolt of 1857 UPSC Notes: Causes & Effects of the Revolt

The Revolt of 1857 was a major uprising in India between 1857–58 against the unjust rule of the British East India Company. The revolt served as the British Crown's sovereign power. The revolt of 1857 started on May 10, 1857, at Meerut as a sepoy mutiny. Sepoys initiated it in the Bengal Presidency against British officers. The British East India Company's rule came to an end as a result of this Independence struggle. This revolt was, however, largely confined to parts of Northern and Central India. Despite the British granting amnesty to rebels not involved in murder on 1 November 1858, the formal declaration of the end of hostilities did not occur until 8 July 1859.

What was the Revolt of 1857?

The Revolt of 1857 is also known as the Indian Rebellion of 1857. It was a major uprising in India in 1857–58 against the rule of the British East India Company. The rebellion began on 10 May 1857 in the form of a mutiny of sepoys of the Company's army in the garrison town of Meerut. It then erupted into other mutinies and civilian rebellions, chiefly in the upper Gangetic plain and central India.

Immediate Cause of the Revolt of 1857

- The immediate cause of the Revolt of 1857 was when the 'Enfield' rifle was introduced.
- Before this, soldiers had to carry gunpowder & bullets along with their rifles. There was a rumor that aroused that the cartridge was greased with pig & cow fat.
- As the pig is taboo in Muslims & the cow is sacred in the Hindu religion, soldiers refused to use the cartridge.
- Company officers became aware of the rumors through reports of an altercation between a high-caste sepoy and a low-caste laborer.
- There were also rumors that the British sought to destroy the religions of the Indian people and force the soldiers to break their religious beliefs. However, this was not the only reason, as multiple other causes, i.e., Religious, Political, Economic, and Social Causes, contributed to the Revolt of 1857.

Causes of Revolt of 1857

The expansionist and imperialist policies of the British East India Company had negative impacts on all sections of society, including rulers, peasants, and traders. The revolt of 1857 was not solely triggered by one policy or event; instead, it arose from a combination of political, economic, administrative, and socio-religious factors. These causes are discussed briefly below:

Economic Causes

- The peasants suffered under the land revenue policies of the British East India Company. It is facing heavy taxes and resorting to loans with high interest rates from moneylenders and traders.
- Non-payment resulted in the confiscation of their lands, leaving them without a means of livelihood.
- With the annexation of Indian states by the British, rulers could no longer support artisans and craftworkers, leading them to a state of misery.
- The economic policies of the British East India Company had a devastating impact on Indian industries and handicrafts.
- They imposed steep tariffs on Indian goods, causing a decline in the export of cotton and silk, which eventually ceased by the mid-nineteenth century.

Administrative Causes

The administration of the British East India Company needed more efficiency and effectiveness. Even though Sir Thomas Munro proposed the employment of Indians, no action was taken by the British in that regard. Corruption was widespread within the company's administration.

Political Causes of Revolt of 1857

- In the late 1840s, Lord Dalhousie implemented the Doctrine of Lapse.
- The Doctrine of Lapse policy, introduced by the British East India Company, denied the adopted children of rulers their right to succession, causing resentment among rulers like Nana Sahib and Rani Lakshmibai.
- The British also enforced aggressive policies like Subsidiary alliance and effective control, intervening in the internal affairs of states, which further fueled discontent among rulers.
- Following the death of Mughal ruler Faqir-ud-Din, Lord Canning proclaimed that the succeeding prince must renounce regal titles and ancestral properties of the Mughal empire, which deeply affected the sentiments of Indian Muslims.

Socio-Religious Causes

- The social and religious causes of the revolt were:

- the rapidly spreading Western Civilisation in India,
- the introduction of the railways and telegraph, and
- the abolition of practices like sati and female infanticide.

These changes were seen as a threat to traditional Indian society and culture by many people.

- The military causes of the revolt were:
 - the low pay of Indian sepoys,
 - the need that they serve in areas far away from their homes, and
 - the introduction of the Enfield rifle. These used cartridges that were rumored to be greased with cow and pig fat.

These factors led to widespread discontent among the sepoys, who were the backbone of the British army in India.

Course Of Revolt Of 1857 in Chronological Order

The simmering discontent among the Indian sepoys against the British East India Company was further fuelled by the order to use those greased cartridges. Sepoys refused to use the greased cartridges. This was considered insubordination by the British officials, who began to impose harsh punishments for sepoys. Thus began the revolt of 1857.

Let us discuss the course of the revolt of 1857 briefly.

Date	Events
2 February 1857	The 19th Native Infantry at Berhampur, who refused to use the Enfield rifle, broke out in mutiny. Soon, they were disbanded.
8 April 1857	Mangal Pandey, a sepoy of the 34th Native Infantry, was executed for firing at the sergeant major, and the 34th Native Infantry was disbanded.
10 May 1857	The revolt broke out at Meerut.
11 to 30 May 1857	Bahadur Shah Zafar was proclaimed the Emperor of India. Gradually, the revolt broke out in Delhi, Bombay, Aligarh, Ferozepur, Bulandshahr, Etawah, Moradabad, Bareilly, Shahjahanpur, and other stations in Uttar Pradesh.
June 1857	Outbreaks at Gwalior, Jhansi, Allahabad, Faizabad, Lucknow, Bharatpur etc.
July & August 1857	Mutinies at places like Indore, Mhow, Nerbudda districts, and a few places in Punjab.
September 1857	Delhi was recaptured by the British East India Company.
November 1857	General Windham was defeated by the rebels outside Kanpur.
December 1857	The Battle of Kanpur was won by Sir Colin Campbell.
March 1857	Lucknow was recaptured by the British.

April 1857	Jhansi was captured by the British by fighting against Rani Laxmibai.
May 1857	Bareilly, Kalpi, and Jagdishpur were recaptured by the British.
July to December 1857	Gradually, British authority was re-established in India.

Leaders of Revolt of 1857

In the following table, the storm centres of the revolt of 1857, the leaders who led the revolt at those centres and the British generals who suppressed the revolt are listed.

Centres Of Revolt	Leaders of Revolt of 1857	British Generals Who Suppressed The Revolt
Delhi	General Bakht Khan	Lieutenant Willoughby, John Nicholson, and Lieutenant Hudson.
Kanpur	Nana Saheb	Sir Hugh Wheeler and Sir Colin Campbell.
Lucknow	Begum Hazrat Mahal	Henry Lawrence, Brigadier Inglis, Henry Havelock, James Outram, and Sir Colin Campbell.
Bareilly	Khan Bahadur	James Outram
Bihar	Kunwar Singh	Sir Colin Campbell
Faizabad	Maulvi Ahmadullah	Sir Colin Campbell
Jhansi	Rani Laxmibai	Sir Hugh Rose

Reasons For Failure Of Revolt Of 1857

The causes for the failure of the revolt of 1857 are listed below.

- Lack of coordination and unified leadership among the rebel forces.
- Superior military strength and resources of the British East India Company.
- Divide among different groups involved in the revolt, including regional, religious, and social divisions.
- Inadequate communication and slow dissemination of information among rebel forces.
- Lack of widespread support from Indian rulers and nobility.
- Strategic mistakes made by rebel leaders, such as poor planning and execution of military campaigns.
- Limited access to modern weaponry and military training for the rebel forces.
- British ability to exploit internal conflicts and rivalries within the rebel groups.
- British success in winning over or neutralizing key sections of Indian society, including some princely states.
- Reinstatement of British control and reinforcement of colonial rule after the suppression of the revolt.

Impact of 1857 Revolt

The result of the revolt of 1857 is listed below.

- End of the East India Company's rule: The East India Company had ruled India for over a century. The Revolt of 1857 showed that it was no longer able to maintain control of the colony. The British government decided to abolish the company and take direct control of India.
- Establishment of direct British rule: After the revolt, India was ruled directly by the British Crown. This meant that the British government had more control over the administration of India. They could make decisions without having to consult the East India Company.
- Creation of the Indian Civil Service: The Indian Civil Service was created in 1858. This was to provide a cadre of British officials to administer India. The ICS was recruited through a competitive examination. It was trained in British law and administration.
- Rise in nationalism among Indians: The Revolt of 1857 showed Indians that they could unite against the British and fight for their independence. This led to a rise in nationalism among Indians. It also led to the formation of new political organizations, such as the Indian National Congress.
- Renewed interest in Indian culture and heritage: Many Indians began to look back to their past and take pride in their traditions. This led to a revival of Indian art, literature, and music.
- Reorganization of the Army: The British army was reorganized to reduce the risk of another mutiny. The proportion of British soldiers in the Indian army was increased. Indian soldiers were no longer allowed to serve in groups from the same region.

Conclusion

The Revolt of 1857, an anti-colonial movement that fought against the imperialist policies of the British East India Company, is an important event that took place in Indian history. Though the revolt was suppressed later, it shook the foundation of British rule in India. With the end of the revolt of 1857, the era of territorial aggrandizement also ended. However, it paved the way for India's economic exploitation era.

The role of women in the struggle against British colonial rule in India was significant, although often overlooked in historical narratives. Women played various roles, including as leaders, fighters, organizers, and supporters, contributing to the broader movement for independence. Here's a look at the roles of Rani Lakshmibai, Avantibai, and Rani Baija Bai in the struggle:

1-Rani Lakshmibai:

Rani Lakshmibai, also known as the Rani of Jhansi or Jhansi ki Rani, was one of the most prominent figures in the Indian Rebellion of 1857. Her courageous leadership and defiance against British colonial rule have made her a legendary figure in Indian history. Here's an overview of her life and contributions:

Early Life:

- Lakshmibai was born as Manikarnika Tambe on November 19, 1828, in Varanasi (then known as Benares) in present-day Uttar Pradesh, India.
- She was the daughter of Moropant Tambe, a Brahmin from Maharashtra, and was educated in martial arts, horse riding, and archery from a young age.

Marriage to the Raja of Jhansi:

- In 1842, Manikarnika was married to the Maharaja Gangadhar Rao Newalkar, the ruler of the princely state of Jhansi, at the age of 14, and was given the name Lakshmibai.
- Despite not having children of her own, Lakshmibai adopted a son named Damodar Rao, who was later declared the heir to the throne of Jhansi.

Leadership During the Rebellion of 1857:

- When the Indian Rebellion of 1857 broke out, Lakshmibai became deeply involved in the resistance against British rule.
- After the death of her husband in 1853, the British East India Company refused to recognize her adopted son as the heir to the throne of Jhansi, citing the Doctrine of Lapse.
- Lakshmibai vehemently opposed the British annexation of Jhansi and refused to surrender her kingdom. Instead, she prepared to defend Jhansi against British forces.

Defence of Jhansi:

- In March 1858, Jhansi came under siege by British forces led by Sir Hugh Rose.
- Despite being outnumbered and outgunned, Lakshmibai led her troops into battle and displayed remarkable courage and leadership.
- She actively participated in the defense of Jhansi and inspired her soldiers to fight bravely against the British.

Death:

- On June 17, 1858, British forces breached the walls of Jhansi, and fierce fighting ensued.
- Lakshmibai, dressed as a man, mounted on her horse, and with her infant son strapped to her back, fought valiantly until the end.
- Rather than surrendering to the British, Lakshmibai bravely charged into the thick of battle and was eventually killed in combat.

Legacy:

- Rani Lakshmibai's bravery and sacrifice made her a symbol of Indian resistance against British colonialism.
 - She is remembered as a national hero and a symbol of women's empowerment in India.
 - Lakshmibai's legacy continues to inspire generations of Indians, and her memory is celebrated in numerous folk songs, poems, and stories. She remains a revered figure in Indian history and culture, epitomizing the spirit of courage, defiance, and sacrifice in the struggle for independence.
- Rani Lakshmibai, also known as the Rani of Jhansi, was one of the most prominent figures in the Indian Rebellion of 1857.
 - She was the queen of the princely state of Jhansi and played a crucial role in the rebellion, leading her troops into battle against the British forces.
 - Lakshmibai actively participated in the defense of Jhansi when it came under siege by British forces. She displayed exceptional courage and leadership, inspiring her soldiers to fight bravely.
 - Despite facing overwhelming odds, Rani Lakshmibai refused to surrender and became a symbol of resistance against British rule. Her valor and sacrifice are celebrated in Indian folklore and history.

2. Avantibai:

Avantibai
ChatGPT

Avantibai was a courageous queen and warrior who played a significant role in the Indian Rebellion of 1857, also known as the Indian Mutiny or the First War of Independence. Her bravery and leadership have made her a symbol of resistance against British colonial rule. Here's an overview of Avantibai's life and contributions:

Background:

- Avantibai was the queen of the princely state of Ramgarh, which was located in present-day Madhya Pradesh, India.
- She was married to Raja Vikramaditya Singh, the ruler of Ramgarh.

Role in the Rebellion:

- During the Indian Rebellion of 1857, Avantibai actively participated in the resistance against British rule.
- When her husband, Raja Vikramaditya Singh, was killed in battle during the early stages of the rebellion, Avantibai took command of the Ramgarh forces and continued to fight against the British.
- Avantibai rallied her troops and led them in several engagements against British forces, displaying remarkable courage and determination in the face of adversity.

Military Campaign:

- Avantibai's forces engaged in guerrilla warfare tactics, utilizing the rugged terrain of the region to their advantage.
- She strategically planned attacks on British convoys, supply lines, and outposts, disrupting British operations in the area.
- Avantibai's leadership inspired her troops to fight fiercely against the British, despite being outnumbered and outgunned.

Capture and Death:

- Avantibai's valor and defiance attracted the attention of the British, who launched a campaign to capture her.
- Eventually, Avantibai was betrayed by a trusted aide, who revealed her whereabouts to the British.
- Rather than surrendering to the British, Avantibai chose to end her own life by taking poison, preferring death to capture and humiliation.

Legacy:

- Avantibai's courage and sacrifice have earned her a place in Indian history as a symbol of women's participation in the struggle for independence.
- She remains a revered figure in the region of Ramgarh and is celebrated for her bravery and leadership.
- Avantibai's legacy continues to inspire generations of Indians, particularly women, to stand up against oppression and injustice.

Avantibai's story serves as a reminder of the significant contributions made by women in India's fight for freedom and independence. Her bravery and sacrifice are honored and remembered as part of the larger narrative of resistance against colonial rule.

- Avantibai was another notable female leader who played a significant role in the Indian Rebellion of 1857.
- She was the queen of the princely state of Ramgarh in present-day Madhya Pradesh.
- When her husband, Raja Vikramaditya Singh, was killed in battle during the rebellion, Avantibai took command of the Ramgarh forces and continued to fight against the British.
- Avantibai led her troops in several engagements against British forces, displaying remarkable courage and determination in the face of adversity.
- Eventually, Avantibai was betrayed by a trusted aide and captured by the British. Rather than surrendering, she chose to end her own life to avoid capture.

3. Rani Baija Bai:

Rani Baija Bai was a notable figure during the Indian Rebellion of 1857, also known as the Indian Mutiny or the First War of Independence. She played a significant role in supporting the rebellion and resisting British colonial rule. Here's an overview of Rani Baija Bai's life and contributions:

Background:

- Rani Baija Bai was the queen of the princely state of Gwalior, located in present-day Madhya Pradesh, India.
- She belonged to the Maratha dynasty of Scindias, which ruled Gwalior.

Role in the Rebellion:

- During the Indian Rebellion of 1857, when Gwalior came under British control, Rani Baija Bai actively supported the rebellion against British rule.
- She provided assistance to rebel forces and played a crucial role in organizing and mobilizing support for the rebellion among the people of Gwalior.
- Rani Baija Bai's support for the rebellion contributed to the resistance against British rule in the region.

Military Support:

- Rani Baija Bai's influence and resources were instrumental in aiding rebel forces in Gwalior.
- She provided financial and material support to rebel leaders and troops, helping to sustain their resistance against British forces.
- Her backing bolstered the morale of rebel fighters and encouraged others to join the struggle against colonial oppression.

Contribution to Resistance:

- Rani Baija Bai's active involvement in the rebellion helped to maintain pressure on British forces in the region and hindered their efforts to consolidate control.
- Her leadership and support contributed to the resilience of the rebellion and prolonged the resistance against British rule in Gwalior.
- Rani Baija Bai's defiance and commitment to the cause of independence inspired others to join the struggle and contributed to the broader movement against colonialism.

Legacy:

- Rani Baija Bai's contributions to the Indian Rebellion of 1857 are remembered as part of the larger narrative of resistance against British colonial rule.
- Her bravery, leadership, and support for the rebellion have earned her a place in Indian history as a symbol of defiance and courage.
- Rani Baija Bai's legacy continues to inspire generations of Indians to stand up against oppression and injustice.

While Rani Baija Bai's role in the rebellion may not be as well-known as some other figures, her contributions were nonetheless significant in the struggle against British colonialism. Her support for the rebellion helped to sustain resistance efforts and contributed to the eventual independence of India.

- Rani Baija Bai was the queen of the princely state of Gwalior in present-day Madhya Pradesh.
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- She played a crucial role in organizing and mobilizing support for the rebellion among the people of Gwalior.
- Rani Baija Bai's support for the rebellion contributed to the resistance against British rule in the region and inspired others to join the struggle for independence.

These women, along with countless others, demonstrated extraordinary courage, leadership, and sacrifice in the struggle against British colonialism. Their contributions serve as a reminder of the important role played by women in India's quest for freedom and independence.

The Indian Renaissance, also known as the Bengal Renaissance, was a cultural and intellectual movement that emerged in Bengal in the late 18th and 19th centuries. It marked a period of intellectual awakening, social reform, and cultural revival in India. Here's an overview of its nature, causes, and consequences:

Nature:

1. **Intellectual Revival:** The Indian Renaissance was characterized by a revival of Indian art, literature, philosophy, and scholarship. It saw a renewed interest in India's rich cultural and intellectual heritage.
2. **Social Reform:** The Renaissance also witnessed efforts to reform social practices and institutions. Reformers aimed to eradicate social evils such as Sati (the immolation of widows), child marriage, caste discrimination, and the oppression of women.
3. **Cultural Exchange:** The Renaissance facilitated cultural exchange and dialogue between Indian and Western ideas. It was influenced by European Enlightenment ideals, as well as by Indian philosophical traditions such as Vedanta and Bhakti.
4. **Promotion of Vernacular Languages:** There was a resurgence of interest in vernacular languages, with writers and intellectuals producing literature in languages such as Bengali, Hindi, Marathi, and Tamil. This helped to democratize knowledge and make it accessible to a wider audience.

Causes:

1. **Impact of Colonialism:** The encounter with European colonialism and Western ideas prompted Indian intellectuals to reassess their cultural identity and heritage. They sought to assert the value of Indian civilization in the face of colonial denigration.
2. **Social and Religious Reform Movements:** The Indian Renaissance was influenced by social and religious reform movements such as the Brahmo Samaj, Arya Samaj, and Ramakrishna Mission. These movements aimed to promote rationality, social equality, and spiritual renewal.
3. **Contact with Western Ideas:** The spread of Western education and the influence of European Enlightenment ideas introduced Indians to new concepts of individualism, human rights, democracy, and scientific inquiry. This stimulated intellectual curiosity and debate.

4. **Leadership of Visionary Figures:** The Renaissance was spearheaded by visionary leaders and intellectuals such as Raja Ram Mohan Roy, Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar, Bankim Chandra Chattopadhyay, Rabindranath Tagore, and Swami Vivekananda. Their ideas and activism catalyzed the intellectual and cultural ferment of the period.

Consequences:

1. **Cultural Revival:** The Indian Renaissance led to a resurgence of Indian art, literature, music, and philosophy. It helped to revive and reinterpret classical Indian traditions and fostered creativity and innovation in various fields.
2. **Social Reform:** The Renaissance contributed to the abolition of social evils and the promotion of social justice and equality. Reforms initiated during this period laid the foundation for modern Indian society.
3. **Intellectual Awakening:** The Renaissance fostered critical thinking, scientific inquiry, and intellectual exchange. It laid the groundwork for the development of modern Indian literature, science, and philosophy.
4. **National Awakening:** The Indian Renaissance played a crucial role in the awakening of national consciousness and the emergence of Indian nationalism. It instilled a sense of pride in India's cultural heritage and inspired Indians to strive for political independence.

In summary, the Indian Renaissance was a transformative period in Indian history characterized by cultural revival, social reform, and intellectual awakening. It helped to shape modern Indian identity and played a pivotal role in India's journey towards independence and progress.

Socio-religious movements in India have played a significant role in shaping the country's social, cultural, and religious landscape. These movements emerged in response to various social, religious, and political challenges, and they sought to bring about reform, revival, and renewal in Indian society. Here are some key socio-religious movements in India:

1. **Brahmo Samaj:**
 - Founded by Raja Ram Mohan Roy in 1828, the Brahmo Samaj was one of the earliest socio-religious reform movements in India.
 - It aimed to reform Hindu society by advocating for monotheism, social equality, rationalism, and the abolition of practices such as caste discrimination, idol worship, and Sati (the immolation of widows).
 - The Brahmo Samaj played a crucial role in promoting social reform and modern education in India.
2. **Arya Samaj:**
 - Founded by Swami Dayananda Saraswati in 1875, the Arya Samaj sought to rejuvenate Hinduism and promote Vedic values.
 - It emphasized the importance of Vedic scriptures, monotheism, social equality, and the eradication of social evils such as caste discrimination, child marriage, and untouchability.
 - The Arya Samaj also played a significant role in promoting education, especially for girls, and advocating for the rights of women.
3. **Prarthana Samaj:**
 - The Prarthana Samaj, founded in 1867 by Atmaram Pandurang, was a reformist movement within Hinduism, primarily based in Maharashtra.

- It focused on promoting monotheism, social equality, women's education, and the eradication of social evils such as caste discrimination and child marriage.
- The Prarthana Samaj advocated for social reform through prayer, education, and philanthropy.

4. Ramakrishna Mission:

- Founded by Swami Vivekananda in 1897, the Ramakrishna Mission is a spiritual and philanthropic organization inspired by the teachings of Sri Ramakrishna Paramahansa.
- It aims to promote spiritual and moral values, service to humanity, and the harmony of religions.
- The Ramakrishna Mission runs educational institutions, hospitals, and relief programs across India and around the world.

5. Aligarh Movement:

- The Aligarh Movement, initiated by Sir Syed Ahmad Khan in the late 19th century, aimed to promote modern education among Muslims in India.
- It led to the establishment of the Muhammadan Anglo-Oriental College (later Aligarh Muslim University) in 1875, which played a crucial role in the education and empowerment of Muslims in India.

These socio-religious movements contributed to various aspects of Indian society, including education, social reform, and religious revival. They challenged traditional practices and norms, advocated for social equality and justice, and promoted a spirit of religious tolerance and harmony. Their legacies continue to influence Indian society and culture to this day.

Raja Ram Mohan Roy, often referred to as the "Father of the Indian Renaissance," was a pioneering social reformer, thinker, and intellectual giant in 19th-century India. His ideas and activism laid the foundation for modern Indian society and played a crucial role in shaping India's journey towards social, religious, and intellectual transformation. Here's an overview of his life and contributions:

Early Life and Education:

- Raja Ram Mohan Roy was born on May 22, 1772, in Radhanagar, Bengal Presidency (present-day West Bengal, India).
- He received traditional education in Sanskrit, Persian, and Arabic languages and literature, as well as in Hindu scriptures and philosophy.

Reformist Ideals:

- Influenced by the rationalist and humanist ideas of the European Enlightenment, Ram Mohan Roy became a vocal critic of social evils and religious superstitions prevalent in Indian society.
- He advocated for the abolition of practices such as Sati (the immolation of widows), child marriage, polygamy, and caste discrimination.

Founding of Brahmo Samaj:

- In 1828, Ram Mohan Roy founded the Brahmo Samaj, a reformist movement aimed at rejuvenating Hinduism and promoting social and religious reform.

- The Brahmo Samaj emphasized monotheism, the worship of one God, and rejected idol worship, polytheism, and caste distinctions.
- It played a pivotal role in promoting social equality, education for women, and the abolition of social evils.

Advocacy for Social Reform:

- Ram Mohan Roy campaigned tirelessly against the practice of Sati, arguing that it had no sanction in Hindu scriptures and was a social evil that needed to be eradicated.
- He petitioned the British government to ban Sati, and his efforts culminated in the passage of the Bengal Sati Regulation in 1829, which outlawed the practice in Bengal Presidency.

Promotion of Education:

- Ram Mohan Roy was a strong advocate for modern education and believed that education was the key to social progress and enlightenment.
- He established several schools and colleges, including the Anglo-Hindu School in Calcutta, to promote Western education and scientific knowledge among Indians.

Legacy:

- Ram Mohan Roy's legacy is immense and far-reaching. He is revered as one of India's greatest social reformers and thinkers.
- His ideas laid the groundwork for the Indian Renaissance, inspiring subsequent generations of reformers, nationalists, and social activists.
- Ram Mohan Roy's emphasis on reason, social justice, and religious tolerance continues to resonate in modern India, shaping the country's ethos and values.

Raja Ram Mohan Roy

Raja Ram Mohan Roy's life and work exemplify the power of ideas and the transformative impact of individuals committed to social justice, rationalism, and humanism. He remains an enduring symbol of India's quest for progress, enlightenment, and social harmony.

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Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar

Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar, often referred to as Vidyasagar, was a prominent social reformer, educator, writer, and philosopher in 19th-century Bengal, India. He made significant contributions to various fields, including education, women's rights, widow remarriage, and Sanskrit literature. Here's an overview of his life and contributions:

Early Life and Education:

- Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar was born on September 26, 1820, in Birsingha village, Bengal Presidency (present-day West Bengal, India).
- Despite facing financial hardships, he received his early education in the village school and later continued his studies at the Sanskrit College in Calcutta (now Kolkata), where he excelled in Sanskrit studies.

Educational Reforms:

- Vidyasagar played a pivotal role in revolutionizing the education system in Bengal. He believed in the importance of education as a means of social reform and empowerment.
- In 1850, he was appointed as the principal of Sanskrit College, where he introduced several reforms, including the inclusion of English and Bengali languages in the curriculum, the promotion of science and mathematics, and the abolition of corporal punishment.

Advocacy for Women's Rights:

- Vidyasagar was a staunch advocate for women's rights and worked tirelessly to improve the status of women in Indian society.
- He played a key role in legalizing widow remarriage through his efforts to pass the Widow Remarriage Act of 1856, which allowed Hindu widows to remarry and provided them with legal protection.
- Vidyasagar also supported women's education and worked towards the establishment of schools for girls.

Social Reform:

- In addition to his advocacy for women's rights, Vidyasagar was involved in various social reform initiatives aimed at eradicating social evils such as child marriage, polygamy, and caste discrimination.
- He campaigned against the prevailing dowry system and promoted widow rehabilitation and empowerment.

Literary Contributions:

- Vidyasagar was a prolific writer and scholar in Sanskrit and Bengali literature. He composed numerous textbooks, essays, and treatises on a wide range of subjects, including grammar, philosophy, and literature.

- His most famous work is "Barna Parichay" (Introduction to the Bengali Alphabet), which revolutionized Bengali education by simplifying the Bengali script and making it accessible to the masses.

Legacy:

- Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar's contributions to education, social reform, and literature had a profound and lasting impact on Indian society.
- He is revered as one of Bengal's greatest luminaries and is often hailed as "Vidyasagar," meaning "Ocean of Knowledge," for his vast learning and wisdom.
- Vidyasagar's progressive ideals and humanitarian values continue to inspire generations of Indians, and his legacy remains an integral part of India's cultural and intellectual heritage.

Ishwar Chandra Vidyasagar's life and work exemplify the transformative power of education, social reform, and compassion in advancing the cause of social justice and human dignity. He is remembered as a visionary leader and a champion of the marginalized and oppressed.

Dayanand Saraswati

Swami Dayananda Saraswati, commonly referred to as Dayananda Saraswati, was a renowned Hindu religious leader, social reformer, and founder of the Arya Samaj, a reform movement that aimed to revitalize Hinduism and promote Vedic values. Here's an overview of his life and contributions:

Early Life:

- Dayananda Saraswati was born as Mool Shankar Tiwari on February 12, 1824, in Tankara, Gujarat, India.
- He was deeply influenced by his family's devotion to Lord Shiva and received traditional education in Sanskrit scriptures and Vedic literature.

Spiritual Awakening:

- At the age of 21, Dayananda Saraswati experienced a profound spiritual awakening after witnessing the death of his uncle due to a snake bite. This event prompted him to search for deeper spiritual truths.
- He renounced his family and worldly possessions and embarked on a journey of self-discovery, wandering across India as a sannyasi (ascetic).

Founding of Arya Samaj:

- In 1875, Dayananda Saraswati founded the Arya Samaj, a socio-religious reform movement dedicated to the promotion of Vedic principles and the eradication of social evils.
- The Arya Samaj emphasized the authority of the Vedas, monotheism, social equality, and the rejection of idol worship, caste distinctions, and superstitions.

Social Reform and Activism:

- Dayananda Saraswati was a vocal critic of social practices such as caste discrimination, child marriage, and untouchability. He advocated for the upliftment of the oppressed and marginalized sections of society.
- He campaigned against practices like Sati (the immolation of widows), arguing that they had no basis in Vedic scriptures and were contrary to true Hinduism.

Promotion of Education and Women's Rights:

- Dayananda Saraswati placed a strong emphasis on education and advocated for the education of both men and women. He believed that education was the key to social progress and empowerment.
- He supported the education of girls and encouraged the Arya Samaj to establish schools and colleges for their education.

Legacy:

- Dayananda Saraswati's contributions to Hinduism and Indian society were immense. He is remembered as one of the most influential religious and social reformers of the 19th century.
- The Arya Samaj, founded by Dayananda Saraswati, continues to exist today and has a significant presence in India and other parts of the world.
- His teachings and ideals continue to inspire millions of people, and his legacy remains an integral part of India's cultural and religious heritage.

Dayananda Saraswati's life and work exemplify a commitment to religious reform, social justice, and the pursuit of truth. His teachings continue to resonate in modern India, advocating for a return to the core principles of Hinduism and the promotion of a more just and equitable society.

Jyotirao Phule (Jyotiba Phule):-

Jyotirao Phule, commonly known as Jyotiba Phule, was a prominent social reformer, thinker, and activist in 19th-century India. He played a pivotal role in challenging caste-based discrimination, promoting education for the oppressed classes, and advocating for social justice. Here's an overview of his life and contributions:

Early Life:

- Jyotiba Phule was born on April 11, 1827, in Pune, Maharashtra, India, into a family belonging to the Mali caste, considered lower in the caste hierarchy.
- Despite facing discrimination and limited access to education, Phule was largely self-taught and became proficient in Marathi, English, and Sanskrit.

Caste Reforms:

- Inspired by the ideals of social equality and justice, Jyotiba Phule dedicated his life to challenging the caste-based social order prevalent in Indian society.
- He vehemently opposed the caste system and the oppression of lower-caste communities by the upper castes, particularly the Brahmins.
- Phule criticized the discriminatory practices and customs perpetuated by the upper castes and worked towards creating awareness about the inherent injustice of the caste system.

Education and Empowerment:

- Jyotiba Phule recognized the importance of education as a tool for social empowerment and upliftment. He believed that education was essential for breaking the shackles of caste-based oppression.
- In 1848, he founded the first school for girls from lower-caste communities in Pune, breaking social norms and challenging traditional gender roles.
- Phule also established the Satyashodhak Samaj (Society of Truth Seekers) in 1873, which aimed to promote education, social equality, and the rights of marginalized communities.

Literary Contributions:

- Jyotiba Phule was a prolific writer and social critic. He wrote several influential books and pamphlets in Marathi, advocating for social reform and criticizing orthodox Hinduism.
- His notable works include "Gulamgiri" (Slavery), "Shetkaryacha Asud" (The Cultivator's Whipcord), and "Sarvajanik Satyadharma Pustak" (The Book of Public Truth and Righteousness).

Legacy:

- Jyotiba Phule's contributions to social reform and empowerment had a profound and lasting impact on Indian society. He is revered as one of Maharashtra's greatest social reformers and a champion of the oppressed.
- His efforts paved the way for the empowerment of lower-caste communities and the advancement of social justice in India.
- Phule's legacy continues to inspire generations of social activists and reformers, and his teachings remain relevant in the ongoing struggle for equality and justice.

Jyotiba Phule's life and work exemplify the power of individual courage, compassion, and commitment to social justice in challenging oppressive social structures and advocating for the rights and dignity of all human beings. He remains a towering figure in the history of India's social reform movements.